

CHAPTER 3

THE XVIth CENTURY ETHNIC BOUNDARIES AND THE NATURE OF CAQUETIO POLITIES

3.1 Introduction and Objectives

This chapter has two main objectives. First, I will define as precisely as the historic documents allow the territorial boundaries of the Arawakan-speaking ethnic groups of Northwestern Venezuela and Northeastern Colombia. The territorial boundaries of Arawakan-speaking groups, of course, can only be defined in contrast to neighboring non-Arawakan groups. Hence, those ethnic groups with which the various "autonomous" Arawakan-speaking interacted (positively or negatively) will also be considered in this chapter. The spatial ethnic mosaic will be presented within the time frame of the XVIth through XVIIIth centuries, giving preference to the earliest available documentation as gathered by the Spanish chroniclers. In the final analysis the pattern of ethnic distribution will form the basis for establishing correlations with the linguistic model presented in Chapter 2 and the archaeological model to be discussed in the following chapter.

The second objective concerns the definition and identification of the Caquetío politics. It will be proposed that the Caquetío were far from being a single, homogeneous ethnic category (or culture). Linguistically, there is ample evidence that all Caquetío politics were a single speech community, consequently, they all derived from the same ancestral language. The Caquetío are all historically related. Differences in the nature of the various Caquetío politics developed as they expanded through different territories and interacted with different cultures and different environments. It will be demonstrated that Steward and Faron's (1959: 241-247) assumption that all the Caquetío "tribes" were representative of a single culture type, Theocratic Chiefdoms, is unwarranted and inaccurate. I will present evidence to argue for several autonomous Caquetío politics, each with its own unique features of ethnicity and socio-political organization. While the Coastal Caquetío was characterized by a hierarchical organization of power and authority vested in a supreme or paramount chief,

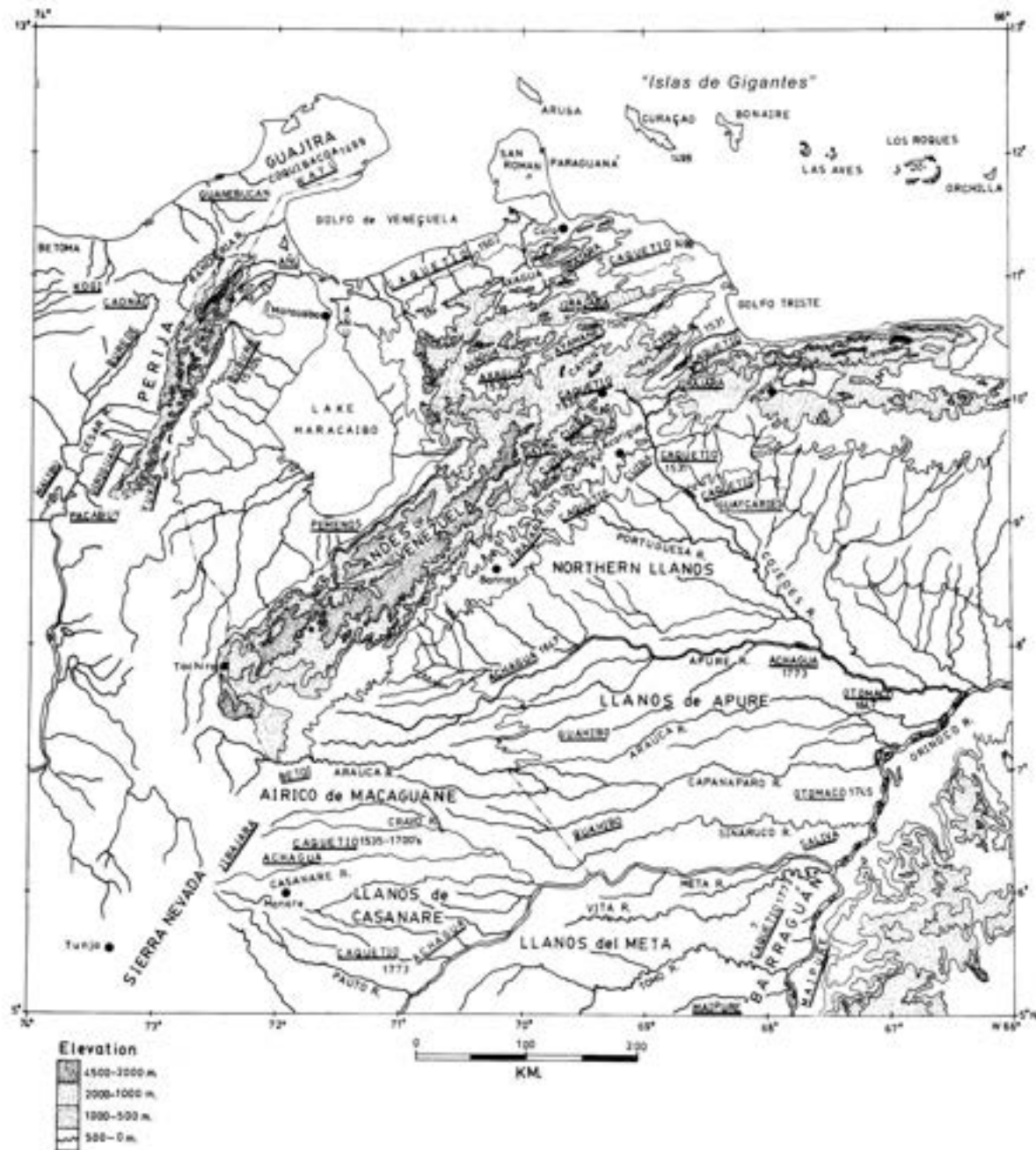


Figure 28: XVIth Century Ethnic Distribution in Western Venezuela.

the Caquetío of Barquisimeto appear to have had a dual authority; power structure depending on whether or not they were engaged in warfare (Peace vs. WarChiefs).¹ These different types of authority, along with other equally important features that distinguished the Barquisimeto from the Coastal Caquetío will be crucial when we examine the archaeological record in Chapter 4. There I will propose that the distinction between the Dabajuran and the Tierran (ceramic) sub-traditions precisely parallel the distinctions between the Barquisimeto and the Coastal Caquetío polities.

3.2 The Western Sphere

The Western Sphere is a broad, ecologically diverse, territory. It is comprised of the Maracaibo Lake and its alluvial floodplains, the semi-arid, xerophitic Guajira peninsula, and the riverine valleys of the Ranchería (formerly Río de La Hacha) and César. In the XVIth century, the César-Ranchería area was known as Valle de Upar (Valledupar). The region is orographically delineated by the Sierra Nevada de Santa Marta (*Monte de Sta. Eufemia* in Juan de la Cosa's map [Fig. 40]) to the west, and by the Sierra de Perijá (or Motilones) to the east (Fig. 31). The latter, has a northeast to southwest orientation, and toward the southern edge of the Maracaibo Basin it joins the Sierra of Mérida (Venezuelan Andes) and the Cordillera Oriental of Colombia. The northern tip of the Perijá range (Montes de Oca) stops abruptly at the base of the Guajira peninsula. The Maracaibo Basin (Fig. 28) is almost entirely surrounded by rising Andean ranges. Directly to the south, the Cordillera Oriental splits into the Sierra of Perijá that continues to the west of the Lake, and the Sierra of Mérida, which veers to the east of the Maracaibo Basin. The northeastern Maracaibo sub-area is a strategic locus. It provides an effective lowland intercommunication passage; from Venezuela to the Guajira peninsula, the coast of Santa Marta and to the immense alluvial plains of the Magdalena via the Upar Valley. The northeastern Maracaibo sub-area adjoins the westernmost coastal plains of Falcón, although both are quite different with regards to ecological life zones (climate, vegetation, soils). The narrow mouth of the Lake of Maracaibo opens into the Gulf of Venezuela. The latter is circumscribed by the Guajira and the Paraguaná peninsulas.²

Finally, there are two other topographic features worth mentioning. Although the southern Maracaibo sub-area is surrounded by the rising Andean cordilleras, there is a crucial gap, of relative low elevation, that permits a fairly direct communication with the western Llanos (Venezuela). This structural depression, known as the Táchira Depression, centers around the Venezuelan city of San Cristóbal (Fig. 28). The second route of access into the Maracaibo Basin from the Barquisimeto and Quíbor valleys (State of Lara) is found, approximately, along the Panamerican highway between Sabana Grande (Maracaibo) and La Pastora (Lara-Trujillo).

¹ The Peace and War chief is not necessarily and solely an opposing structure, but also is complementary. As I will show later, each office is held in different circumstances, affecting the chiefdom's territory and its allies. The terms can be opposing since the War chief appears to emphasize a more hierarchical arrangement and exercise of authority than the Peace Chief. The two roles of authority complements each other precisely because of their differing attributions. Hence, one may view this organizational structure as a complementary opposition between Peace and War and between more vs. less hierarchical.

²For a synthesis of the ecological life zones of the Maracaibo Area, consult Ewel and Madríz: *Zonas de Vida de Venezuela*, Ministerio de Agricultura y Cría, República de Venezuela, Caracas, 1968. Also consult COPLANARH (1975d): *Inventario Nacional de Tierras, Estudio Geomorfológico de la Región de Maracaibo*. Comisión del Plan de Aprovechamiento de los Recursos Hidráulicos. República de Venezuela (COPLANARH), Caracas.

3.2.1 The Arawakan Ethnic Groups

Aside from the *Caquetío*,³ all the Arawakan-speaking XVIth century ethnic groups of the Western Sphere were concentrated in and around the Guajira peninsula, including the northeastern Maracaibo area (henceforth, Sinamaica). Currently, only three groups are extant. The most successful are the so-called Guajiros (self designation: *Wayú*). Both the Guajiros living in the peninsula and those who have gravitated to Maracaibo have been estimated to number around 52,000 in Venezuela alone (B.I.V. 1982: 230). Another group, the so-called Coçina (*Kusi'na*), are nearly (if not totally) extinct. Of the third group, the so-called Paraujano (self designation: *Añú*), only a few individuals maintain their native language and elements of their traditional culture (Wilbert 1983), although the 1982 Census (B.I.V. 1982: 230) presented a head count of 2,612 individuals who still claim *Añú* affiliation. In addition to these surviving Arawakan-speaking groups, there were several other non-Arawakan groups that, in the XVIth century, co-existed with the dominant Guajiro-Wayú and Kusi'na-Wayú groups. These were the *Coanao* and the *Wanebucán* (or Guanebucán),

³ As noted in Chapter 2, the term *Caquetío* /*kaketío*/ is cognate to the Lokono term *kakitho* meaning 'person, people'. Thus, there is every reason to believe that the Spanish designated the ethnohistoric *Caquetío* with the self-designation term used by the *Caquetío*.

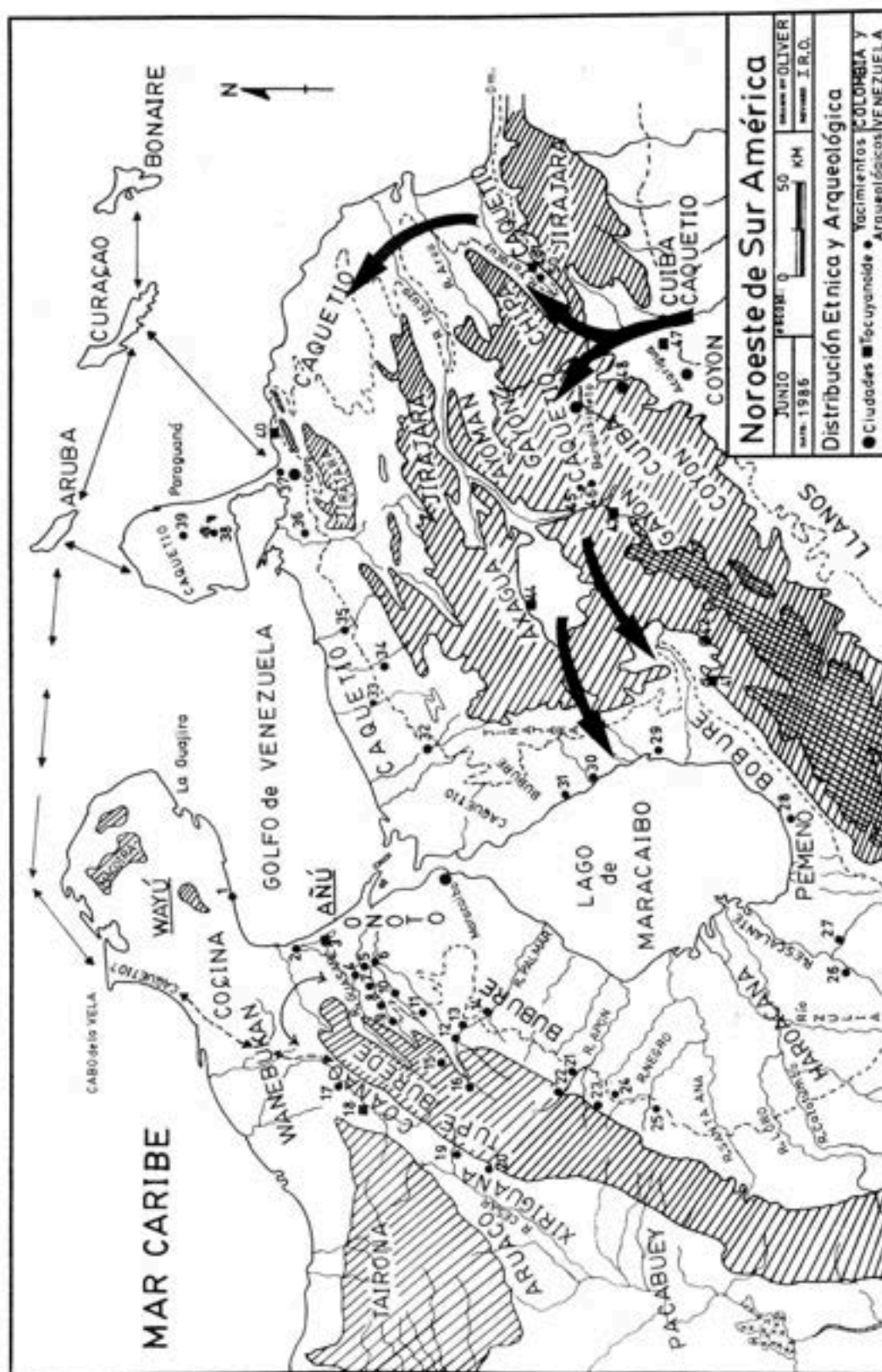


Figure 29: Ethnic and Archaeological Distributions in Northwestern Venezuela

both of which extended from the northern Guajira into the Ranchería River. A third non-Arawakan ethnic group identified in the Guajira peninsula is the *Arhuaco* (Aruago, Aruaco, Haroacana).

The ethnohistoric evidence presented herein will show that: 1) the Guajiro-Wayú and the Kusi'na-Wayú penetrated the peninsula and displaced a Macro-Chibchan-speaking ethnic group known as Arhuaco; 2) The Guajiro-Wayú and the Kusi'na-Wayú were already segmented by the time of Spanish contact; 3) The Caquetío settlements were, in all probability, *avant garde* posts that traded with the Wanebucán and Coanao. The Caquetío traded maritime products, such as salt, for gold and other items proceeding from Valledupar and from the slopes of Sierra Nevada. The Caquetío of the Guajira undoubtedly originated from Coastal Falcón.

The Guajiro designate themselves as *Wayú*, which glosses as '*people, person*'. It is a well known fact that some *Kusi'na groups* also designate themselves as *Wayú* (Gallagher 1976: 17). Kusi'na, as it turns out, is a derogatory designation given by a large segment of the Guajiro matrilineal "clans"⁴ to other native Indian groups, as well as to those groups who designate themselves as *Wayú*, but who depart from the socio-cultural expectations of the Guajiro. In fact, some Kusi'na groups were comprised of *Wayú* and other Indians. Miguel Jusayú, a Guajiro (Jusayú "clan" [Picon 1983: 81]) and an excellent student of his vernacular language, defined the term *kusi'na* as referring to "*any Indian that is not native of the Guajira peninsula*" and "*as a group of Guajiro Indians dedicated to robbery and theft* (Jusayú 1977: 493 [my translation]).⁵

To avoid confusions, I shall distinguish the *Wayú* as *Guajiro-Wayú* and as *Kusi'na-Wayú*. Also, I shall refer to "other-natives" as *Kusi'na-others* to distinguish them from the Kusi'na-Wayú. Currently, the Guajiro-Wayú recognize yet another category of "outsiders" or "others" that is applied exclusively to any individuals of European mixture. Clearly, the Guajiro-Wayú category of *Alijuna* was developed during Post-European Contact period. The term *alijuna* glosses as '*remote foreigner*' (cf. Jusayú 1977: 222). Goulet (1981: 2), however, suggests that Kusi'na is translated by the Guajiro-Wayú as *indio* (Indian in Spanish) and *alijuna* as *civilizado* (civilized [person]). Picon (1983: 206) noted that the Kusi'na:

"..includes neighboring Indian groups, such as the Barí [*Macro-Chibchan*] and Yuko [*Cariban*], considered as 'savages' by the Guajiro because of their customs and their [*mode of*] subsistence." (Picon 1983: 206 [my translation from French; my clarifications in brackets]).

Because of the introduction of herding (pastoralism) by the Spanish *conquistadores*, the Guajiro-Wayú have substantially transformed many aspects of their traditional pre-Contact culture. The fascinating details of such cultural transformation, along with the survival and a glimpse of what ethnohistorians surmise as their pre-Contact tradition have been extremely well documented by ethnohistorians (e.g. Picon 1983) and ethnologists (Wilbert 1970, 1975;

⁴ The correct Guajiro kinship term is not *clan* but either *eirrüku* or *apüshi* (cf. Goulet 1981: 152).

⁵ Jusayú's ethnocentric perception of the Kusi'na is, in many respects, quite like the XVIth century perception by the Spanish (e.g. Castellanos), as well as later Colonial views (e.g. Simmons [1881] or Jahn 1927) portraying them as bands of thieves and lowly peoples. Note that the definition has two conceptual categories: a) a recognition of non-Wayú natives of the Guajira peninsula and b) a group of Wayú whose behavioral patterns do not conform to the norms and expectations of the "majority" of the Wayú people.

Watson 1967; Goulet 1981, among others).

All the students of Guajiro culture --myself included-- agree that the Guajiro are relative newcomers to the Guajira peninsula. Also we all agree that, once in the peninsula, the Guajiro were forced to rely very heavily on hunting, wild fruit collecting and fishing, since agriculture in the Guajira is quite precarious and unpredictable (Gallagher 1976; Picon 1983: 135-142). Indeed, Castellanos ([1589]), who travelled through the area in 1544, described the Guajira as a land of:

"...endless savannas,/ Though oddly filled with thistle and thorn,/ in which there dwelt barbaric peoples,/ who in those parts they called *coçinas*..." (Castellanos [1589] *in* Gallagher 1976: 19 [translated by Gallagher, my italics]).⁶

In another quote Juan de Castellanos described the area of El Cabo de La Vela in the northern Guajira (Fig. 30) as:

"...a coast of thistle and thorn,/ Sterile and of dry sand;/ The neighboring peoples living there/ Extremely evil and beastly are,/ Whom we call the *coçinas*/ Of whom we have already mentioned a many great evils;/ There are rabbit and deer in abundance,/ And now a great number of cattle." (Castellanos [1589] *in* Parra 1930a: 362 [my italics, translation and underlining]).⁷

As Gallagher (1976: 17-19) pointed out, there is very little climatic vegetational and faunal differences between the XVIth century and the modern Guajira. Note that by the time Castellanos travelled the peninsula in 1544, the Spanish-introduced cattle was already abundant and integrated to the Guajiro-Wayú life style. Because of the adverse climatic and ecological conditions throughout the peninsula of the Guajira, agriculture is not a dependable and predictable economic activity. Gallagher, correctly, observed that:

"Agriculture is not an important part of the subsistence pattern [of the present Guajiros] both because of the difficulty of pursuing it [in the face of adverse ecological conditions] and because the occupation is held in low esteem by the Guajiro. It is true that some Indians in localities immediately north of Ríohacha and in the immediate environs of Punta Espada (in the Serranía de Macuira) where limited agriculture is possible, will clear a plot of ground and plant yucca, sesame, beans, and maize, but these are poor Indians and their crops will often fail because seasonal rains do not come " (Gallagher 1976: 18 [my italics and clarifications in brackets]).

The situation described by Gallagher (above), as well as Métraux (1948: 370-371) and

⁶ Descubrieron amplísimas çavanas,/ Aunque llenas de cardos y espinas./ Habitadas de gentes inhumanas, las cuales por allí llaman *coçinas*..." (Castellanos [1589] *in* Parra 1930a: 278 [my emphasis]).

⁷ Es costa de cardones y de espinas,/ Estéril y de secos arenales;/ Gentes que por allí le son vecinas/ En extremo son malas y bestiales,/ a los cuales llamamos los *coçinas*/ de quien hemos ya dicho grandes males;/ Hay copia de conejos y venados,/ E ya gran muchedumbre de ganados." (Castellanos [1589] *in* Parra 1930a: 362).

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Aschmann (1960: 416), is equally applicable to the 1540's, when Castellanos described the area. But more interesting, it also coincides in the description Castellanos gave about the area around the Jarara and Macuira ranges, where he mentions the presence of *conucos* (gardens). Castellanos, following the toponyms of his time, designated this north-northeastern region of the Guajira, and its ranges, as *Coquibacoa*.

Castellanos tells us that Pedro de Limpias and his men proceeded in the direction of the hills and ranges of the Coquibacoa region (i.e. Macuira, Jarara) where they found Guanebucán and Caquetío resistance. But most importantly, Castellanos mentions that this region included *sementeras* (garden plots) and reasonably abundant supply of food --no doubt the result of a favorable rainy season.

"They continued toward the sierra,/ Their unfortunate adventure;/ They found garden plots in the land/ And in them abundance of food: / [*Indian*] warriors came out to challenge us,/ With Castilian weapons in their hands,/ And all of these peoples that came,/ Were *Guanebucán* and *Caquetío*." (Castellanos [1589] in Parra 1930a: 284 [my translation from Spanish, emphasis, and clarifications in brackets]).⁸

From these quotes it is clear that, aside from the Guajiro-Wayú, other ethnic groups also inhabited the peninsular region. Castellanos mentioned the presence of Caquetío in association with the Wanebucán (Guanebucán) in the area around the Sierra of Macuira, precisely the area where, at least when rainfalls permitted, some agriculture could be practiced.

It is no accident, in my opinion, that the range's designation includes the particle *macú*, *macó*, or *makú* which for many Maipuran-Arawakan languages glosses as 'outsiders' or as former outside lineages that have been recently incorporated into the lower ranking lineages of established groups, as is the case between the Tukanoan-speaking phratries and the so-called Macú of Northwestern Amazonia (Hugh-Jones 1977, Goldman [1963]1979). The other possibility is that this root, *makú*, relates to the *Kogi* or *Caggaba* (Macro-Chibchan) language, recorded by Reichel-Dolmatoff as meaning *comisario* (Spanish for a civil authority [1977: 167]).⁹ Whichever might be the etymology, both imply the presence of an outsider group, which in this case ought to include the Arhuaco, Caquetío, Kusi'na, Coanao, and/or Wanebucán.¹⁰

⁸ Prosiguen sus caminos a la sierra,/ Aquesta desventura percebida;/ hallaron sementeras en la tierra/ Y en ella mucha copia de comida:/ Al encuentro salió gente de guerra,/ De castellanas armas proveída ,/ Y toda la más gente que venía/ Era guanebucan e caquetía. (Castellanos [1589] in Parra 1930a: 284).

⁹ The term Makú is also used by the Tukanoans to designate an ethnic group inhabiting Río Negro-Vaupés area in Northwestern Amazonia. The group is held in low esteem by the Tukano (Goldman 1979:). Goldman stated: "...the Macú is a catchall name for very simple nonhorticultural peoples whose center seems to be Río Negro but who have been moving westward into the Vaupés-Caquetá area (Métraux 1948). There they have either been assimilated in the Tucanoan- and Arawakan-speaking tribes or have lived among these tribes as *servants* or 'slaves' or in some other symbiotic relationship." (Goldman 1979: 7 [my emphasis]). Curiously, among the Wakuenai (Arawakan) of the Guainía River, there is a term which designates the first order or "first born" of a group of related sibs. This elder sib is known as the *mákun* (Wright 1981: 32). However, I am unsure whether or not this term is etymologically related to makú. If such is the case, I suspect that makú and mákun acknowledge that the earliest inhabitants of the region were the Makú peoples who, as noted by Goldman (1979: 300), were to be either assimilated into Tukanoan or Arawakan-speaking groups or to be treated as servants.

¹⁰The term Macoir has been associated with Wanebucan Indians (cf. section 3.2.2). I shall discuss the boundaries of the Wanebucan and Caquetío shortly, but first I shall concentrate on the Guajiro-Wayú and the Kusi'na.

The term *guajiro* (*goagiro*, *goaxiro*) first appeared in the chronicle of Fray Pedro de Simón ([1623] 1882 [I]: Capítulo V; Jahn 1927: 127-128). However, Ferdinand Colombus (1527) and Diego de Ribera (1529) prepared two large maps of America, by order of Charles V, where the peninsula was inscribed in gothic as *gochire* (Jahn 1927: 126; Friedemann and Arocha 1985: 331). Curiously, neither Juan de La Cosa's map (1499/1500) nor the anonymous map of ca. 1534-5 (Figs. 32) show any inscriptions resembling the term *guajiro*. I suspect that the Columbus-Ribera inscription was added much later. Rather, de la Cosa's 1500 map, as well as the anonymous map of ca. 1534, recorded the term *Coquibacoa* for the Guajira peninsula.

Kusi'na is a designation that can only make sense if another non-Kusi'na group possessing the Guajiro language (*Wayúnaiki*) existed. In other words, the *Kusi'na-Wayú* and the *Guajiro-Wayú* co-existed. Both are, so to speak, a different side of the same ethnolinguistic coin.

The previous quotes from Castellanos are the earliest documented historical evidence of the presence of both *Guajiro-Wayú* and *Kusi'na-Wayú* in the Guajira peninsula at the time of European Contact (Castellanos [1589] in Parra 1930a: 362). The *Kusi'na-Wayú* and the *Kusi'na-other* were lumped into a single category by Castellanos. Nevertheless, he described the *Coçinas* as follows:

"...inhuman peoples,/ Whom in those parts were known as
coçinas,/ So swift and light of foot,/ That they are like unto the
deer;/ Their only sustenance and harvest is/ That which bow
and arrow can yield.

All lean; tall, tricky people,/ And never clothing or garment/
Conceal their vigorous members;/ Prone to bloody combat and
defiance;/ So adept in fishing and in hunting/ That they know
not how to let fly a stray shot/ Uncommonly bellicose in battle/
Against everyone, wherever it may be." (Castellanos [1589] in
Parra 1930a: 278 [my translation and italics]).¹¹

The same *Coçina* groups were mentioned by Castellanos for the period of García de Lerma's governorship of Santa Marta between 1529-1535, and later for the governorship of Lope de Orozco (1577-1588/9) in connection with a rebellion in 1577 (Castellanos [1589] in Parra 1930a: 372, 402). Clearly, by the time of European Contact, the *Guajiro-Wayú* and the *Kusi'na-Wayú* Arawakan-speaking groups were firmly established in the Guajira peninsula.

In recent times, the *Guajiro-Wayú* keepers of the oral tradition have offered historical

¹¹ "...de gentes inhumanas,/ Las cuales por allí llaman *coçinas*,/ De tan ligeras piernas y livianas,/ Que son las de ciervos muy vecinas;/ Es sólo su sustento y cosecha/ Lo que se les puede dar el arco y flecha./ Todos enjutos; altos, gente baza, / Y nunca jamás ropa y atavío/ A sus nerviosos miembros embaraza;/ Son dados al sangriento desafío; Tan diestros en la pesca y en la caza/ Que no saben soltar un tiro en baldío;/ Animosísimos en la pelea/ Contra cualquier y dondequier que sea." (Castellanos [1589] in Parra 1930a: 278 [my emphasis]).

"legends" (which they view as history rather than mythology) indicating that before the Guajiro established themselves in the Guajira peninsula, they had to expel or force-out a Macro-Chibchan-speaking group designated as *Arhuaco* (Hernández de Alba 1936).¹² These traditional Guajiro-Wayú oral "histories" argue very strongly for the presence of Macro-Chibchan speaking ethnic groups in the Guajira peninsula before the penetration and expansion of the Guajiro-Wayú. A Guajiro-Wayú elder, keeper of the oral tradition, recited to Hernández de Alba the following account:

"In the time when there were no Spanish, the Arhuacos lived near Chichibacoa and then they moved to the sierras, later they left to the [*Sierra*] Nevada [*de Santa Marta*]. They did not fit [*or have room*]. Because of this, and because there were many summers [*droughts*] here, they left. They [*Arhuacos*] were friends of the Guajiros [*Wayú*], they were more powerful, and had more knowledge than us; they had poisons, their own saliva was a poison, because they chewed coca leaves [*hayo*] with the lime that they carried in the bottle-gourd. They had more jewels and knew more prayers." (Hernández de Alba 1936: 24 [my italics and translation from Spanish]).

This account points to the Chichibacoa region between Punta Espada and Bahía Honda, in the northern coast of the Upper Guajira, where Castellanos had mentioned in the 1540's the presence of Guanebucán, Coanao, and Caquetío. A second oral account collected by Hernández de Alba stated:

"The hills were in the ancient times a single mountain range, those of the Guajira [*Jarara, Cocinas, Macuira*] and Sierra Nevada, La Teta [*Guajira*], and los Monqui. The Arhuacos lived in Jarara. But there were children begat from brother and sister, and mother and son, and so forth [*incest*]. Then Mareigua punished them by separating the hills; and the Guajiros, to punish the Arhuacos that caused this [*incest*], persecuted them, and expelled them from the Cave of Jarara to the Sierra Nevada. Now nobody wants to live near the Jarara cave, much less go inside." (Hernández de Alba 1936: 24 [my translation from Spanish; my clarifications in brackets]).¹³

Alfredo Jahn (1927: 133-134) also supports Hernández's observations. Jahn noted that the Guajiro elders he interviewed claimed that their ancestors came from far away, and that they had many fights against the original inhabitants until, finally, they were able to expel them from the Guajira peninsula.

Finally, the Guajiro oral accounts also include more "mythical" legends, whereby the Arhuaco were expelled from the Guajira peninsula because of the latter's imputed violations of social norms (in the form of incest). One such account was recorded by Hernández de Alba, although Paz (1972) and Caudmont (1953) have presented additional variants and

¹² For an excellent compendium and analysis of Guajiro legends and myths, consult Michel Perrin's *Le Chemin des Indiens Morts*, Paris, 1983.

¹³ Mareigua or *Maleiwa* is the Guajiro-Wayú "supreme being" and creator of their culture and social norms.

interpretations of the same legend. The Guajiro-Wayú account, here summarized, relates to their theories about the production and reproduction of the Wayú peoples, thus a background commentary is necessary.

Maleiwa is the creator of the Wayú culture. The Wayú are of the opinion that the exclusive transmission of the flesh through the uterine (female) line is dependent on *Maleiwa*, who determined the principles of filiation (descent) when he founded the Wayú society.¹⁴ As Goulet (1981: 151) noted one of the first questions posed by the Wayú about a Wayú individual is: *kasai'chi niirru'ku?* That is, "What is your flesh?"; akin to our asking of: "What is your surname?" To this, says Goulet (1981: 151), the Wayú answers by giving the proper surname transmitted through matrilineage: e.g. "I am a Jusayú" or "I am an Ipuana". Goulet also found out that the Wayú would also ask questions such as "Of what animal is the *flesh* of the Jusayu?" (*kasa'wüchí shiirru'ku Jusayú?*), which in this instance is the rabbit. Every family name has a corresponding animal "totem". Goulet, however, notes that:

"In the Guajiro myths these animals present themselves as the ancestors of the Guajiros having the same surname, and thus the Guajiros are associated with the animal that corresponds to them [*each set of uterine relatives or apü'shí*]. The creator, Maleiwa, forbade to kill his totem and further prescribed that one had to address to the totems as grandfather: *to all of them you will call TATUU'SHI, grandfathers of my flesh, of myself TAPÜ'SHI, of my EIIRU'KU, of my Tribe* (Paz 1973: 193). Seemingly, the prohibition of killing the animal associated with one's surname, and the belief that the [*Wayú*] people descended from their totems is not alive, and has no currency among contemporary Guajiro." (Goulet 1981: 151-152 [my translation from Spanish and clarifications in brackets]).

With this brief background, I can now turn to the synthesis of the account, as reported by Hernández de Alba (1936: 54-55). Keep in mind that the tiger and the tiger's mother (uterine relative) are metaphors for the Arhuaco Indians, while the four mythical brothers, especially the youngest one, are the culture heroes of the Wayú.

The legend tells us about the experiences of four siblings, in a mythical time when the Guajira was populated only by "animals". On one occasion, when the siblings trespassed into a garden of melons, a pigeon asked them why they trespassed. The pigeon said to the four siblings- "*Your mother is the Guamacho and she was eaten by the tiger. You are leftovers of the tiger*". All siblings, but the youngest (wisest) one, paid no attention.¹⁵

One day the tiger called the fox, the rabbit, and other animals. They picked-up their bows and arrows to go hunting. The three elder brothers also went hunting. The younger brother, after asking permission to the older siblings also accompanied them. They all went out hunting, when a deer crossed them. The tiger's shot failed something that had never happened before. One by one all the animals also missed their shot, and so did the elder brothers. However, the youngest brother succeeded in killing the animal. He carried it to the

¹⁴The theories of biological and social reproduction of the Wayú are as elegant as they are complex. For a full and detailed analysis of such body of Guajiro knowledge consult Goulet (1981).

¹⁵ The Guamacho tree (*Peireska guamacho*) has a fruit that attracts animals.

tiger's home, a cave where the tiger's old and blind mother lived. The young boy cut the mother's head and threw her body (i.e., flesh) in a pot, leaving her head resting on a gourd.¹⁶

When the tiger arrived, he began eating the meat from the pot. When chewing the meat, the tiger wondered- *"how come it sounds as if it sings?"* Soon he realized that he was eating his mother. That is, he was violating the totem taboo; tantamount to committing incest. So the tiger went out to fight against the four siblings. The brothers picked-up their bows and arrows and persecuted the tiger through the mountains, and made him run to *Kamurruna* (Sierra Nevada). The siblings had remained in the Guajira since then, but the tiger left to the Sierra Nevada singing- *"Poor me, Poor me... How happy are they there now, and I, miserable I, receiving punishment from my relatives the Arhuaco... disgraceful me!"* (Hernández de Alba 1936: 55).

Both, the accounts regarded by the Guajiro-Wayú as oral history, and those regarded as part of the Guajiro creation myths coincide in stipulating that they had encountered peoples who they had to expel from the Guajira peninsula. These peoples were designated as Arhuacos who happened to live around Chichibacoa (Fig. 30). In the first account we are told that the Arhuaco left the region because there was (or were) extended droughts (*....porque había muchos veranos....*) and because, apparently, there was no room (*No cabían....*) for both the Arhuaco and the Guajiro-Wayú. The second account, above quoted, explained that the reason for the Arhuaco expulsion from the Guajira was due to the fact that they had committed incest. They were expelled from the cave of Jarara and persecuted to Sierra Nevada (Figs.29, 30). The last account, with more mythical overtones, claims that the "tiger", a metaphor for the Arhuaco Indians, had violated *Maleiwa's* prohibition of incest or sexual relations with close uterine relatives, as expressed by the act of "endocanibalism" by the tiger (cf., footnote #106). Such transgression goes totally against the Guajiro-Wayú conceptualization of social (uterine) filiation and their theories of biological and cultural production and reproduction (cf. Goulet 1981).

¹⁶ The symbolism of the gourd among the Wayú has interesting connotations in the context of the accounts of the "tiger's" feats. The womb of a woman is conceived metaphorically by the Guajiro as a gourd and, by extension, the large ceramic burial vessels (secondary burials) are also likened to a woman's womb. Indeed, various Wayú vessels forms are clay representations of gourds. The symbols involved relate to a complete life cycle: from birth (womb) to death (burial urn). The gourd is then both life and death. In the context of the account discussed above, the tiger's mother's head was placed *inside* a gourd (womb) while her body was placed inside a pot (burial urn). Ironically, the tiger's mother's (i.e. an Arhuaco) death represented the triumph (birth) of the Wayú hegemony over the territory. The tiger's act of "eating" his own *eiirru'kú* (flesh), that is his closest uterine relative, represents incest, and a form of forbidden endogamous (endocanibalism) relationship.

The above account speaks of a historical/mythic time of social chaos and inter-ethnic confrontation. It can be inferred that the two groups lacked a formalized or institutionalized basis for interaction other than warfare, and it would not be unreasonable to suspect that part of the problem --as underscored by the incest theme-- has to do with the incompatibility of wife-taking and wife-giving exchange between the two social systems. This, combined with the extended droughts to which the Guajira is periodically susceptible, created demographic pressures on the inhabitants, leading to schismogenesis, warfare, and the ultimate dominance of "right" (Wayú) over "wrong" (Arhuaco).¹⁷

The spatial distribution of both the Kusi'na-Wayú and the Kusi'na-other is somewhat difficult to define, given the classificatory ambiguities of the term. Citing Simmons (ca. 1881-1882), Jahn noted that the Kusi'na territory *par excellence* ranged from the Cojoro mountain to the La Teta hill, including the narrow strip of land that crosses the plain (Jahn 1927: 148). The Kusi'na, during the 1880's, were also noted to have taken refuge in the Montes de Oca range (northernmost segment of the Sierra de Perijá). The territory to the east, as far north as Macuira, had been regularly raided by Kusi'na groups, especially between Siapana and the Tucacas lagoon. Simmons further noted the existence of Kusi'na *capitanes* (chiefs) in the sites of Anaipana, Yurupiche, La Teta, Las Guardias, and the Cojoro district (Jahn 1927:148). To a certain degree, this is fairly consistent with the earlier XVIth century spatial distributions (Fig. 30).¹⁸

There is little doubt that there were also Kusi'na in the Macuira range and the area of the Serranía de Cocinas or Cosinetas in the 1530's. Historian Josefina Moreno, citing a deposition given by Esteban Martín in 1534 and different from the document to be discussed later, states that:

"...and the province of Carara, and talking [Martín] with the Indians of this province a number of times, who are called... *coçinas* and *atanares*... this native language interpreter [Martín], found them in his conquests..." (Martín's [1534] deposition, in Moreno 1983: 73 [my italics and translation from Spanish]).¹⁹

The "province" of Carara, according to Moreno, comprised a wide territory between the Guajira peninsula and the territories surrounding the city of Maracaibo. That is, the limits were the eastern territories of the Guajira, the Montes de Oca range (northernmost tip of Sierra de Perijá) and the area north of Maracaibo. The same author, citing various unpublished documents and chronicles, emphasized the nomadic nature of the Kusi'na, who *never settled in villages or in known [named?] localities, but rather up in the hills*. (Moreno

¹⁷ A strikingly similar instance of a set of historic legends in which a time of chaos and warfare involving the problem of wife (women) exchange has been detected by Reichel-Dolmatoff among the Desana and analyzed in his article of the Tapir (Reichel-Dolmatoff 1986b).

¹⁸ Jahn (1927: 147), citing Simmons, mentioned that not only the Kusi'na raided Guajiro-Wayú settlements (and their goat herds), but also engaged in back-trading the "stolen" goods to the Guajiro in exchange for other goods, such as cotton textiles. The Kusi'na also exchanged their *aimará* (poisoned arrows) for other Guajiro goods. It is worth mentioning that the Kusi'na domestic structures (*wanetú*, *paratúa*, *piche*, etc.) as described in the 1920's by Jahn (1927: 148) are architecturally and stylistically the same as those described for the Guajiro-Wayú.

¹⁹ "... e de la provincia de Carara, e hablado con los indios de la dicha provincia diversas veces que son llamados... coçinas e atanares.. este [Martín] como lengua intérprete se halló en las cosas e conquistas suyo dichas... (Martín [1534] in Moreno 1983: 73). The nature of the Atanare group is something of a mystery. They are mentioned in a few documents in association to the Kusi'na. There is not enough data to be able to categorize this group from an ethnological perspective.

1983: 79 [my translation]).

The Caquetío presence in the Guajira peninsula is crucial. As I will show later, the Caquetío had a very wide geographical distribution in Western Venezuela, ranging from as far as the Llanos of Casanare, to the Llanos of Cojedes and Apure rivers, up into the valleys of Yaracuy and Barquisimeto. But the largest contiguous territory under a single Caquetío polity comprised, at the time of Contact, the coastal plains of what is today the State Falcón, Venezuela, including the Netherland Antilles. The entire coast was occupied by single Caquetío polity, with *no* evidence of any other non-Caquetío ethnic groups. However, within the Western Sphere, the Caquetío were clearly a minority imbedded, though not necessarily mixed, within a larger ethnic mosaic.

The earliest historical documentation of the presence of *Caquetío* in the Western Sphere comes from Esteban Martín, who was the *lengua* (an expert interpreter of native languages) in the famous 1531-1534 expedition of Ambrosius Alfinger. It is this expedition and the account of a first-hand witness (Esteban Martín [1534] in María 1977: 487-506) where I have gathered most of the evidence in support of the XVIth century ethnic boundaries here reconstructed. Even the official chronicler of Castile, Captain Gonzalo Fernández de Oviedo y Valdés ([1526-1577] 1944 [5]: 292-311; [6]: 5-36), utilized Esteban Martín's letter as the primary source for his narrative. This document is quite detailed and precise as to: a) where different ethnic groups were located, b) whether or not Martín, as an expert interpreter, could communicate with the Indians, and how many intermediaries were needed to establish communication, and c) as to its content of quite detailed descriptions of the material culture and environmental surroundings of the native groups encountered. One such group was the Caquetío living within the Western Sphere.

The expedition left from Coro and traversed the coast of Falcón, reaching the northeastern Maracaibo area (Fig. 30). There Alfinger and his men explored the Macomite river (today's Limón-Guasare rivers) and crossed the Sierra de Perijá into the Middle Ranchería River. From the Ranchería valley (Valle de Upar [Valledupar]), Alfinger continued down the César until reaching the César-Magdalena, in the area of the Zapatosa Lagoon. There expedition was divided. Alfinger continued up the Magdalena, while Captain Vasuña, following Alfinger's orders, attempted a return to Coro with all the gold and goods pillaged by the Welser Governor (Alfinger).

The remaining *conquistadores*, commanded by Alfinger, left the Magdalena Valley in search of El Dorado, toward the Cordillera de Oriente. In my own reconstruction of the expedition, I postulate that Alfinger moved up the Lebrija or the Sogamoso river toward the highlands (Oliver Ms. 1987a: 8). Upon reaching the Andean Highlands of the Santander area, Alfinger encountered heavy Indian resistance. He was eventually killed by a poisoned arrow in the valley of *Chinacotá* (today's Pamplona Valley). The expedition's new commander, Pedro de San Martín, continued down the Pamplona Valley, following the Tarare river down into the southwestern Maracaibo Lake area.²⁰ San Martín continued eastward along the southern lowlands, and around the lake. Upon reaching the southeastern area of Lake Maracaibo, San Martín boarded a Spanish vessel toward Maracaibo, while Esteban Martín and other troops continued by foot to the northeastern area of Lake Maracaibo (Figs. 30, 31). There, they crossed the mouth of the lake and marched toward Maracaibo.

²⁰ The Tarare River is probably today's Tarra river (Oliver Ms. 1987a: 88).

Esteban Martín tells us, quite unambiguously, that the coast of the *Gobernación* of Venezuela was settled by Caquetío Indians. The *Gobernación de Venezuela* (or *Coquibacoa* as it was known early in XVIth century) comprised the territory between *Coquibacoa* (Guajira peninsula) and the westernmost area of the Central Coast of Venezuela (ca. Golfo Triste).²¹

"The coast of this *gobernación* extends from east to west. We have already traversed it eighty leagues west of Coro, all settled by caquetios; that is from the Windward [*area*] in the east, [*we travelled to*] down the coast reaching the level of the Cabo de La Vela. All this generation of Indians that live in the coast are all caquetios..." (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 504-505 [my italics and translation from Spanish,]).²²

Further along, in Esteban Martín's letter, he precisely locates the Caquetío within the Guajira peninsula, even though he (and Alfinger's men) did not personally travel through the region.²³

"In Coquibacoa and in Cabo de la Vela, which is in the coast, [is] settled by Coanuo [*Coanao, Caonao*] and Caquetío Indians. These are Indians [*the Coanao*] that trade more in gold than these others [*the Caquetío*]. The [*Coanao*] are Indians of whom we expect benefit from them, they are [*also*] in the mouth and entrance to the Valley of Pacabueyes..." (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 505 [my translation, clarifications in brackets, and emphasis]).²⁴

From these quotes, one can postulate that the Caquetío were settled in two areas of the Guajira peninsula. One area was the Cabo de La Vela, whereas the other, more vaguely defined, comprised a sector between Punta Espada and Punta Chichibacoa (Fig. 30). Again, Juan de Castellanos confirms Martín's observation (Castellanos [1589] in Parra 1930a: 284).

Clearly, the area comprising the coastal strip between Punta Espada and the Cabo de La Vela, appears to be settled by multiethnic groups of diverse linguistic affiliation. The Caquetío were associated with the Coanao and with the Wanebucán with whom they traded. The quotes above state that the Coanao were traders of gold items. I strongly suspect that all the gold (*águilas de oro*) mentioned by the chroniclers for the Caquetío of Coro and

²¹The *Gobernación* was then defined by negotiated contracts (*capitulaciones*) between the Crown and the private parties who would sponsor the conquest and colonization. Much of the documentation that offers evidence of the negotiated contracts appear in the *Cedulario Real*, a collection of royal decrees, edited and commented by Otte (1959a, 1959b, 1963).

²²"Esta costa desta governacion se corre toda leste hueste hemos andado para la dicha costa ochenta leguas de[sde] Coro, todo poblado de caquetios haçia barlovento, digo haçia leste, y la costa abajo hemos llegado a la par con el cavo de la vela. Toda esta generación de yndios que biben en la costa son caquetios..." (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 504-505). The locative term "down the coast" (*costa abajo*) is still in use today. Going "down the coast" (relative to ego) is going west toward Maracaibo. Conversely, going "up the coast" (*costa arriba*) is going east toward Caracas.

²³I would suggest that this information was gathered from the Spanish that settled Maracaibo as a result of Alfinger's first expedition in 1529.

²⁴"En coquibacoa y en el cavo de la vela ques en la costa poblado de yndios coanuos e caquetios, estos son yndios que tratan mas el oro que no estos otros, estos son yndios que se espera mucho provecho dellos, porque estan en la boca y entrada del valle de los pacabueyes..." (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 505).

Coastal Falcón was provided through this trade network.²⁵ As I will be documenting shortly, the Coanao were in all probability, an ethnic sub-division of the Tairo (Tairona) and were probably linguistically related to both the Tairo (Kogi, Kaggaba) and the Arhuaco (whose language is also known as Ica, Bintucua). This ethnic mosaic fits admirably well with the contemporary oral traditions of the Guajiro-Wayú, who speak of the presence of Arhuaco precisely in the same region referred to by the XVIth century chronicles above cited.

Historian Josefina Moreno (personal communication, 1985) claims to have located unpublished documentation that suggests a Caquetío presence *prior* to the arrival of the Guajiro-Wayú. In her doctoral thesis, Moreno is quite specific:

"... [there are] documents which mentioned the Caquetios as the *early* settlers of this broad region [Guajira]." (Moreno Ms. 1973: 79 [my translation italics, and emphasis]).²⁶

Furthermore, Moreno insists that these documents reflect data obtained from the Guajiro and not simply a Spanish interpretation. For the present, I can not properly evaluate the context of such a claim, since the documents are not available to me. However, this possibility ought to be kept in mind, since Moreno has dealt extensively with a large body of historic documents referring to the Guajiro, obtained directly from the Archives of Seville (e.g. Moreno and Tarazona 1984).

To summarize, the ethnohistoric documents seem to suggest that the Kusi'na (both the Kusi'na-Wayú and Kusi'na-others) had penetrated the Guajira peninsula well before the arrival of the Spanish. Given the distinctions of ethnic identity within the Wayú, one could postulate that the segmentation between Guajiro and Kusi'na-Wayú had already taken place, perhaps even before the Guajiro-Wayú domination of the peninsular econiche. The Arhuaco [Macro-Chibchan] were present in the peninsula before the Guajiro. Probably, after the Guajiro colonized the region, several other groups succeeded in establishing (or re-establishing) themselves in limited localities of the peninsula. These groups included the Wanebucán, Coanao, and Caquetío.²⁷

The question remains, whether or not the Caquetío had been there before the arrival of the Guajiro and Kusi'na (Wayú), as suggested by Moreno. This issue can not be resolved on the basis of historical documents alone, but on archaeological and linguistic grounds as well. I suspect that the Caquetío of the Guajira were *avant garde* posts or settlements out of the coast of Falcón and/or the islands of Aruba and Curaçao, north of Paraguaná. These settlements may have been in the Guajira as early as A.D. 1200, but archaeological evidence found in the sub-area of Los Médanos (north of Coro, Falcón State) suggests that the intensification of the contacts with the Cabo de la Vela and Punta Espada-Chichibacoa coast peaked in A.D. 1400.²⁸ In conclusion, other lines of evidence strongly suggest that the Caquetío of the Guajira were not the "original" occupants of the Guajira peninsula. This

²⁵ The phrase *aguila de oro* probably refers to the more elaborate gold objects, possibly avamorphic in design, recalling in the Spanish mind an "eagle".

²⁶ "...documentos donde fueron mencionados los *caquetíos como primitivos pobladores* de esta amplia región. (Moreno Ms. 1973: 79 [my emphasis]).

²⁷ Unfortunately, the archaeology of the Guajira peninsula is as yet unknown but for a few, peripheral sites. Certainly the crucial region around Chichibacoa-Puerto Espada is totally unknown archaeologically. My reconstruction of ethnic occupations on the basis of historical documents must be subjected to archaeological tests in the Guajira.

²⁸ The archaeological evidence for this assertion will be presented in Chapter 4.

is also supported by the linguistic data, which suggests that Guajiro and Caquetío spoke different Arawakan (Maipuran) languages.

The Caquetío were not limited to the Guajira peninsula, but are found elsewhere in the Western Sphere. Esteban Martín, in his 1534 letter, tells us that:

"Around the lake [*Maracaibo*] there are also Caquetios and Bugures and Pemones and through the water there are Quiqueris [*Quiriquires*] and Onotos..." (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 505 [my translation from Spanish and my clarifications in brackets]).²⁹

The depositions taken from the expeditionaries in the inquest (*Juicio de Residencia*) against the Welser Governor by the incoming new Governor and Judge in Residence, Juan Pérez de Tolosa, beginning in 1538, were more precise. One witness for the prosecution, Francisco Núñez, stated:

"...knows that he [*Alfínger*] went to the province of Jurnarara and ransacked and took over a village of Caquetío Indians named *Parepi*, allies of the Christians, rounding them all so that they would come to thresh maize to a hut, and that all came with a lot food of meat, fish, cooked "bread", and once he [*Alfínger*] had them in the hut, he ordered them tied-up..." (Ponce and Vaccari 1977: 166 [my italics, emphasis and translation from Spanish]).³⁰

The province of Juruara ³¹ is located in the south-southeastern quadrant of Lake Maracaibo's lowlands, a territory that was then predominantly settled by Bobures and Pemones (or Pemones, Pemeos). Oviedo y Valdés [1526-1557] 1944 [6]: 32-36) is quite explicit as to this province's location. Another witness, Hernando del Castillo, testified that he:

"...knows that two towns, one of Caquetios and another of Bobures in the province of Chorna, were ransacked by [*Alfínger's lieutenant*] Luis de Leiva and on his [*Alfínger's*] orders [*the Indians*] were brought to Maracaibo and chained and sent to Santo Domingo [*Hispaniola*]..." (Ponce and Vaccari 1977: 171 [my translation and clarifications]).³²

Thus, as was the case in the Guajira peninsula, the Caquetío villages were interspersed within a territory (*provincia*) that was predominantly settled by other non-Arawakan-speaking

²⁹ "Arrededor de la laguna ay tambien caquetios y bugures y los pemones que arriba deximos y por el agua ay quiqueris e onotos..." (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 505).

³⁰ "...sabe que fue a la provincia de Jurnarara y saqueó y tomo un pueblo de indios caquetios que se decia parepi amigos de cristianos y [de] muchos mestizos llamándolos a todos para que viniesen a desgranar maiz a un bohío para los cristianos y que todos vinieron con mucha comida de carne y pescado y pan cocido y desde que los tuvo dentro los mando atar a todos..." (Ponce and Vaccari 1977: 166).

³¹ Various spelled as Xuduara, Churuara, Chorna, Juranarara, and Axudara (the XVIth century 'x' corresponds to the /j/ phoneme of modern Spanish).

³² "...sabe que dos pueblos, uno de caquetios y otro de bobures en la provincia de Chorna [Juruara] fueron saqueados por el dicho Luis de Leiva, y por su mandado los trajeron a Maracaibo a todos los herraron y los enviaron a Santo Domingo..." (Hernando de Castillo's testimony, in Ponce and Vaccari 1977: 171).

groups. These Juruara Caquetío, as well as those of the Guajira's northern and northeastern coast, appears to *be avant garde* settlements of the expanding Caquetío peoples out of the coast of Falcón. As in the case of the Guajira Caquetío, very little is known about the culture of the Juruara Caquetío. One common trait to both is the fact that wherever one finds Caquetío villages, these are within the best agricultural lowlands locally available. Although agriculture is extremely unpredictable and risky in the Guajira, the one sector where agriculture may have a fighting chance (rain permitting) is precisely the area where the Caquetío settlements were located by the chroniclers. As for southeastern Maracaibo, the agricultural potential is great since the entire region can be conceived as an extended alluvial floodplain. It is important to note that nowhere in Western Venezuela will one find any Caquetío groups holding territories in a highland environment.

The last group of purportedly Arawakan-speaking peoples in the Western Sphere is the *Onoto*. This ethnic group is in all probability ancestral to the historic Paraujano (*Añú*) Indians. The earliest reference about the Onoto comes from Esteban Martín's 1534 letter, an account that Oviedo y Valdés ([1526-1557] 1944 [6]: 297) repeated in his famous chronicle.

Upon reaching the old Spanish settlement of Maracaibo, Alfínger (1530 expedition) set out with two vessels to navigate up the Macomite river (Fig. 30) with the purpose of establishing an advance Spanish village in the interior.³³ But, as Oviedo y Valdés wrote:

"He did not find an appropriate site for this, because it was a swampy land. So he travelled upriver for four journeys [*days*], and became ever more discontent with the disposition of the landscape. At the mouth of that river, there were three small villages of a people called *Onotos*, which were empty because they did not dare to wait [*to face Alfínger's men*]. But upon the Governor's [*Alfínger*] return, they fought them. However, the Spanish were not harmed. These villages are located on the water, constructed on very sturdy wood beams [*palms*]." (Oviedo y Valdés [1526-1557] 1944 [6]: 297 [my italics and translation from Spanish]).³⁴

It may well be that Alonso de Ojeda, the first Spaniard to explore all the coast of the Province of Venezuela in 1499, had already contacted or, at least, seen the Onoto pylon-dwellings (*palafitos*) on the sea in his first expedition. However, this is very doubtful since Amerigo Vespucci (Vespucio), who described it in his '*Quator Navigaciones*' ([1500-1505] in Navarrete 1829 [3]: 218-219), was clearly describing a pylon-dwelling from a village in the so-called port of Saint Bartholomew (*San Bartolomé*), which historian Demetrio Ramos Pérez (1976: 88) located in the Golfete of Coro, Falcón State (Pérez 1981: 58-59).³⁵

³³At that time, the city of Maracaibo was further north than the present location (cf. María 1977). Also note that there was yet another "maracaibo" settlement of the Pemónos within the confines of the Juruara province in the S. E. quadrant of the Maracaibo Basin.

³⁴"E no halló disposición para ello, porque era tierra de ciénagas: é subió por el río quatro jornadas, y tornóse descontento de la disposición de la tierra. En la boca deste río avia tres pueblos pequeños de una gente que llaman onotos; pero estaban despoblados, que no osaron esperar. Más a la vuelta que el gobernador se tornaba, le dieron algunas guacábaras, de que no recibió daño. Estos pueblos están en el agua, armados sobre puntales e palmas muy fuertes." (Oviedo y Valdés [1529-1557] 1944 [6]: 297). Esteban Martín's 1534 document is identical to Oviedo y Valdés' quote.

³⁵Ojeda probably saw the Onoto villages in his second (1502) expedition, when he sailed into the Maracaibo Lake, something that he did not do in his 1499 expedition.

This type of dwelling reminded Vespucci of Venice, the reason why the Gulf and the newly explored territory was named *Veneçuela* in Juan de la Cosa's map (small Venice [Fig. 40]).

Another early reference to the Onoto comes from the then Governor of Venezuela, Juan Pérez de Tolosa, who on orders from Philip II compiled what is known as a *relación geográfica* (geographical description).³⁶ Pérez de Tolosa's document, dated to 1546 stated that:

"Near the village [*Maracaibo*] there is an excellent salt marsh [*Sinamaica area*], which provides for all [*the inhabitants*] around the Lake and a large area of the highland as well, by way of trade. The people that inhabited around the marshes were of the *Onoto* nation. Men and women do not cover their genitalia. These Indians are not planters [*agriculturalists*], they are the lords of the Lake, and fish with nets and hooks many kinds of fish that inhabit the Lake. [*The fish*] is excellent, and they 'sell' it in their 'markets' to the Bubure Indians in the province of Juruara, trading it for maize, manioc, and other things. And in this way, all of them have fish and maize. These *Onoto* Indians have their houses inside the Lake, erected with boards [*and pylons*], and make use of their canoes [*to traverse*] in the Lake. They are brave men, and fight with bows, arrows and *macanas*... These Indians are treacherous and bellicose, so much so that peace can not be attained with them. (Pérez de Tolosa [1546] in Arellano 1964: 6-7 [my translation from Spanish, emphasis, and my clarifications in brackets]).³⁷

In 1532, the Onoto and other allied groups rebelled against the Spanish of Maracaibo. Esteban Martín ([1534] María 1977: 494-495) was involved in a retaliatory expedition against the Onoto, still located in the northwestern area of Maracaibo, in the lacustrine zone of Sinamaica. The historical documents mention that the main reason for the uprising--and one of the many reasons why the Lake area was so depopulated by then was because of Francisco Vanegas' raiding against the Onoto and enslaving them to send to Hispaniola. In the accounts, the Onoto settlement of *Cabdumari* was cited as the incident that triggered the uprising (testimony of Juan de Carvajal [1538] in Ponce and Vaccari 1977: 221).

The Onoto, along with the Quiriquire, were traders *par excellence* in Lake Maracaibo. The Onoto, who were non-agriculturalists, lived in symbiosis with the agricultural peoples around Lake Maracaibo, most notably the Bobure. The Quiriquire, whom I suspect to be of

³⁶ This type of information was requested by the Crown from all the provinces of Castile in the New World. Specifically, it was Phillip II who ordered them and, thus, the entire collection of geographical descriptions is commonly known as *relaciones geográficas filipenses*.

³⁷ "Junto al pueblo hay una salina de sal muy buena, de la cual se provee toda la laguna y muy gran parte de la tierra y sierras por vía de contratación. La gente que habitaba en la laguna era de nación *onotos*, y hombres y mujeres traen sus vergüenzas afuera. Estos indios no siembran, *son señores de la laguna*, y pescan con redes y anzuelos mucho género de pescado que hay en la laguna, muy excelente, y lo venden en sus mercados a los indios bubures de la provincia de Juruara, de esta manera, los unos y los otros tienen pescado y maíz. Estos indios *onotos* tienen sus casas dentro de la misma laguna, armadas con sus tablados, y sírvense con sus canoas en la laguna. Son hombres valientes, y pelean con sus arcos y flechas y *macanas*. Son los indios guerreros y traidores, tales, que con ellos no se puede conservar la paz." (Pérez de Tolosa [1546] in Arellano 1964: 6-7 [my emphasis]).

Carib-speaking affiliation, are more frequently mentioned in connection with the Pemones as their trading partners (cf. Esteban Martín [1534] in María 1977: 504).³⁸

By the turn of the XVIth century, the Onoto rebellions were on the increase. A report dated to May 4, 1607, signed by the members of the *Cabildo* (city council) of Maracaibo, informs us about the current problems in the area. This report mentions the Aliles, Toas, Sapaes, and Arubaes as Indian groups allied against the Spanish.³⁹ Further along in the same document, there is mention of another group of "*yndios sapaes parautes*". The term *paraute* is suspiciously analogous to *paraujano* (Letter May 14, 1607; in María 1977: 472-477). Wilbert (1983: 17) suggests that these ethnic groups were designations given by the Spanish (probably referring to locality) to the Paraujano peoples. Included in this set are the Onoto of the XVIth century. Indeed, the term *onoto* is of Carib origin and refers to the red pigmentation used for body decoration, extracted from the *Bixa orellana*. In all probability, the neighboring Bubure and those of Juruara bestowed the term upon the Onoto. Wilbert (1983: 17) also suggests that Paraujano ("stinking fish eaters") as an ethnic designation did not appear until the XIXth century, although I suspect that the 1607 reference to "*Paraute*" may be a corrupted translation of this (Guajiro-Wayú) derogatory term. The self designated term used by the Paraujano is *Añú*, meaning 'people', 'person' (cognate of Wayú). Sanoja (1969) indicated that all these (Alile, Zapara, Toa, etc.) were collectively designated as *indios alcoholados* or *Alcojolados* by the Spanish, a reference to their use of tattooed designs in their bodies.

³⁸ In his synthesis of XVIth century ethnohistory, Sanoja (1969:36-45) offers a detailed account of the material culture and trade relationships between the various ethnic groups in the Maracaibo Basin. Alfredo Jahn (1927:30-ff.) also provided an excellent study of the inter-ethnic relationships in the area.

³⁹The so-called Arubaes is a reference of Indians from the island of Aruba, whom I strongly suspect were Caquetío.



Figure 31: XVIth Century Ethnic Distribution in the Province of Santa Marta, Colombia

From ca. 1593 until 1599 there were a rash of rebellions and uprisals by the Indian population in the Maracaibo-Guajira areas. Among the groups mentioned are the Guajiro, Kusi'na, Macuira, the Heneales [Paraujanos from El Gran Heneal], Aliles and Záparas. In 1604, the Indians of the Llanos of Orino (S.W. Guajira) revolted: the Guajiros, the Kusi'na, and the Atanare were once again involved. More rebellions were reported in 1609, 1613, and 1619. The latter also included Indians of the Ríohacha area. Successively, between 1637 and 1719, ten more major rebellions took place in the Maracaibo Basin (Moreno 1983, Moreno and Tarazona 1984).

3.2.2 The Wanebucán and Tairona

Although there were Wanebucán (Guanebucán) groups in the northern coastal Guajira Peninsula, the core area of settlement was concentrated in a roughly triangular zone comprised of the northern coastal slopes of Sierra Nevada, Río Hacha (Ranchería River) and the Caribbean coast (Reichel-Dolmatoff 1951: 98). The Spanish during the XVIth century designated this area as La Ramada (Castellanos [1589] *in* Parra 1930a: 383).

The Wanebucán were excellent sailors and fishermen, and they may have also engaged in agriculture since Castellanos mentions that "*It is a land of great culture*", where culture is to be understood as agriculture (Castellanos [1589] *in* Parra 1930a: 383). The ecological characteristics of the area, as described by Castellanos, are quite similar to those of the Llanos de Orino or the "province" of Seturma in the Guajira Peninsula.

"That is an area surrounded by plains,/ With a length and width of twenty leagues/ No less, near the neighboring sierras/ Although narrower in some parts: / It has great mountains and savannas,/ And is a land of great [agri]culture, /Between the sea and the Sierra of Herrera [northern ranges of Sierra Nevada]/ And the Hacha River as its frontier." (Castellanos [1589] *in* Parra 1930a: 383 [my translation]).⁴⁰

As I showed in the previous section, the Wanebucán had established "frontier" settlements in the area of the Sierra de Macuira (Figs. 30, 31) and, judging from the chronicles, shared the territory (in the early XVIth century) with Caquetios. Castellanos ([1589] *in* Parra 1930a: 383)) also mentions twelve villages by name. Several are still extant in today's coastal toponyms (e.g. Dibulla). Some of these toponyms (e.g. Macoir) belong to the Guajira proper, but as Castellanos himself noted, there were "*...many other [villages] dispersed/ Which I will not mention for not being so important.*" (my translation). The same chronicler stated that the villages were either near the coast or adjacent to the rivers. The latter included settlements with "*well organized and ordered streets*" ("*...calles bien dispuestas y ordenadas.*"). The houses were described as very sturdy and of such an orientation as to be cool inside, taking advantage of the winds. And facing the door they had sort of shed or tent-like rig (*ramada*), which gave the Spanish name to the territory (Castellanos [1589] *in* Parra 1930: 383)

⁴⁰ "Aquel es un compás de tierras llanas,/ de largo veinte leguas, y de anchura/ No menos, a las sierras comarcanas,/ Aunque por partes hay más angostura:/ Contiene grandes montes y zavanos,/ Y es tierra de grandísima cultura,/ Entre la mar y sierras de Herrera/ Y el río de la Hacha por frontera." (Castellanos [1589] *in* Parra 1930a: 383).

To the east, and south (of Dibulla), the Wanebucán bounded with the Tairo (so-called Tairona). Castellanos contrasted the two ethnic groups as follows:

"Before their misfortunes and calamities,/ Used to own this land/ The *Tairo* and *Guanebucán* Indians/ Otherwise known as the Indians of the Bottlegourd: / The Tairo are elegant and clothed;/ The others find it well to run naked/ Covering their shameful parts/ With gold or with other things,/ Commonly in a bottle gourd;/ And these controlled more [señoreaban] the land./ And the dressed Tairos were peoples/ That came from the Sierra [*Nevada-Buritaca*];/ And although of different caste/ Never there was war between them./ We call the *Tairona* the *Tairos*/ And the lands that bound with Marona." (Castellanos [1589] in Parra 1930a: 383-384 [my translation, emphasis, and clarifications in brackets]).

Castellanos described them as a courageous and generous people, gracious and sincere. They had gold jewelry and bodily decorations (neck, arms, nose, and ears), although Castellanos ([1589] in Parra 1930: 384) did not think much of their goldwork skills (*brazaletes de oro mal labrados*).

Reichel-Dolmatoff ([1953] 1977: 81), using additional historical documents, noted that the main (staple) crop was maize. Other material culture items include monoaxile canoes (described in Castellanos [ibid. p. 383]), and, most interestingly, there is a description of a large Wanebucán ceremonial house that included "*a thousand Indians sculptured in wood*", all arranged in lines.⁴¹

The language spoken by the Wanebucán is unknown, and only a few anthroponyms and toponyms exist. "*The Guanebucán seemed to have spoken a different language than the Tairo [Macro-Chibcha] since Rodrigo de Bastidas specifically had to commission a lengua to learn their language.*" (Reichel-Dolmatoff [1953] 1977: 81). I agree with Reichel-Dolmatoff's opinion that the toponyms are very different from those known within Tairo territory. Elsewhere (Oliver i.p. 1986) I have speculated that the Wanebucán may have been Arawakan-speaking peoples, since we find morphemes in village names --such as *Paragua-nil*, and *Coria-na*-- which are suspiciously Caquetío. However, since the Wanebucán and Caquetío did share a trading nexus in the Punta Espada to Chichibacoa area (Guajira), it is not surprising to find some Arawakan toponyms for Wanebucán villages in that area.

The Tairo, better known as Tairona among ethnologists, are undoubtedly the ancestors of the contemporary Kogi.⁴² The oral tradition of the Kogi recognizes two "epoches" a mythical and a historical period. Among the Kogi myths there is a reference recorded by Reichel-Dolmatoff ([1953] 1977: 88) of a Guajiro-Wayú group living in the Palomino to Ancho rivers. This group was addressed by the Tairo as the *Béissi-tayá*. The second word, */tayá/* is, without a doubt, the term for 'I' (first person singular) in Guajiro language.⁴³ In this

⁴¹This description by Castellanos came from a ceremonial house from a village located in the Lower Ranchería river. I have not been able to locate the specific passage in Castellanos, but it was cited by Reichel-Dolmatoff (1951: 98).

⁴²Although, admittedly, other Macro-Chibchan groups had contributed to the crystalization of Kogi culture (cf. Reichel-Dolmatoff 1950-51).

⁴³ For a basic Guajiro word-list consult my Appenix A, Table A2.

"mythical" period, the Kogi themselves (*Alúna-caggaba*) said to have inhabited the headwaters of the Buritaca with the Ika (Ica/Bintucua), who presently inhabit the southern slopes of the Sierra Nevada (and who I related to the Arhuaco as well). If one considers this as a historical truth, one could hypothesize that at least some of the Guajiro-Wayú had at some point in the past extended as far west as the Palomino headwaters. But it is unclear just how far back in time does this event refers to.

The "historical" accounts, considered as recent by the Kogi, state that the Kogi now controlled the Palomino (*Hukuméiji*) headwaters, whereas in the Guachaca and Buritaca rivers were settled by the Tairona, and closer to the coast, along the Buritaca and Don Diego, was inhabited by the Kashíngui. All appear to be sub-groups of the XVIth century "Tairona" (Macro-Chibchan). The Kogi also mentioned that in the coast of Dibulla, a group designated as *Duanabuká* inhabited the region (Reichel-Dolmatoff [1953] 1977: 88-89). Further east of Dibulla, the ethnic group mentioned in Kogi oral history is named as *Guahíju* or *Uáhiuáhi*. Correctly, Reichel-Dolmatoff (1953: 89) concludes that the so-called Duanabuká is none other than the XVIth century Wanebucán. Similarly, the *Guahíju* are the so-called Guajiro Indians. This historic epoch of the Kogi oral tradition, can be "pushed" as far back as ca. A.D. 1600, since the last historical reference documented in the chronicles regarding the Wanebucán dates from around 1577-1600 (Oliver i.p. 1986).

According to Reichel-Dolmatoff ([1953] 1977: 95), the devastating effects of the Spanish conquest in the coastal area of La Ramada forced the acculturation of many Indian groups. But others, such as the Duanabuká or Wanebucán migrated to the northern slopes of Sierra Nevada. Reichel-Dolmatoff (ibid.) concludes that these groups (Guanebucán, Tairo, Matuna, Sanká) were absorbed as *tuxe* (patri-clan) or *dake* (matri-clan) by the local inhabitants:

"The present Kogi tribe is, therefore, formed by the ancient Kogi nucleus and elements of the Guanebucán, Tairo, Matúna and even Sanká, integrated by means of the ancient [exogamic] social organization." (Reichel-Dolmatoff [1953] 1977: 95 [my translation]).



Above, Kogi settlement and right the Ciudad Perdida, a Tairona archaeological site in Sierra Nevada, northern Colombia. (Photos courtesy of Augusto Oyuela-Caycedo).
Photos added for the PDF version only.



3.2.3 The Macro-Chibchan-speaking Ethnic Groups

3.2.1 The Linguistic Background

Still within the boundaries of the Western Sphere, a number of ethnic groups were described by the XVIth century chroniclers. These various ethnic groups were linguistically bound together in the Macro-Chibchan-Paezan Stock. As with the Arawakan Stock, the Macro-Chibchan-Paezan is still a "messy" linguistic stock. The problem is aggravated when one attempts to correlate XVIth century groups with this stock, simply because the linguistic data is so scanty for that time period. Before entering into details of ethnic relationships, it is useful to discuss the linguistic relationships first, for these imply historical *nexae*.

Alva Wheeler (1972: 93-ff.) has analyzed several Macro-Chibchan/Paezan languages; namely, Kogi (Caggaba), Arhuaco (or Ika, Ica), Marocacero, "Motilón", Muiska (Chibcha proper), Motilón, and Tunebo. Wheeler determined through comparative lexicostatistical analysis that the Kogi, Arhuaco, and Marocacero, "*form a sub-group coordinate with Chibcha and Tunebo*" with Motilón being the most divergent within this language set (Wheeler 1972: 94). The Chibchan Motilón Indians are now recognized as the *Barí*, and their language is also known as Dobokubí (Wilbert 1961; Lizarralde and Beckerman 1982). My own comparison between Wheeler's Motilón (from Iquiricadora, near Río del Oro in Venezuela) and Wilbert's Dobokubí (Sierra of Perijá, Colombia-Venezuela) suggest very close relationships (Oliver i.p. 1986: 15). Indeed these may be at the level of dialectical differentiation.

Looking at cognate percentages (Wheeler 1972: 94), one finds that Kogi and Arhuaco form a close pair (57% [based on Swadesh's 200 word list]). This is not surprising given the historical relationships outlined in the previous section (Arhuaco is also known as Bintucua or Ica language [Constenla 1981: 72-73]). The Kogi language is also fairly close to Marocacero (54%) Tunebo (47%), and Muiska (45%). However, it is more distant to the Motilón (Dobokubí), sharing only 40% of the vocabulary. Despite this, the Motilón share most cognates with Kogi, in contrast to Arhuaco (30%), Marocacero (28%), Muiska (32%), and Tunebo (35%). The Arhuaco (Ica/Bintucua) is closest to Marocacero (Sancá [from Sierra Nevada]) with 62% cognates. With Tunebo and Muiska it shares between 36 and 38%. Again, the lowest cognate frequency (30%) is with the Motilón.

Despite the small sample in Wheeler's analysis, preliminary conclusions can be reached. First, the Macro-Chibchan speaking groups of the Perijá highlands, such as the Barí (Motilón), appear to have diverged from an earlier node than the remaining ethnolinguistic groups considered by Wheeler. Even so, of all the languages, Motilón/Dobokubí is closer to Kogi than to the rest. Finally it would seem that Kogi, Arhuaco and Marocacero form a tight cluster, suggesting a relatively more recent divergence. There are still many debates as to the location of a Proto-Chibchan hearth. Adolfo Constenla (1981) is representative of those who would place the hearth in Central America. Others, myself included, favor a Colombian hearth, probably in the Magdalena-Cauca floodplains (Lathrap 1977). Whichever hypothesis is correct, it is certain that this Stock did not originate east of the Andes. [PDF VERTSION NOTE: There is no doubt now that Constenla was correct. Macro-Chibcha has a Central American origin in the Costa Rica region.]

3.2.3.2 The Ethnohistorical Data

The *Coanao* of the XVIth century are among the best candidates to belong to a

Macro-Chibcha Stock; however, this can not be proven on linguistic grounds, but rather in terms of dress etiquette. Esteban Martín (Alfínger's 1531-1534 expedition) tells us that:

"These *Coanaos* are numerous peoples, and cover their shameful parts, and are a people that trade a lot [*with*] inland [*peoples*], taking the salt to 'sell' in exchange for gold. They wear *mantas* [*"blankets"*] and *caps* of cotton, and we saw and found out that they are true [sincere] peoples." (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 498 [my translation, emphasis, and clarifications in brackets]).⁴⁴

The reference to the use of cap and mantas immediately invites comparison with the contemporary Kogi (male) dress etiquette. Because dress codes are highly indicative of ethnic identity, and because the only natives (whether XVIth or XXth century) to have been reported to use such garments in this area are all Macro-Chibchan speaking groups, it is then more than plausible that the Coanao were also members of this ethno-linguistic macro-family. I would venture to speculate that their language was probably closer to the Tairona (Tairo) and Kogi than to, for example, Muisca (Chibcha) or Dobokubí.

The primary source for the ethnic boundaries of this region is, again, Esteban Martín, who accompanied Alfínger's expedition (1531-1534). Upon leaving Maracaibo, the expedition crossed the northern extension of the Sierra of Perijá (Fig. 31). As the expedition reached the Ranchería Valley (also: Valle de Upar or Valle de los Pacabueyes), Martín recorded the following observation:

"...below the sierras [*we saw*] a very beautiful valley, of handsome savannas, with a low density vegetation. Such valley was settled by the *Buredes* and the *Coanaos*. From there to the Cabo de la Vela we found that there were some twenty-five leagues. The valley was laden with garden plots [*conucos*]. With whom we made peace; I mean to say, with those [*Indians*] who lived at the foot [*valley*] of this sierra..." (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 489 [my translation and my clarifications in brackets]).⁴⁵

Thus, the Coanao shared the Middle Ranchería and Upper César River with the Burede (whom I shall identify later). To the north, as we have seen, the Coanao-Burede bounded with the Wanebucán. To the southeast of the territory, the Coanao-Burede bounded with the Arhuaco (Aruaco/Aruago), and to the south with the *Xiriguano* (Jiriguana), who were similar to the Coanao in terms of physical attributes, but differed in language and in the women's custom of body tattooing. The quote below mentions that the Xiriguano "dress" is similar to the Coanao. However, I suspect that the "dress" similarity refers only to the use of a bottle-gourd penis-sheath rather than the cap and manta.

⁴⁴ "Estos coanaos es gente crecida y animosa y cubren sus vergüenzas y es gente que trata mucho la tierra adentro, llevando la sal a vender a trueco del oro, *trahen mantas de algodón y bonetes* de los mismo y segund bimos y supimos es gente de verdad." (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 498 [my emphasis]).

⁴⁵ "...avajo de las sierras [vimos] un valle muy hermoso de muy lindas sabanas e montes claros e qual valle estava poblado de dichos buredes y coanaos. Desde allí al cavo de la bela hallamos que avia obra de veinte y cinco leguas y todo pobaldo de conucos con los quales hezimos paz, digo con los que vibian al pie desta sierra..." (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 489 [my italics and clarifications in brackets]).

"We arrived to [the territory] of another group [of Indians] called *yrriguanas* [*Xirguanas*] who are of the same kind as these others [the Coanao] with regard to dress and stature, except that they have other differences in their speech, and the women paint their breasts and arms with very beautiful black painted [designs] and the paint is permanent; it can not be washed out... their villages are of ten, and twelve, and fifteen houses." (Martín [1534]: in María 1977: 489 [my translation, underlining, and my clarifications in brackets]).⁴⁶

The Coanao also had frontier settlements in the north of the Sierra de Jarara in the Guajira (cf. section 3.2.1). They also appeared in the Guajira in an area where Wanebucán settlements occurred. But the core settlement area of the Coanao was in the Middle Ranchería to Upper César area. A previous quote (above) by Martín suggests about 25 leagues between the Cabo de La Vela and the Coanao "heartland", and Martín (ibid.) stated that there were some 25 more leagues to the south before reaching another, very different ethnic group (Xiriguana), as I have already noted earlier. Castellanos, who designated the Coanao as Guamos, also reported the presence of this group within this region (Reichel-Dolmatoff 1951: 100). They were also actively engaged in the trade of salt, which they exchanged for gold from their neighbors (Oviedo y Valdés [1526-1557] 1944 [5]: 299). The Burede (also designated by the Spanish as Coronado) have been reported by the chroniclers Castellanos and Pedro Simón as having irrigation canals for agriculture (Reichel-Dolmatoff [1960] 1977: 43; 1951: 100).

It is quite probable that the Coanao settlers in the Guajira Peninsula were obtaining salt (from Sinamaica?) to trade for gold with either the Sierra Nevada groups or the Pacabueyes groups of the Zapatosa area (Fig. 31), who were renowned goldsmiths (Oviedo y Valdés [1526-1557] 1944 [5]: 304; also in Martín [1534]). Gold, and many other items that were uninteresting (hence, not itemized) to the Spanish, were traded to the Caquetío and other ethnic groups of the Guajira. These "other" items may have included the "green-stones" (serpentinite?) that so much attracted Alonso de Ojeda (Hojeda) in his discovery voyage of 1499. This is mentioned in a *Capitulación* (contract) between the Catholic Monarches and Alonso de Ojeda, dated July 28, 1500:

Item: That you, Alonso de Ojeda, in the service of your monarches, penetrate the mentioned Island and the others which are near it, named Quinquévacoa [*Coquibacoa*] in that part of the mainland where the said *green stones* [were found, and] which you brought some samples to us. You shall obtain more, as many as possible, and likewise bring us more of the other things that you brought [samples of] to us." (Ferdinand and Isabel 1500: in Otte 1963: 3 [my translation and my clarifications in brackets]).⁴⁷

⁴⁶ "...llegamos a otra generación que se dize yrriguanas que son de la mesma manera destos otros de atrás de estatura y traje, salvo que tyenen otras diferencias en el hablar, y píntanse las mugeres los pechos y los brazos de muy lindas pinturas negras y las pinturas son fijas que nunca se quitan... Son sus pueblos de diez e doze e quinze bohios..." (Martín [1534]: in María 1977: 489.).

⁴⁷ "Item: que vos, el dicho Alonso de Ojeda, por servicio a sus altezas entréis en la isla e en las otras que allí están cerca della, que se dizen Quinquévacoa [*Coquibacoa*] en la parte de tierra firme donde están las *pedras verdes*, de las quales truxistes muestra, e traigáis dellas la más que pudiédes e aver asimismo de las otras

Historian Ramos (1978: 166, 177; 1976: 45) is probably correct in suggesting that these "greenstones", that so caught the fancy of Ojeda, were the emeralds that later incited many expeditions inland (e.g., Badillo-Heredia 1529). It is doubtful that "serpentinite" stones would merit such a specific mention and outstanding prominence in the *capitulación* between the Monarches and Ojeda. Emeralds have been found in Sierra Nevada (Chicago Field Museum collections) in an archaeological context, and certainly these have been noted elsewhere in Colombia. It is also probable that some of these "greenstones" include "serpentinites" which are also abundant in the archaeology of Sierra Nevada de Santa Marta. Indeed, among the exotic lapidary items greatly valued by the Guajiro are the *tuumás* (made of cornaline or jasper), which have also been found in archaeological contexts in Sierra Nevada (Tairona Period [cf. Friedemann and Arocha 1985: 334; my personal observation, Field Museum of Natural History; J. A. Mason's 1939 collection]).

Perhaps as important is the testimony of Juan de Ampies in a letter to the King (1525), where he had obtained information from Caquetío Indians (who were his personal servants in Hispaniola) and, indirectly, from Ampies' envoy (Gonzalo de Sevilla [Otte 1963: 162-166]) about the presence of "*stones of great value in possession of the carib*",⁴⁸ which he describes as being located inland away from the coast. Ampies also stated that "*it is a land with a lot of gold*" (Ampies, in CoDoln 1864: 435). The fact that Ampies had not yet been in Falcón (or the Dutch Islands) suggests that he had received this information from the Caquetío, who were his personal servants in Hispaniola and were raided in 1513 by Baso Zavala from coastal Falcón (Oliver Ms. 1987a). Gonzalo Sevilla, who was sent by Ampies to explore coastal Falcón, never reached the Guajira, thus he had to obtain such information from the Caquetío as well. Finally, gold, as far as I know, is negligible in the coastal plains of Falcón and in the Maracaibo lowlands. Yet, the Caquetío used gold *adornos* as a status marker (Neukomm [1535] in Friede 1980). The more "noble" of the Caquetío wore biomorphic gold nose and earplugs, bracelets, and necklaces. In addition they also had necklaces made of "stone" (greenstone as well?). Gold ornaments among the Caquetío are also mentioned in another important document signed by Naveros and Vázquez de Vázquez de Acuña in October 6, 1534 (in Gabaldón 1962 [2]: 295-ff.). (The Caquetío could have also obtained gold from the Nirgüa highlands, in the upper Buria river, a territory controlled by Jirajara Indians).

Another piece of supporting evidence, however indirect, for the trade network binding the Coanao and Caquetío can be inferred from the *lengua* Esteban Martín. There is little doubt that Martín was an outstanding interpreter. Throughout his descriptions (letter of 1534) of encounters with different groups, Martín did not appear to have trouble communicating with either the Caquetío or Coanao. The language that Martín dominated thoroughly was the Caquetío (and no doubt that of the 200 plus Caquetío "slave-porters", some were equally expert interpreters). Martín probably was familiar with Carib (Pre-Yukpa?) languages as well. Martín and the rest of the expedition (including the Caquetío porters) did not have any trouble interpreting directly with the local "tribes" until reaching the Pacabuey peoples in the César-Zapatoza area (Fig. 30 [village of Samirúa]). This implies that the Caquetío of coastal Falcón could and did communicate with the Coanao as well as the Burede.

cosas que truxistes en este camino en las muestras." (Ferdinand and Isabel 1500: in Otte 1963: 3). *Coquibacoa* or the Guajira peninsula was then thought to be an "island". However, already by 1500, de la Cosa had drawn into his map a peninsula, possibly correcting the earlier impression (in 1499) through his conversations with a native brought from the region by Ojeda .

⁴⁸"Carib" is not used in an ethnolinguistic sense by the Spanish, but rather as a political tool to validate enslavement of Indians of any ethnic group (more on this later).

Early in the XVIth century, a series of related lexical items mentioned by the Spanish for a number of ethnic groups within the Western Sphere, seem to all related to the designation *Arhuaco*. The term appears with different orthographies: *aruaco*, *aruacana*, *aruago*, *haroacana*, *haraocana*, etc. (Fig. 29). All of these XVIth century groups were located within the boundaries of territories that were later confirmed as inhabited by Macro-Chibchan speaking groups: The highlands of Santander, Sierra Nevada's south-southeastern slopes, and parts of the southern extension of the Sierra of Perijá.

Esteban Martín tells us that:

"In the other sierra toward the other side, to the west, we did not go. However, the Yrriguana Indians told us that there live Indians that were called *Haruacanas* and they are had poisoned arrows [*hervolarios*] and eat human flesh." (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 490 [my translation, underlining, and my clarifications in brackets]).⁴⁹

These Arhuaco are quite probably those mentioned in the Guajiro-Wayú historical legends and myths. They are in all probability the same Arhuaco mentioned by the contemporary Kogi historical accounts and myths. Although no vocabularies are available, it is conceivable that these Haruacana spoke a Macro-Chibchan language, if not Arhuaco (Ica/Bintucua) itself.

Further along the César River, Alfinger was informed by the Pacabuey Indians of the town of Pauxoto or Paujoto (Fig. 31) about another group of Haruacana, distant only four leagues from Paujoto (Fig. 31: Aruaco), or about 1 1/2 days journey northward. The village arrangement for the Haroacana is rather distinctive: it consists of three barrios each with twelve houses (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 491), which may suggest a tripartite social organization.⁵⁰

In conclusion, the Arhuaco extended from the southeastern slopes of Sierra Nevada into the valley east of the César River, and not far from the village of Paujoto of the Pacabuey Indians ([Figs. 30, 31] cf. also: Bischoff 1983: 105; Reichel-Dolmatoff 1951: map).

The two remaining references locate the Arhuaco (Aruago, Haroacana) groups in two more or less contiguous areas. One such group inhabited the valley of Chinacotá (Pamplona) and were credited with killing (with poisoned arrows) Ambrosius Alfinger. Esteban Martín stated that

"This nation that inhabited these highlands... nothing [*they said*] could be understood except that we knew that they were

⁴⁹ "En la otra sierra de la vanda de abajo hazia el güeste [oeste] no llegamos, empero los indios yrriguanas nos dezían que bibían en ellas unos yndios que se llamaban *haruacanas* y son [*hervolarios*] y comen también carne humana." (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 490).

⁵⁰ Reichel-Dolmatoff (1951: 101), following Oviedo y Valdés, attributed this tripartite distribution to the Pacabuey of the Tamara village. This is incorrect, since Oviedo obtained the information from Martín's letter, and misplaced the location and affiliation of this 3 barrio village.

Aruagos..." (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 174 [my translation, my clarifications in brackets]).⁵¹

The Alfinger expedition, now commanded by San Martín, descended from the Pamplona valley down the Tarra or Zulía rivers into the southwestern corner of the Maracaibo lowlands. They encountered a group designated as Aryatomos (Tryatomo), of probable Carib affiliation, and got lost in the swampy marshes for seven or eight days. Finally, they came upon a bellicose group, who also used poisoned arrows, who Esteban Martín also referred to as *Haraocanas*. Only two villages of the latter group were located in this area. In Martín's own words:

"They killed in this village Captain Monsarrate and his horse because *[they had]* poisoned arrows... These Indians were of a nation that is called *Haraocana* and we found no others of this nation except for those two villages. Then we entered *[the territory of]* another nation that is called *Pemonos* who have enormous villages of up to thirty and forty houses, and they were more domestic *[peaceful]* peoples." (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 502 [my translation, my clarifications in brackets]).⁵²

This statement clearly locates the Haraocana (*aruaco*:: *h-araoca-na*) further west of the Pemono, that is, in the S.W. corner of the Maracaibo Basin. While I am inclined to correlate the Coanao and Arhuaco with Macro-Chibchan languages related to the Arhuaco and Tairona (Kogi), the statement by Martín (that it was impossible to understand the Chinacotá Aruago) makes me strongly suspect that the latter (and probably the Haraocana) were more directly related to the contemporary Motilón or Dobokubí language(s) of the Barí peoples. The Barí were, after the XVIth century, recorded as the *Brave Motilones* in opposition to the Carib-speaking *"Tame Motilones"* (Fig. 32).

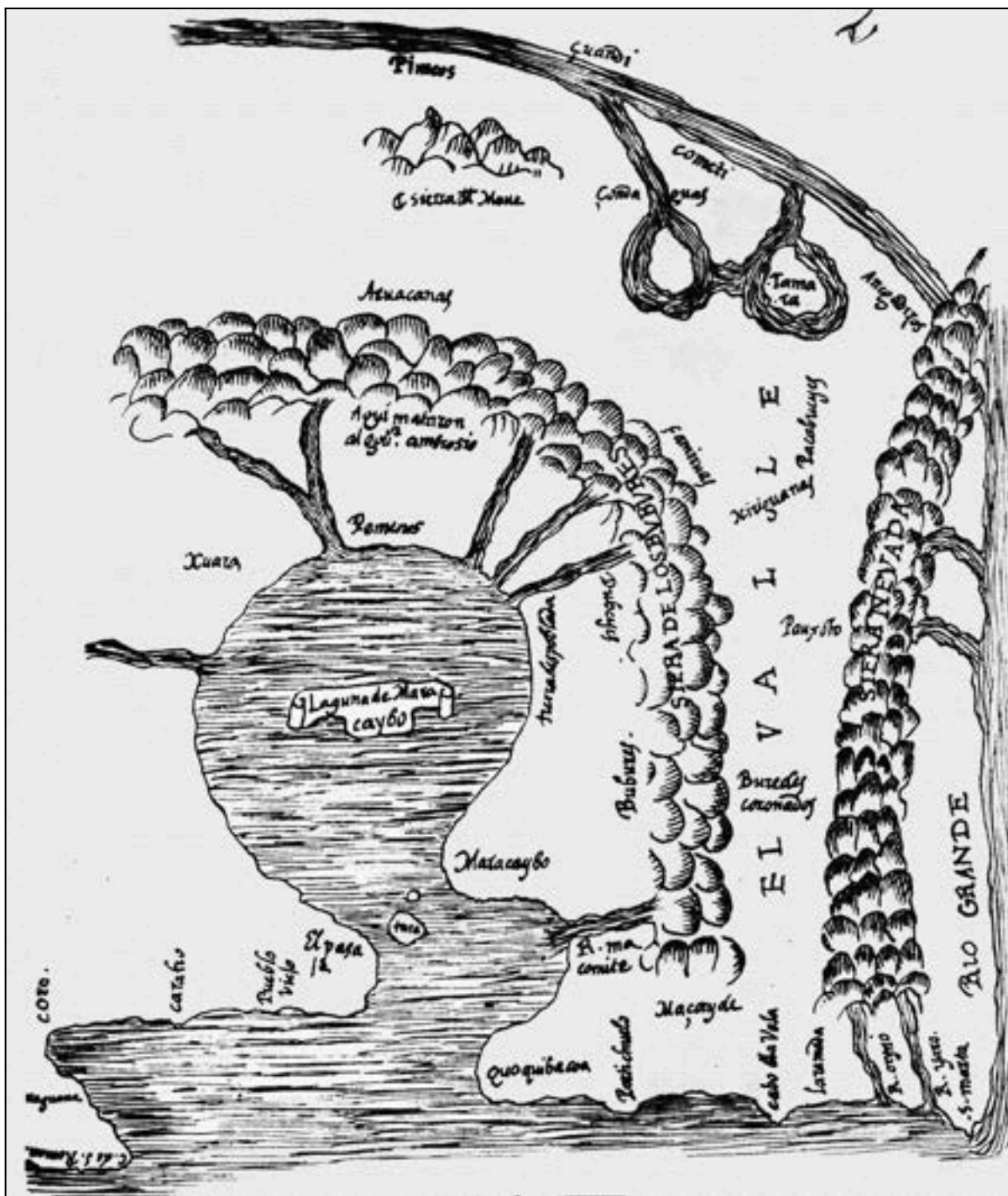
This distinction has been very inconsistent in the literature and has created much confusion. A historical analysis (of XIX-XXth century) by Lizarralde and Beckerman (1982) has determined that, at that time, the Barí groups occupied a far larger territory around southern Maracaibo. Indeed, it would seem that at some point after the XVIth century, the predominant Pemono and Bubure were displaced toward the Sierra de Perijá, becoming the contemporary Carib-speaking *Yukpa* or *Yuko* (cf. next section). The Barí maintained their lowland territorial control until very recently, although the ever increasing encroachment of the Venezuelan *criollos* and the efforts of the clergy eventually strangled their lands and forced them to retrieve into the sierra. This, in turn, created both friction and new forms of

⁵¹"Esta generación que vivía en estas sierras... ninguna cosa le entendíamos más que supimos que eran *aruagos...*" (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 174). Other later documents show that what is now the Northern Santander Department's mountains around Pamplona were inhabited by *Chitarero*, *Guamo*, and *Lache* Indians (cf. Gutiérrez 1940: 10-ff.). A citation by Fray Pedro de Aguado speaks of the Chitarero as a people without a central authority, obeying only that who has more wealth and who is more brave. They are said to wear *mantas* and to have their bodies "painted". (Gutiérrez 1940: 10-11). I agree with Gutiérrez's suggestion that these are Chibchan-speaking groups (based on existing toponyms), and, in fact, I strongly suspect that these were closely related to, if not the same as, the Aruago mentioned by Martín earlier.

⁵²"Mataron en este pueblo al capitán monsarrate e a su cavallo porque *[ellos tenían]* flechas enervoladas. Heran estos indios de una generación que se dicen *haraocanas* y no hallamos de aquella generación más de aquellos dos pueblos. Entramos luego en otra generación que se dicen *pemonos* que tienen grandes pueblos de hasta treynta y e quarenta bohios, e es gente más doméstica." (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 502 [my emphasis]). The Pemono, as we shall see later, were in all probability a Carib-speaking group.

Chapter 3: XVI Century Ethnic Boundaries & Caquetío Politics (Oliver 1989)_____

alliances between the Barí groups and the Yukpa. That alliances through marriage had taken place is clearly demonstrated by Layrisse and Wilbert's (1966: 65) blood-group (Diego gene) studies between the Barí and the Yukpa.



**Figure 32: Anonymous Map of the Maracaibo Basin Area, ca. 1534.
(North is to the bottom).**

[Biblioteca del Palacio Real, Madrid II/3041 (Oviedo y Valdés [1944] 1535, Libro 25, capítulo 1)].



Figure 33: Anonymous Map of Western Venezuela, ca. 1538.

3.2.4 The Carib-Speaking Ethnic Groups

3.2.4.1 Linguistic Background

The most recent synthesis of Carib language classifications, has proposed two main divisions: Northern Carib and Southern Carib (Durbin 1977). The Northern Carib division is organized into five major sub-groupings: a) Coastal Carib, b) Western Guayana Carib⁵³, c) Galibi, d) East-West Guayana Carib, and e) Northern Brazilian Carib.⁵⁴ Durbin (1977: 35) is quite confident that the Northern Carib are closer to Proto-Carib than any of the Southern Carib languages are. The most important aspect of Durbin's analysis and conclusions is that all the Carib languages recorded within the Western Sphere (Magdalena, César, Ranchería, and Maracaibo), are much closer to the Carib languages spoken along much of the central to eastern coast of Venezuela and parts of the northern Llanos, than to any of the Carib languages of the Guayana.

The Northern sub-division of Venezuelan Coastal Carib is comprised of three major groups: 1) Venezuelan Coastal Carib (Chayma, Cumanagoto, Yao, and Tamanaco); 2) Sierra of Perijá Carib (Japrería, Yukpa, and Yuko and 3) Opone-Carare (Opone, and Carare of the Middle to Upper Magdalena).⁵⁵ Among the Yukpa/Yuko there are several dialectical variants such as the Yupe, Chake, Iroca, Japrería, and the Coyaima.

According to the late Marshall Durbin (1977), the Opone-Carare of the Magdalena cluster tightly with Yukpa/Yuko. The implication is that these two sets had separated in relatively more recent times. At the same time, Durbin (1977: 35) proposes that Yukpa/Yuko and Opone-Carare are far more closer to the Carib languages of coastal Venezuela than to any other. On the basis of a series of analyses in collaboration with Haydeé Seijas, Durbin (1977: 29-30) concluded that the linguistics and patterns of distribution of the Coastal Carib sub-groups:

"...suggest a movement from the Venezuelan coastal area through the plains [Llanos] into the southern part of the Sierra de Perijá. Our own analyses suggest that Yukpa migration came from the south, and therefore that the area between the Lake Maracaibo and the Sierra may have been occupied by ancestors of these speakers at one time. We surmise that they were pushed into the Sierra, first by Barí speakers... and later by Spanish colonists... Furthermore, Layrisse and Wilbert's blood studies indicate that Yukpa mixed intensively during the last 700 years with a large Diego-negative Indian population in the area, who could have been the Barí... Along with or perhaps after the movement into the Sierra de Perijá the Opone-Carare may have been pushed through the southern foothills of the Sierra onto the Magdalena River by the expanding Barí..." (Durbin 1977: 30 [my clarifications in brackets]).

⁵³Despite the danger of being brandished as ethnocentric, I still prefer to use the old Spanish term of *Guayana* instead of the British/English orthographies (i.e. Guiana, Guyana).

⁵⁴English dictionaries spell this as Brazil(ian). The Portuguese and Spanish pronunciation is with a /s/, hence, I spell it as Brasil(ian).

⁵⁵The Yukpa (or Yuk'pa) groups and their language in Colombia is known as *Yuko*. Both are synonyms.

Durbin's model of Cariban expansion complements, quite nicely, my model of an early wave of Arawakan expansion into this region (leading to Guajiro-Paraujano). If my own calculations are correct, the Arawakan groups had used the same route (Llanos to S. Maracaibo via Táchira Depression) as the Caribs, but much earlier in time. Probably, the later Arawakan expansion (leading to Caquetío) did not use this route precisely because the Caribs had established a stronghold in this area, as well as in parts of the northern Llanos, preventing the use of this route by the ancestral Caquetíos. If the hypothesis is correct, then we have, at least, a sequence of Early Arawakan followed by a Cariban expansion into the Maracaibo Basin, the latter roughly taking place at about the same time the ancestral Caquetío were expanding in the Northern Llanos sub-area.

Layrisse and Wilbert (1966: 105) have presented preliminary lexicostatistical dates from this Cariban expansion. According to these authors, Proto-Carib began to diverge a minimum of 4.5 millennia ago (ca. 2,500 B.C.), with Bakairí being representative of the earliest split. Between 3.4 and 2.4 a second stage of diversification (56% of the separation of languages) had taken place, and a last stage of further divergence took place between 2.3 and 1.0 millennia ago. I am not sure, however, what languages or proto-languages are involved in each of these stages of divergence. But considering various lines of evidence (including archaeology), the node of divergence of Northern Carib into Coastal Carib, Western Guayana, etc., ought to be about 2.3 millennia.⁵⁶

⁵⁶A full treatment of this problem would require an in-depth analysis of the archaeological evidence correlating with the linguistic model of Carib expansion (cf. Lathrap 1970; Castaño y Lucía Dávila 1984; Tarble 1984).

3.2.4.2 The Ethnohistorical Data

Throughout the XVIth to XVII/XVIIIth centuries none of the ethnic and linguistic terms discussed above were mentioned by the chroniclers. The documents speak very frequently of *caribes*, but only as a categorical opposition to the Spanish category of *guaitiao* (Taíno word roughly translating as 'ally'). Often the very suspicion of cannibalistic rituals was enough to label any group as *caníbales*, a word in close association to *caribes*.⁵⁷ This elementary opposition responded to the Hispanic policies of conquest and colonization and not to specific ethnic and linguistic categories (cf. Oliver Ms. 1987a).⁵⁸

Esteban Martín (Alfínger's 1531-1533 expedition), before setting out to the Sierra de Perijá, explored the territory that today comprises the Guasare-Socuy floodplains. Within this area, west of the villa of Maracaibo, they encountered the *Bubures* (Fig. 32). In the ca. 1534 map inserted in Oviedo y Valdés's chronicles, the Bubure are accurately located along the eastern slopes of the Perijá range.⁵⁹ Martín described the Bubure as "domestic" and "peaceful", possessing small settlements of no more than three or four houses. The men wore penis-sheaths (made from bottle gourds), and the women wore *pampanillas* or cotton loin clothes (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 498). The same designation (orthographical variations notwithstanding) is found in the south-southeastern area of Lake Maracaibo, in the so-called "province of Jurua" (Fig. 32: "Xuara"; Fig. 29).

When Alfínger moved into the Sierra de Perijá, via de Macomite (Guasare) River, he found another group designated as the *Burede*, the same group that extended into the Ranchería Valley and shared the territory with the Coanao. According to the 1534 account, these Burede were "*crowned like friars*", hence the Spanish designation of *Coronados* (crowned). Most importantly, Martín noted that "it was another nation of Indians, *but with little differences in the language*." (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 488 [my translation and emphasis]). It is quite probable that these Burede with their "crowned" haircut style, were ancestral to the contemporary Yukpa who still inhabit the same regions of the Sierra. Since the Burede and the Bubure were linguistically closely related, one can assume that their segmentation must have been recent. One specific, although admittedly lone bit of evidence of a Bubure/Burede Carib affiliation is the designation of Onoto to the neighboring group (probably Pre-Paraujano Arawakan); Onoto is the Carib word for *achiote* or *bija*, the red vegetable pigment (*Bixa orellana*)(Fig.32).⁶⁰

The other segment of Bubure or Bugure were concentrated in the province of Jurua, in the south-southeastern part of the Maracaibo Basin. To the east of these Bubures, the Pemenos (Pemonos, Pemones, etc.) were also identified as both being "domestic" and "peaceful" (although far more numerous) and, more importantly, as being basically "*the*

⁵⁷The Spanish manipulation of the category *caribes*, as it was used in the Antilles, has been the subject of many debates. For an in-depth review of this fascinating problem, consult Jalil Sued Badillo's "*Los Caribes: Realidad or Fábula*" (1978) and Peter Hulme's *Colonial Encounters* (1986). Both contain excellent bibliographies regarding the Carib problem, as well as broader issues regarding European perceptions of the New World Indians.

⁵⁸In the colonial Andes, this opposition was exemplified by the terms *con policía* vs. *sin policía*; that is, Indians with centralized formal authority vs. those who appeared to have no central authority (other oppositions from the Spanish point of view can be suggested: "state civilizations" vs. "savages", etc.).

⁵⁹The map in Figure 32, taken from Oviedo y Valdés (1944 [5]), was commissioned by the sponsors of Alfínger's expedition (the Welser) who were then attempting to demonstrate the extension of the province of Venezuela (which clashed with the claims of the Governor of Santa Marta). It was most probably drawn in the year 1534. This is also the opinion of historian Ramos Pérez (personal communication, 1982).

⁶⁰However, note that Durbin (1977), who was the foremost expert on the Carib languages and groups for this region, is in agreement with my own inferences.

same nation" as those of the Perijá region (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 504). Oviedo y Valdés further comments that:

"...and all these peoples are peaceful, and serve us well, and they are of the nation of *Pemenos*, and they speak like the *Bubures*." (Oviedo y Valdés [1526-1557] 1944 [6]: 33; [my translation, emphasis, and clarifications in brackets]).⁶¹

Oviedo y Valdés (ibid.: [6] 32-34) gives us a rather detailed list of village names for the *Pemenos* and *Bubures* whose toponyms suggest Carib affiliations: Roromoni, Aypiare, Carerehota, Aynagoto, Huahuovano, etc. Martín (ibid.: 504) described the *Pemenos* also as being "peaceful", "without covering their shameful parts", and as "lacking poisoned" arrows.

As noted earlier, amidst the *Bubure* of *Juruara*, there were a few *Caquetío* villages, such as *Parepi*. No mention is ever made of the nature of the relationships between the two ethnic groups, but the emphasis of the chroniclers on the "peacefulness" of the natives strongly suggests an amicable relationship between them.⁶² In addition, both the *Pemenos* and the *Bubures*, and possibly the *Caquetío* as well, traded agricultural products for lacustrine fish with the *Kirikire* (or *Quiriquires* or *Güerigüeris*) and the *Onoto*.⁶³

Oviedo y Valdés described the *Kirikire* as:

"Next to these [*Pemeno*], along the coast and inside the water of the lake itself, there are many villages constructed with wood [*belonging to*] a nation called *Güerigüeris* who trade with these other *Pemenos* and travel always by canoe." ([my translation, emphasis, and clarifications in brackets]).⁶⁴

Furthermore, a *relación geográfica* compiled in 1546 by the Governor of Venezuela also mentions the *Onoto* as selling their fish products to the *Bubures*:

"These Indians are lords of the lake and fish with nets and hooks many kinds of fish that live in the lake, of excellent [*quality*], and they sell it in the markets to the *Bubure* Indians..." (Pérez de Tolosa [1546] in Arellano 1964: 6-7 [my translation from Spanish]).⁶⁵

⁶¹"...y es toda gente doméstica y sirven bien, e son de la nación de los *pemenos*, y hablan como los *bubures*." (Oviedo y Valdés [1526-1557] 1944 [6]: 33).

⁶²It is interesting to note that in contrast to the Carib-speaking groups (and many of the Arawakan-speaking *Lokono* groups) of the Guayana, the Caribs of the Perijá and *Juruara* areas around the Maracaibo Basin were almost always described as being peaceful peoples. On the contrary, the Arawakan-speaking groups of the Maracaibo area (*Onoto*, *Wayú*, *Kusi'na-Wayú*, etc.) show evidence of being more bellicose and rebellious. A notable exception to this is the *Caquetío*, who were always peaceful. Whether peaceful or not, the trade relationships between groups was selective and well organized.

⁶³The linguistic affiliation of the *Kirikire* remains unknown, but I have a hunch that they were a Carib-speaking group. Note that the trade is highly selective between groups; that is, some form of alliance and partnership was formalized, as shown in the next two quotes (*Kirikire-Pemeno* and *Onoto-Bubure*).

⁶⁴"Junto con estos, dentro de la costa y agua de la misma laguna, hay muchos pueblos armados sobre madera de una generación de indios que se dicen *güerigüeris* que tratan con estos otros *pemenos* y andan siempre en canoas." (Oviedo y Valdés [1526-1557] 1944 [6]: 32).

⁶⁵"Estos indios no siembran, son señores de la laguna, y pescan con redes y anzuelos mucho género de pescado que hay en la laguna, muy excelente, y lo venden en sus mercados a los indios *bubures* de la provincia de *Puruara* [*Juruara*], a trueque de maíz, yuca, y otras cosas." (Pérez de Tolosa [1546] in Arellano 1964: 6-7).

Alfínger (1531-34) also encountered *Pemeos* (or *Pemenos*) far south along the Magdalena (Fig. 31). Martín tells us that they travelled from the territory of the Pacabueyes in a south-southeasterly direction "*many journeys*" and still within an area of "*many swamps and lagoons*" where they encountered *Pemeos* (Martín [1534] in María 1977: 496 [my translation]). I have very little doubt that these *Pemeos* are historically related to the *Pemones* of southern Maracaibo. Furthermore, as Castaño and Lucía (1984: 78, 101-ff.) noted, the area included several other Carib-speaking groups in the XVIth century (ibid.: p. 113), to which Carare-Opone were probably related (at least by language).⁶⁶

In conclusion, the Western Sphere is dominated by ethnic groups from three major linguistic Stocks: Arawakan (Northern), Cariban (Northern-Coastal) and Macro-Chibchan/Paezan (Chibchan). The XVIth century Arawakan groups were found already concentrated and limited to the Guajira-Sinamaica sub-area (Fig. 30). Only the Caquetío appear to have had a broader distribution within this Sphere, with what I regard as frontier settlements or outposts in the Northern Guajira, and in the Cabo de La Vela to Chichibacoa area, precisely where some limited agriculture was possible (if the rainy season materialized). The Caquetío also had established settlements in the south-southeastern area of Lake Maracaibo among the Carib-speaking Bubures. The Caquetío presence in this broad region is clearly numerically inferior to other groups. The Caquetío's presence in the Guajira peninsula was probably the result of advantageous trade, them being located at an intermediate point between the César-Ranchería valley and the Coastal Falcón areas. Notably the Caquetío selected the Wanebucán and Coanao as their trading partners, and shunned any such relationships with Onoto, Kuis'na and Guajiro Indians (Wayú). Indeed, there is not one single reference of Caquetío being in association to any of the latter Arawakan-speaking groups.

Of all the Cariban-speaking groups, only the Bubure appear to have had relationships with Arawakan-speaking groups. The Onoto maintained a trade relationship with the Bubure of Juruara and possibly the Bubure of Perijá as well. The Caquetío definitively had villages among the Bubure of Juruara, and their relationship to the Carib-speaking group appears to be more than a simple trade partnership. The XVIth century Macro-Chibchan-speaking ethnic groups were far more widespread throughout the Western Sphere. The Tairo and affinal groups inhabited the Sierra Nevada de Santa Marta, and undoubtedly were the ancestors of the proto-historic Tairona (e.g. Buritaca-200 ceramic component), and a major component of the contemporary Kogi. The Arhuaco are of particular importance since they appear to have been present in proto- or prehistoric times in the Guajira, and later were expelled from the region by the ancestors of the Guajiro-Wayú, retiring to the south-southeastern slopes of Sierra Nevada. The Coanao core settlement area is in the Middle-Upper Ranchería and Upper César valleys. As is the case with the Caquetío of the Guajira, the Coanao had outpost settlements in the peninsula. I portray them as the trading intermediaries between the Caquetío and the Macro-Chibcha groups of Sierra Nevada, and also the groups around Tamalameque and Zapatosa (of a different ethnolinguistic affiliation [Malibú-Pacabuey]). The Aruaco and Aruago of the Norte de Santander highlands (Pamplona, Colombia) and the Maracaibo lowlands, although here considered as Macro-Chibchan, were of a different type than those of Sierra Nevada-César, and are regarded as ancestral to the Barí. The latter group's history is far more interrelated with the Carib-speaking groups than to the Arawakan-speaking groups.

⁶⁶ In contrast to the Carib groups of Perijá and Juruara, the Carib-speaking groups of the Magdalena valley were fierce and bellicose (cf. note 63 above)

Finally, the Carib-speaking groups had as widespread a distribution as the Aruago. They controlled most of the southern lowlands of Maracaibo, the eastern-northeastern area of Maracaibo Lake, the northernmost Sierra of Perijá, and spilled over the sierra into the Upper-Middle Ranchería. In the province of Juruara the Carib-speaking groups interacted with Caquetío groups; in the Ranchería area they shared the valley with the Coanao.

The scenario, as I have reconstructed it, portrays a process of territorial attrition for the Arawakan-speaking groups (excluding the Caquetío) and the territorial predominance of the Carib- and Chibchan-speaking ethnic groups. The Arawakan-speaking groups were circumscribed to the northernmost confines of the Guajira peninsula; they were completely surrounded by other ethnic groups. On the other hand, the Carib-speaking groups, judging by the wide territorial distribution, were numerically superior and had established control over most (if not all) the prime lowland-agricultural soils; consequently, their settlements were larger than those described for Arawakan-speaking groups such as the Onoto. The Chibchan-speaking groups, more than the Carib-speaking groups, were highland oriented (e.g. Sierra Nevada, Highlands of Santander, the southern Perijá range).

It is conceivable that the process of displacing the Arawakan-speaking groups into marginal territories (i.e. Guajira peninsula) was the result of a strong competition for prime agricultural lands. Both, Arawakan and Carib-speaking groups throughout South America are characterized as Tropical Forest Cultures (cf. Lathrap 1970, 1977) and, as such, both groups in the Western Sphere had vied for lowland floodplain control. Carib and Arawakan spatial distributions contrast sharply with the XVIth century Macro-Chibchan-speaking groups. With the exception of the Coanao and some of the Aruago, the settlement emphasis is on sierra and highland areas.

I strongly suspect that the Barí (and Pre-Barí) and the Yukpa (and Pre-Yukpa) boundaries have shifted repeatedly through time. At the time of Martin's account, the Barí were observed in only two villages in the Tarra-Zulia floodplain area. Considering Lizarralde and Beckerman's (1982) historical analysis, we know that the Barí had greatly expanded their territory during recent, historic times, resulting in the last "push" of Carib-speaking



groups (Yukpa/Yuko) into the Sierra de Perijá. One must also consider that Layrisse and Wilbert (1966) have proposed, on the basis of blood group studies that both Barí and sub-groups of Yukpa had been intermarrying for some 700 years; that is, since ca. A.D. 1250. My hunch is that the Haroacana of the lowlands and the Aruago (Chitarero?) of the Santander Highlands were of the same macro-ethnic unit. The Haroacana had descended from the Santander Mountains and spread through southern Maracaibo, while other Aruago groups spread northward along the Sierra de Perijá.

Sattellite Map of the Maracaibo Basin and Adjacent Regions, Colombia-Venezuela. The various ethnic groups noted for the XVIth Century are added. The **mauve** arrows show the approximate route of Ambrosius D'Alfinger or Alfinger (Google Map). **This figure added only for the PDF version, 2006.**

3.3 The Falcón-Lara Highlands Sphere

The Falcón-Lara Highland Sphere is defined geologically by the Falcón Anticline, an orographic system of sierras and mountains arising south of the western coast of Falcón. These series of parallel ranges are oriented in a southwest to northeast axis (Fig. 28). South of the coastal plains the Sierras de Montañitas are found toward the west ending in the eastern lowlands of Maracaibo, where the slightly more north-northeast oriented Sierra de Jirajaras arise. This system is interrupted by the Urumaco depression, which continues broadening to the south: the Pedregal Basin. East of the Pedregal-Pecaya Basin the Sierra de San Luis de Curimagua, rises abruptly. In this part of Falcón, the coastal ranges abut the coastal zone just east of Coro, where they break down into a series of hills and smaller ranges, effectively dividing the semiarid western coast from the subhumid eastern coastal plains (Fig. 34).

South of the Sierra de San Luis, there is a broad valley that drains the Hueque and Ricoa rivers. This valley is called La Cruz de Tara-tara, and is characterized by secondary growth vegetation and grasslands (Figs. 37, 38, 39). This valley opens and widens as one moves northeast along the Hueque-Ricoa rivers. Both rivers discharge into the Caribbean Sea (Matteucci and Colma 1982, Matteucci et al. 1979, COPLANARH 1975 [44]: 16-ff.).

South of the La Cruz de Tara-tara valley and the Pedregal-Pecaya Basin, another orographic system emerges. The Sierra of Siruma (a Guajiro noun that glosses as 'cloud') arises. Along with the Sierra de Jirajara, it forms the massifs that define the limits of the eastern Maracaibo Basin. South and parallel to the ranges of the coast, Lomas del Caballo (north) and the Baragua Highlands (south) arise. South of these highlands the valley of Carora is found.⁶⁷ South of the Carora depression, one finds the Sierra of Barbacoa and the northernmost extension of the Venezuelan Andes (Cordillera of Mérida and of Portuguesa), which are a distinct entity and not considered here as part of the Falcón-Lara Sphere. Continuing east-northeast of the Baragua Highlands, the Buena Vista and Churuguara cordilleras arise, including the El Copeyal, El Buco and Morrocoy sierras east of Churuguara (Figs. 34, 38). South of the Churuguara ranges and east of the Baragua range, the highlands of Matarere and Bobare emerge (Fig. 38).

⁶⁷ It is known as Sabana de Carora, although there is no savanna there.

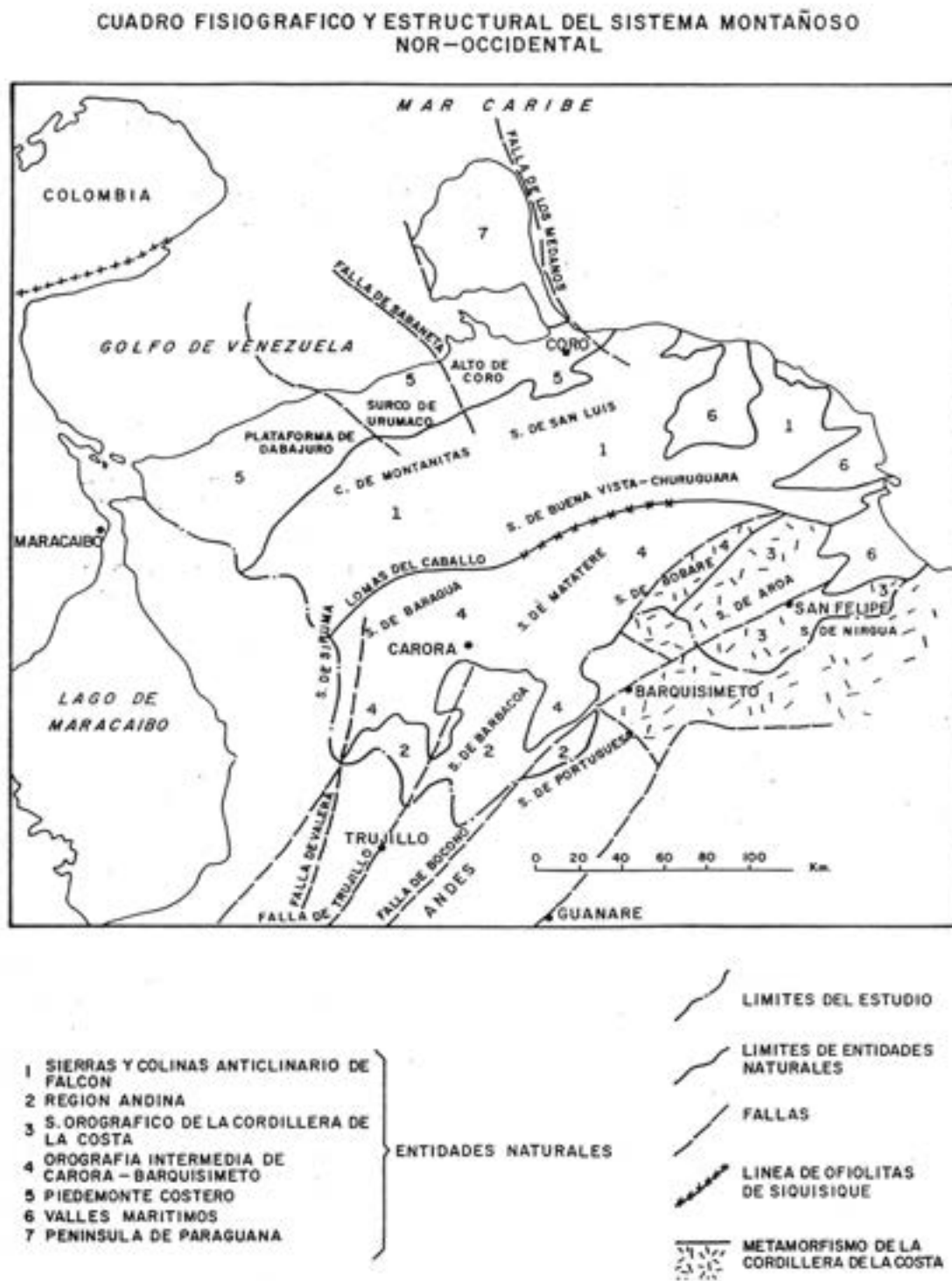


Figure 34: Location of the Major Orographic Systems of Falcón-Lara, Venezuela.

This set of ranges in the north and the Portuguesa Highlands in the south surround the Barquisimeto-Quíbor plateau/valley, a lowland valley which is not considered part of this sphere for cultural as well as geographical reasons. The last highland system to be considered here is the Sierra de Aroa, east of the Sierra de Bobare. And east of Aroa one finds the Sierra of Nirgüa which is already part of the Caribbean Andes (Cordillera de la Costa, etc.). Aroa and Nirgüa are separated by the Yaracuy River valley that connects the Caribbean coast of Venezuela with the Llanos and Barquisimeto Valley. Both Aroa and Nirgüa are geologically different than the Venezuelan Andes and the Falcón-Lara orographic systems (COPLANARH 1975 [#44]: 80).

Travel across these mountains (e.g. between Coro and Barquisimeto) in the XVIth century was hazardous and difficult, however, several expeditions beginning with Federmann (1530-1531), Hohermuth (or Espira [1535-1538]), Hutten (1541-1546), and others had used the highland routes to reach Barquisimeto. Strategical lowland, or relatively low elevation routes of communication between different areas ought to be mentioned briefly. The Táchira Depression, near the modern city of San Cristóbal provides an effective bridge from the Northwestern Llanos to the southern Maracaibo Basin, avoiding the 3,000 to 4,000 meter highlands of Mérida. The major drawback, for the Spanish (they brought mules and horses), was the swamps of the southern Maracaibo lowlands, which made it difficult to travel.

The other important communication bridge is found between the Sierra de Siruma and the Venezuelan Andes, at the head waters of the Motatán river. Although not strictly lowlands, there are a series of passages that allow easier communication between the Sabana de Carora Depression and the eastern Maracaibo lowlands. Hence, one could travel from Barquisimeto through Quíbor and Sabana de Carora (all plains) into the Maracaibo Basin with comparatively more ease than attempting to do so across the Trujillo and Mérida Highlands.

Finally, the third strategic cross-road is the gap between the Portuguesa and the Nirgüa highlands. Through this gap there is an effective lowland communication between the Northern Llanos (Cojedes River) and the Barquisimeto Valley as well as the Yaracuy Valley. The latter, running between Sierras of Aroa and Nirgüa, opens to the Caribbean Sea. Indeed, this was the only route used by the Spanish to penetrate the Llanos from Coro (the exception is navigating from Trinidad through the Orinoco Delta and west along Apure or Meta rivers).



Figure 35: XVIth Century Painting of Alfinger, Hohermuth and Federmann in Spain, on their way to the New World.

(Original black & white replaced with the color version; after Hemming, 1978: 57)

3.3.1 The Jirajaran-Speaking Ethnic Groups

The Jirajaran "family" consists of three closely related languages: Jirajara, Ayoman (Ayaman) and Gayón (Coyón, Cuyón). A quick comparison with Proto-Chibchan suggests few points of comparison, although the vocabularies of Jirajaran are very limited.⁶⁸ However, Greenberg (1987: 106-ff., 382) has presented linguistic evidence that suggests that Jirajara belongs in the Paezan sub-division of the Macro-Chibchan-Paezan division of the Amerindian "super" Stock. In this sub-division, Jirajara is placed along with Nuclear Paezan (Andoquí, Barabacoa, Chocó and Páez), Allantiac, Betoí, Chimú, Ionama, Mura, Timucua (Florida, U.S.) and Warrau (Orinoco). For the moment I will only say that I have serious doubts as to the Paezan affiliation of Timucua and Warrau, and of Yanöama's affiliation to the Chibchan sub-division, and prefer to maintain all three as separate clusters.

The Jirajaran include several ethnic groups; namely, the Jirajara (or Girara, Jirara, Xidehara), the Gayón (Coyón, Cuyón), and the Ayoman (Ayoman). The latter, as we shall see, were further differentiated into two sub-groups based on physical (genetic) attributes: the "midget" Ayomanes and the "mixed" (with Jirajara) Ayomanes.

The *Jirajara* in the XVIth century were reported in the Sierra de San Luis, immediately south of Coro (Fig. 38), in the Nirgüa mountains, across the Sierra of Aroa and the Yaracuy Valley (Fig. 39) and in the Sierra of Jirajara of western Falcón (Arcaya 1977: 37).

Already by 1527, the Jirajara of San Luis had been contacted by Juan de Ampíes' men who were extracting brasilwood (Ramos 1978: 280-283, 297). Nicholas Federmann, in his first expedition that led him to the Northern Llanos (1530), was the first European to extensively traverse Jirajaran territories. His expedition began in Coro (Fig. 37), moving into the Sierra de San Luis, where he found the first village of Jirajara (Fig. 37: 2). Federmann ([1557] 1958: 39-41) gave the following description:

"This nation does not have much gold, there are no mines in their territory, and they do not trade with the neighboring nations, since each of the ones inhabiting the mountains is enemy of the others, and all eat human flesh, eating anybody they can lay their hands on or anyone they can apprehend. Thus I crossed this nation of the *Xideharas*, which occupies steep and high mountain of some 30 miles [ca. 75 Km.] in extension. (Federmann [1557]: 40 [my translation from Spanish]).⁶⁹

It took Federmann "5 journeys" to cross the Sierra, and in September 1530, he reached the last Jirajara village (Hittoua). I coincide with both Arcaya's and Friede's localization of Hittoua (Fig. 37: 3) slightly east of the Sierra del Buco, and southeast of the modern city of Churuguara (Arcaya 1916: 31; Friede 1958: 133-134). Hence between the first Jirajara village (Quiragua?) in San Luis and the village of Hittoua, located S. E. of Churuguara, Federmann had traveled for five days, crossing the Cruz de Tara-Tara Valley, and across Aracua (Fig. 37: 2-3). South of this village there was a no-man's-land buffer zone. Of the

⁶⁸ In Appendix A, Table 8, I have compiled a basic, although small, Jirajaran vocabulary.

⁶⁹ Here I use Friede's excellent reasons to accept his approximation of what Federmann's "German mile" is in terms of modern distance (Km.). For more details see Friede (1958: appendix). Again, my English translation is from Friede's (1958) translation of the original German text into Spanish. Because mine is a second-hand translation, I will not offer Friede's Spanish text in the footnotes.

Jirajara, Governor Pérez de Tolosa said:

"Three leagues from the city of Coro one finds the sierras, and these are settled by Indians of the nation *piracora*, who are bellicose and warriors. They are excellent maize farmers, and in the days when we had peace with them [1527-1530], they supplied maize to the Spanish of the city of Coro for their subsistence. Their weapons are the bows and arrows and *macanas* [clubs]. They did not have large villages. The Sierra is fertile and very hilly. (Pérez de Tolosa [1546] in Arellano 1964: 6 [my translation from Spanish]).⁷⁰

By the time Pérez de Tolosa wrote the above report, many of the Jirajara had fled the region as a result of the abuses of the Spanish, who raided and enslaved them.

The *Ayoman* or *Ayaman* (Fig. 38) were the next ethnic group encountered by Federmann ([1557] 1958: 41), a three day journey from Hittoua. The Jirajara were

⁷⁰"A tres leguas de la ciudad de Coro estan las sierras, y están pobladas de indios de la nación *piracoras*, gente belicosa y guerrera. Son grandes labradores de maíz, y en tiempos que con ellos se conservióla paz, se proveían de ellos los españoles de la ciudad de Coro del maíz para su sustento." (Pérez de Tolosa [1546] in Arellano 1964: 6). The name *priacora* is in all probability a mistranscription of the Jirajara. At any rate, given the context of the former term in the various documents, there is no doubt that it refers to the Jirajara.

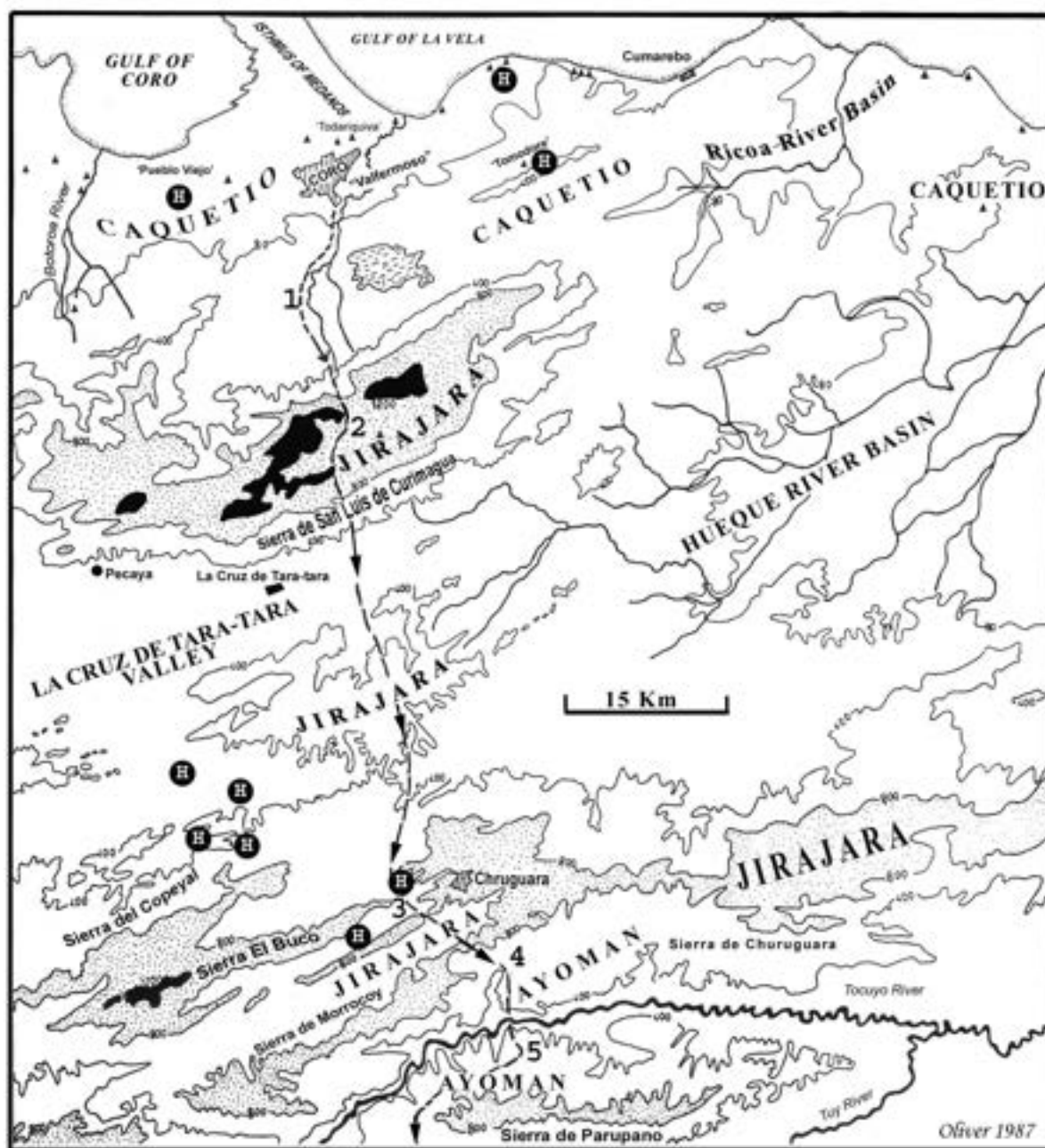


Figure 37: Close-up Map of Federman's 1530 Expedition.
Ethnic distributions between Coro and Río Tocuyo.

H= Historic-modern pottery centers

enemies of the Ayoman, and Federmann was warned that he would find the intervening territory "*depopulated and deserted*". Calculating the days/distances travelled, Federmann was already in the highland area just north of Tocuyo river, and south of Churuguara (Fig. 37: 4). Continuing south, Federmann reached another village where he found "*abundance of maize, yuca [manioc], batata [sweet potato], and auyama [squash]*." (ibid.: 43). Near this town, Federmann noted that there were some "*thirty villages situated near us*" (ibid.: 43). In one of the Ayoman attacks, Federmann calculated about 600 warriors who attacked by surprise "*screaming very loudly, blowing their horns, as is their costume in warfare, and shooting arrows for about fifteen minutes*" (ibid.: 43). Federmann ([1557] 1958: 44) also noted that warfare among these Indians took the form of kidnapping women and children.

While still in the southern slopes of the Churuguara range, north of the Tocuyo River (Fig. 37: 4), Federmann made an important observation. He noted that the Ayoman of the southern Churuguara slopes were of a different physical type than those Ayoman from across the Tocuyo valley (Sierra de Parúpano). The latter were described as being well proportioned midgets (*enanos*). Federmann gave an interesting account of his encounter with the *Ayoman-midgets* who came to visit him in the Ayoman village north of the Tocuyo River:

"... about eight o'clock in the morning a cacique and sixty men and women without weapons, as was their custom when the wanted to demonstrate their friendship, came [to the village]. And even though this cacique was not of small stature as the midgets I will talk about later, we found that he [the cacique] had brought along with him some of the midgets, some of which had a maximum of five to six palms...⁷¹ And even though all belonged to the nation of Ayamanes, including the midgets, I found among them men of good disposition [well proportioned] and of reasonable stature. Having asked them the reason for this difference, they responded that years ago, according to the elder's recollections, a [period] of generalized mortality [disease, death] came to [overtook] the Ayaman nation, that was then exclusively inhabiting the region without mixing with other nations. This disease was called *Vioroles* [smallpox?] similar to our *Urschletcht*... even though in all the Indies there never was *peste* [plague].⁷² From this disease such a great number of Ayamanes or midgets died that they were insufficient to defend their land from their enemies and, hence, were forced to confederate with some villages and their inhabitants; [that is with] their [now] enemies the Xidehara, who lived further north, and married them [marriage alliance]. For this reason, in this place some [Indians] were of better disposition [normal proportions] and of

⁷¹ A "palm" was a common measure of size at the time. A "palm" comes from the "palm of a hand", that is, one palm is the equivalent of someone's hand.

⁷² The German noun *Urschletcht* is a compound of a modifier *schletcht*, which gloss as 'bad', 'ill', 'wicked' and the like, and the nominal prefix *Ur-*, which gloss as 'very old', 'ancient'. Federmann stated that the so-called *vioroles* disease is similar, not identical, to this *urschletcht*. Friede (1958: note 29, p. 46) stated that "It does not seem correct to translate this word [urschletcht] for the [Spanish] word *viruelas* [smallpox]..." He thinks that the German word is a generic term for 'plague' (*peste*).

taller stature, with a larger and bigger body. They told me that four journeys from this village there is a country [territory] inhabited only by midgets and peoples of short stature, that had not mixed with any other nation." (Federmann [1557] 1958: 45-47).⁷³

Neither smallpox (*viruelas* in Spanish) nor any other contagious disease could explain the presence of a midget gene pool amidst the general Ayoman population. The so-called "midget" is a matter of genetics and not disease. What Federmann probably heard from the Ayoman was a myth cycle explaining their ideas about the origin of midgets and a theory justifying both, the phenotypical differentiation and the intermarriage of Ayoman with Jirajara. The account, of course, comes to us garbled and confused. However, the presence of contemporary Ayoman with a very short stature in San Miguel de Ayomanes confirms Federmann's descriptions. Oramas (1916) and later Jahn (1927: 239) have described and photographed individuals ranging between 1.11 and 1.15 meters of stature, weighting around 20 kilograms. These individuals considered themselves to be of Ayoman descent. Indeed, some "midget" Ayoman were still extant in the mid 1940's (Cruxent, personal communication 1981).⁷⁴

Upon crossing the Tocuyo River, near Paso de Camayata (Fig. 38: 5), Federmann sent a party of his men into the Parúpano mountains. They came back with 150 midget Ayoman of whom Federmann commented:

"...they live isolated [in Parúpano-Matarere] without mixing with other peoples and without admitting among them any Jirajara; they are not confederated or in allied [with any other villages] including other villages of their own nation, and including *Ayamanes* that have mixed with the neighboring *Jirajaras*. They do not even communicate with them, because they are enemies and abhor the villagers that have mixed with the Jirajara through marriage." (Federmann [1557] 1958: 49 [my translation]).

Federmann continued his expedition, this time avoiding the highlands of the midget Ayoman, following the Tocuyo valley toward Siquisique (or Siquisiqui), in order to avoid the Parúpano range, which was "*too difficult and dangerous to cross with the horses... our travel would take too long.*" (ibid [my translation]). The entire territory was settled by the "normal" (non-midget) Ayomanes. Federmann set camp in yet another village named Carohana (Fig. 38: 6), and shortly thereafter continued his southbound expedition in search

⁷³The original text of Federmann's account is in XVIth century German. There are two basic translations into modern Spanish language. The earliest I am aware of is that of Dr. Pedro Manuel Arcaya (1916). The second translation, which is the source of all my quotes from Federmann, is from 1958, done by Colombia's eminent historian Dr. Juan Friede, himself of Germanic origin. I translated from Friede all of Federmann's quotes into English. I will not include the Spanish version since, itself, represents a translation from the original German. Friede's translation includes many explanatory notes whenever he encountered problems of meaning and context. The reader should consult Friede's work for further clarifications.

⁷⁴The contemporary Ayoman, who survived in part because of the *encomiendas*, had (until recently) a most interesting dance-ritual known as the *Baile de Las Turas*. This ritual dance/theater presents a strong native religious and ceremonial undercurrent, despite syncretism with Catholic rituals. For details on the Tura Dance consult Jahn (1927), Acosta Saignes (1949), and Domínguez (1984).

of "*the southern sea*" .⁷⁵ From here on it becomes difficult to reconstruct Federmann's precise route. It took him five more days of travel before leaving the Ayoman territory (October 6 to 12, 1530).

Of the Ayoman between Carohana and the terminus of their territory, Federmann said that they obtained jet (*azabache*) and shell necklaces by trade. Judging from the quote below, these items were obtained through a down-the-line trade network. The *azabache* adornos have been found archaeologically in the Llanos, the Maracaibo

⁷⁵ Early on in the XVIth century it was believed that a short-cut to the Pacific Sea (Southern Sea in the *argot* of the time) and, hence to the Maluca Islands and its rich spices, would be located to the south of Coastal Venezuela. This geographical misconception was fueled by the fact that the Llanos were subject to regular yearly floods, turning the region into a "sea". The Spanish had problems in interpreting the concept of bodies of water in the various indigenous languages, where distinctions between our 'sea' , 'lake', lagoon', etc. were not the same as theirs.



Figure 38: Route of Federmann's 1530-31 Expedition.
 Ethnic distributions between Río Tocuyo & Northern Llanos.

Basin, as well as Coastal Falcón, whereas the marine shells had to be traded from the coast, perhaps via Yaracuy.

"...they use as adornos very shiny and black beads, that they thread like the beads of a rosary. They also use some *mariscos* or marine shells, that they buy from other nations, and because they live far from it [sea] they esteem them as exotic items, since they know nothing about the sea and never go there. It is [an Ayoman] village enemy of the neighboring villages, they do not travel too far, and no nation needs [covets?] the *términos* [village territory] or seeks domination over it." (Federmann [1557] 1958: 54 [my translation and clarifications in brackets]).

As so often happens, the bellicose relationships between different Ayoman groups, and between them and other ethnic groups in the region was no impediment in maintaining trading networks operational. Unfortunately, the chronicle gives no details as to how these exchanges between enemy groups took place.⁷⁶

By October 12, 1530, Federmann had left behind the Ayoman territory and began to enter the *Cuyón* or *Gayón* territory. As I said above, at this point it becomes difficult to evaluate precisely the direction of Federmann's route. Arcaya (1916) would have Federmann traveling westward (Fig. 38: 8) around the Bobare Highlands, mainly because of the presence of Xagua (Jagua), who in the 1550's were reported near the village of Río Tocuyo. However, I must agree with Friede (1958) that this runs counter to Federmann's consistent southerly route ever since he left Coro. I have reconstructed an alternative route based on various lines of evidence (Oliver Ms. 1987a), and have Federmann moving south into the Bobare Highlands (Fig. 38: 7-9 dotted pattern), where he encountered the next Jirajaran-speaking ethnic group.

Very little is known about the *Gayón* (or *Coyón*, *Cuyón*) from Federmann's account. A notable exception is that the *Gayón* were archenemies of the Ayoman. The Ayoman "porters" that Federmann rounded up at Carohana were set free because:

"...they were afraid to be ambushed by their enemies, and although I [Federmann] attempted to establish friendship among them [Gayón], the Ayoman did not allow it, claiming that some of their people were captured and killed by the Cayones and they have not extracted revenge yet." (Federmann [1557] 1958: 55).

The *Gayón* were equally archenemies of the *Xagua* (Axagua or Jagua) who inhabited to the south-southwest of their territorial limits. Federmann commented that these two groups

⁷⁶ I have always asserted that an aboriginal group would treat the European foreigner as it would treat any native "outsider" group (i.e. foreign). If such assertion is correct, the procedures followed between the Ayoman and Federmann in the process of establishing relationships gives us a glimpse of how native Indian groups would conduct their business with distrusted outsiders; namely, through third parties trusted by the interested parties (Federmann always searched for this third party intermediary). Two alternatives are possible: trading with an enemy village was done by either a specialized or semi-specialized class of traders, or by dealing indirectly through a village who was had ties to the "enemy" and yet maintained an alliance with themselves.

"...persecuted each other using all the tricks possible, for this reason they walked through the water [*of a river*]... so that their footsteps could not be identified and, therefore, they could not be surprised [*by an attack*]. These two nations do not live in peace and constantly worrying of their enemies, except when the waters are high." (Federmann [1557]: 59 [my translation]).⁷⁷

The *Relación Geográfica de La Nueva Segovia de Barquisimeto* (1579), in describing the area surrounding the Barquisimeto valley (Fig. 38), noted that:

"...three leagues from this town [*Nueva Segovia*], toward the northern side, there is a mountain range, of high peaks. There live some native Indians of the nation of *Gayones*, and [*they*] are of the nation[s] of *Axaguas* and *Xidaharas*, and of the nation of *Camagos*, and each nation speaks a different language " (Arellano 1964: 182 [my emphasis and translation from Spanish]).⁷⁸

It is clear from the descriptions of Federmann, that the Jirajaran-speaking ethnic groups (Jirajara, Ayoman, and Gayón) were not organized beyond the local village level (or a small group of villages). They constantly raided against their own ethnic group as well as others, with kidnapping of women and children being the major reason for the endemic local warfare and mistrust. One could speculate and draw from ethnographic analogies various reasons for kidnapping as a formalized institution, where the reproductive powers of society (women, children) are constantly recycled by raiding. However, the fact of the matter is that the available documents do not offer enough data to enable me to draw defensible conclusions. On the other hand, this much can be said: any village with increased female and children populations ensures, or at least enables, the village's numerical dominance (biological reproduction) in the territory over other groups, therefore, reinforcing the maintenance of their social system (social reproduction), and their territorial hegemony⁷⁹

It is important to note that none of the Jirajaran villages in this region had developed a "confederation", that is, a large network of alliances, particularly from a socio-political perspective. They did develop a system of alliances on the basis of trade and exchange of goods (e.g. shell-beads, salt, *azabache*).. Every village appears to have a headman, possibly an elder head of lineage, whose authority, for the most part, did not extend beyond the village. Some of these headmen appear to have extended their authority to other closely allied villages, but here I suspect that warfare was the vehicle for the extension of power. Nevertheless, the Jirajaran territory was not hierarchically integrated under one or a small number of polities. Rather, the territory is characterized by shifting and ephemeral alliances (and boundaries) between fairly autonomous, small number of village groupings.

⁷⁷ The Gayón only used a specific creek in order to travel through the Xagua territory.

⁷⁸ "...a tres leguas de este pueblo, por la banda del norte, está una cordillera de sierras montuosas. Están en ellas algunos indios naturales de nación gayones, y algunos axaguas y xidaharas, y de nación camagos, y todos éstos diferentes en lenguas [en] cada nación" (Arellano 1964: 182 [my emphasis]).

⁷⁹ The importance of social and biological reproduction --which obviously relates to kidnapping women and children-- is a theme that has been well developed and discussed in Terence Turner's article "The Gê and Bororo Societies as Dialectical Systems: A General Model" (1979: 147-178 [cf. also Maybery-Lewis ed. 1979]).

Federmann, finally reached the southern limit of the Gayón and crossed into the *Xagua* territory. Many ethnic characteristics of the *Xagua*, as perceived by the Spanish (and Germans), are not much different from those of the *Jirajaran* groups (Arcaya 1977: 42). However, it is not possible to determine the linguistic affiliation of the *Xagua*, and the few words recorded by the chroniclers have no relationship to either *Jirajaran* or *Caquetío*. Arcaya (1977: 42-ff.) argued that the [A]*xagua* were the same ethnolinguistic group as the *Achagua* of the *Llanos*. Unfortunately, the only thing in common that these two groups have is their similarity in the names. For now, I prefer to maintain the *Xagua* as independent from the *Achagua* of the *Llanos*.

It took Federmann five days to cross *Xagua* territory, and by the 31st of October he had reached the last *Xagua* village. About three "miles" ahead of this village, Federmann was able to see the valley of *Barquisimeto*, which was densely settled by *Caquetío* Indians.

Pérez de Tolosa in 1546 --only 16 years after Federmann travelled through the region-- stated that by this time the *Xagua* (and other groups) had abandoned the territory around the *Sabana de Carora*. They were said to have migrated further north in to the *Baragua Highlands* area because of the Spanish *entradas*.⁸⁰ The *Xagua* were described as once living in the *Sabana de Carora*, but by the 1540's some of them lived in the Highlands of *Baragua*. Of the *Xagua*, he said:

"They eat human flesh, and they are so bellicose that by no means was it possible to make peace with them. They fight with bows and arrows and *macanas*. They have no settled villages" (Pérez de Tolosa [1546] in Arellano 1964: 10 [my translation]).⁸¹

That they did live a sedentary, settled life was attested only 16 years earlier by Federmann ([1557] 1958: 58-63). This alleged nomadism or "savage" life-style was no doubt the result of the Spanish conquest in the area.

Finally, the constant state of raiding and guerrilla warfare, at least for those groups bordering the *Barquisimeto* valley, is in part due to population pressures and competition for lowland territories occupied by the better organized and numerically superior *Caquetío* of *Barquisimeto*. Indeed, Federmann himself obtained this invaluable information:

"And certainly, all the nations above cited [*Jirajaran and Xagua*] were forced by them [*Caquetío of Barquisimeto*] to live in the mountains, so that they could become the only ones to possess and dominate the extremely fertile lowland. --to which Federmann adds-- These *Caquetíos* do not inhabit in the highlands anywhere, neither here [*Barquisimeto*] nor around Coro [*Coastal Falcón*], rather they always settle the best and most fertile lowlands and do not tolerate any other nations in the lowland" (Federmann [1557] 1958: 64 [my italics]).

⁸⁰The Spanish term *entradas* literally means "entrance(s)", and refers to the penetrations or incursions of the conquistadores deep into the mainland.

⁸¹"Es gente que comen carne humana, y son tan belicosos, que por ninguna vía con ellos se ha podido hacer la paz. Pelean con arcos y flechas y macanas. No tienen pueblos poblados." (Pérez de Tolosa [1546] in Arellano 1964: 10).

As I already noted above, the normal bellicose activities do not interfere with trading activities. Despite the antagonism between the Xagua and the Caquetío of Barquisimeto, both were in a complementary relationship when trading was involved. Federmann himself could not have expressed it better:

"...some *Xaguas* of the last villages [*closest to Barquisimeto*] of that nation, *contratan* and trade salt with those [*Caquetío*] peacefully... [*The Caquetío*] are enemies of the three nations that surround them and of some Xagua villages, with whom they are enemies also. And even though they [*Caquetío*] are confederated with some of these villages and other neighbors with whom they trade and maintain communication, such as the Xaguas with whom they trade salt, they are, as I said, also their enemies." (Federmann [1557] 1958: 65, 67-68 [my translation]).

3.3.2 The Jirajaran-speaking Grops Outside the Falcón-Lara Sphere

Outside the Falcón-Lara Sphere, there is evidence of **Jirara** (or Girara) living in the Llanos of Venezuela (Figs. 28, 36). They were first contacted by the members of Hohermuth's expedition (1535-1538). Castellanos' romance poetry captured this encounter of Espira (Hohermuth of Speyer):

"They discovered open and beautiful lands,/ To the detriment of the neighboring peoples;/ They traversed the laden rivers,/ Guanaguanarí, Tapia and to Barinas;/ The bellicose *Girahara* Indians/ Came out to the encounter of the wanderers/ On an open flat field of savannas/ To guard and defend their homes." (Castellanos [1589] 1962: 215, stanza 39 [my emphasis and translation from Spanish]).⁸²

Arcaya (1977: 41) also cited a 1625 document which talks about bellicose *Girahara* in the Muquina Valley, within the jurisdiction of Mérida. Another source, dating to 1600, locates them in the Pedraza District, near the village of Pedraza (Pedro Simón cited in Arcaya 1977: 42). However, the Girara were first systematically contacted at the onset of the Jesuit Missions of the Llanos which began ca. 1670. Father Rivero, who had been in the Llanos of Meta and wrote his *Historia* in 1728-29 about the Missions starting in 1679, reported the presence of Giraras (or Jiraras) in the Serranía of Morcote and the Airico de Macaguane, a report supported by Father Mercado (Rivero [1740] 1958: 127; Mercado [1685] 1966; cf. Rey Fajardo 1979: 97 and Arcaya 1977: 56-ff.).

Father Gilij (ca. 1715-1735), the excellent Jesuit linguist, reported that the Girara language is a "dialect" of the Betoy (Betoi), language which he considers to be the matrix (mother) tongue (Rey Fajardo 1979: 97). This observation coincides quite well with

⁸²Descubren campos anchos y hermosos,/ Con daño de las gentes más vecinas;/ Atravesaron ríos cudalosos,/ Guanguanarí, Tapia y á Barinas;/ Los indios *giraharas*, belicosos, salieron a las gentes peregrinas/ En el campo llano y en çavanas rasas,/ En guarda y defensa de sus casas. (Castellanos [1589] 1962: 215, stanza 39).

Greenberg's (1987: 382) inclusion of Betoyan and Jirajaran (of Falcón-Lara) as two of the families of the Paezan subdivision of Macro-Chibchan/Paezan.

Father Mercado ([1685] 1966: 28-29) described the Girara dwellings as large *malocas*, one of which served as a men's house where lots of drinking (*maçato* or maize beer) took place, where sacred musical instruments were played., and where disputes (*agravios*) were settled:

"*Caneyes* are the names of the houses in which the Indians live. The Giraras make them narrow and very long, they are about thirty feet wide and almost two hundred in length. At the two ends there are two doors so small that one can only get through by crawling. Everything is enclosed all around... [*inside they*] begin to drink and begin to recite and recollect all the offenses that have been made against them in the past, of the ones made to their grandparents and ancestors... In them [*maloca*] they use also their musical instruments, and dictate the times when the musicians must play. Some play the *fututos*, which are like trumpets... and at the same time following their rhythm, they play a drum [*made of a single hollowed tree trunk*]... which make a horrible noise heard four and six leagues afar..." (Mercado [1685] 1966: 28-29 [my translation]).⁸³

Overall, the Girara of the Llanos share the bellicose attitude of the Jirajaran of Falcón-Lara, but I suspect that their socio-political organization is quite different. Also, despite Greenberg's classification, the Girara language of that time period (1680's) has only recorded a few words, making it difficult to assess its linguistic affiliation. Assuming that Greenberg is correct, I am tempted to suggest that the separation of Jirajaran from Betoyan is very ancient and that the expansion may have been from the Colombian Andes to the Airico de Macaguane (Llanos) and another group, leading to Jirajaran, migrated northward into Falcón-Lara, following the Andean chain.⁸⁴

3.3.3 The Chipas of the Aroa Mountains

⁸³ *Caneyes* se llaman las casas en que los indios viven. Los *giraras* las forman muy largas y angostas, tendrán de ancho treinta piés y casi doscientos de longitud. En las dos extremidades del *caney* hacen dos puertecillas tan pequeñas que casi se ha de entrar arrastrando por ellas. Todo lo demás está cerrado por todas partes... Entrar adentro de sus *caneyes* cuando están en borracheras y algazaras es estar en un vivo retrato del infierno, porque en poniéndose a beber arman sus pendencias haciendo recordación [*memoria*] unos a otros de los agravios que se han hecho en otros tiempos, de los que hubo entre sus abuelos y antepasados;... En ellas [*las casas o caneyes*] usan también de sus instrumentos músicos y señalan por horas los ministriles que los han de tocar. Unos tocan unos *fututos* (toda música parecida a la del infierno) que son a manera de trompeta,... a un mismo tiempo le llevan el compás los atambores que son tan horribles y se oye su estruendo a cuatro y seis leguas de distancia..." (Mercado [1685] 1966:28-29 [my clarifications in brackets]). Both the terms *caney* (chief's house) and *fotuto* or *fututo* a (trumpet-like instrument) are Taíno (Arawakan) words, and were probably introduced by the Spanish from the Antilles. This was a common phenomenon throughout America at a time when the Spanish vocabulary did not have words for many things and concepts autoctonous to the New World. That Taíno was used often (e.g. *cacique*, *huracán*, *hamaca*, etc.) is of no surprise since most Spanish had to stop in Hispaniola before continuing elsewhere.

⁸⁴Note that the term for the highlands north of the Trujillo mountains is Sierra de Jirajaras (Fig. 34).

The last ethnic group of the Falcón-Lara sphere is not very well known or described. Federmann probably was the first European to contact them on his way back from his first expedition to the Llanos (Federmann [1557]: 114-ff.).⁸⁵ This group was designated as Çyparicotes or Chiparicotos, and later as *Chipas* [Fig. 39]). This group inhabited the *montaña* region of Aroa, and possibly spilled into the upper Aroa valley.

The term *chipa-ri-coto* is easy to decipher. Its root contains the Arawakan (Maipuran) term for stone *ç/ch-ipa* (or */-iba/* in other Arawakan languages) and a common Carib suffix *-goto* (e.g. *Cumana-goto*) or *-coto* (c=/k/), whose precise meaning is debatable but which appears to have a negative connotation of "slave" or "inferior", or perhaps "subordinate" (Gumilla [1740] 1882 [2]: 63). The root */-ipa/* or */-iba/* is often found in names for mountains, as a reference to their "stone" quality (e.g. mountains of Cibao in Hispaniola). It is quite probable that *chipa* is a Caquetío term applied to the peoples that lived in the Sierra of Aroa.⁸⁶

⁸⁵There is a chance that Gonzalo de Sevilla, an envoy of Ampies whom we shall meet later, had contacted them in his initial explorations of Falcón. However, this is unlikely since it would seem, based on the available documents, that he did not venture to the mountain areas.

⁸⁶Only Federmann adds the suffix */-coto/* to the Chipa peoples, the preferred spelling by other chroniclers. That the suffix */-coto/* is added to the Chipa Indians by Federman's Indian interpreters is not surprising considering that there were a number of Carib-speaking groups in the Central Coast of Venezuela, a short distance east of the Yaracuy river, and of the Aroa Highlands.

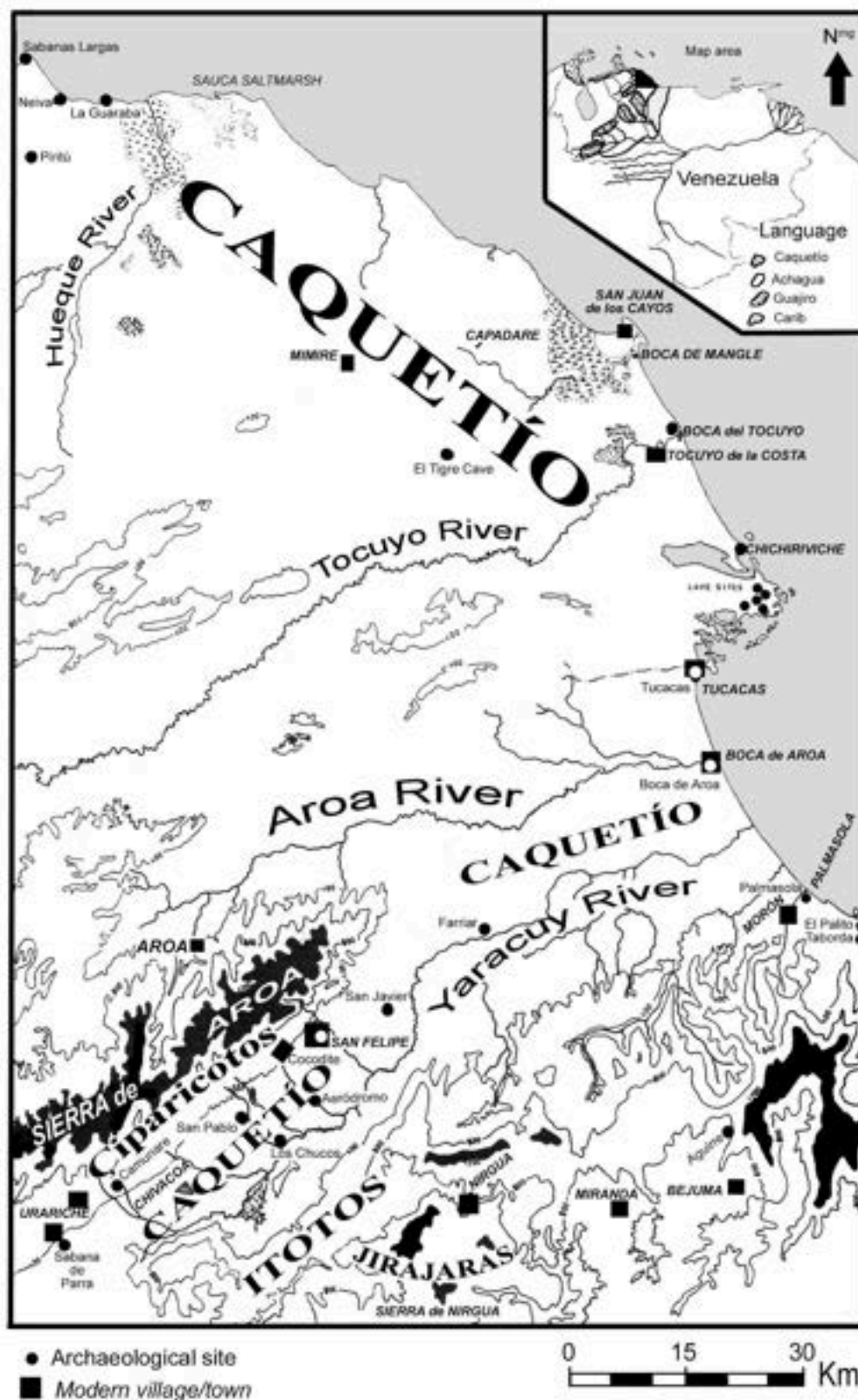


Figure 39: Route of Federmann's 1530-31 Expedition.
Ethnic distribution in the Lower Tocuyo and Yaracuy Valleys.

The Chipas lived in relative isolation in the Sierra de Aroa. Their language was clearly different from the Caquetío, and perhaps related to Carib, since no one in Federmann's expedition could communicate with them (Oliver Ms. 1987a: 149; Federmann [1557] 1958: 119). There is a reference to a Chipa Indian who knew how to speak Caquetío, suggesting that at least a few of them had established contacts (trade?) with either the Caquetío of Yaracuy or of the east coast of Falcón (Federmann [1557] 1958: 119). The Chipas were also said to be enemies of the Caquetío of Barquisimeto (see section 3.7 below).



Yaracuy Valley Satellite Image: Sites and Ethnic Groups (only in PDF version, 2006)

3.4 Coastal Falcón Sphere

The Caquetío are among the most widespread Arawakan-speaking groups in northern South America in the XVIth century. As Arcaya (1977) first noted in the 1920's, the Caquetío peoples were found in the coastal plains of what is today Falcón State, between the Golfo Triste and somewhere near the Cocuiza-Matícara river. This expanse included the islands of Aruba, Curaçao, and Bonaire, and the Peninsula of Paraguaná. A second group or cluster of Caquetío was concentrated in the Barquisimeto valley, a third in the Yaracuy Valley, and several were reported in the Cojedes River (Hacarigua), and even as far south as the Apure River/ Llanos de Casanare. That, in and of itself, is a most impressive geographical distribution for a set of historically related peoples. However, as I will show later, the Caquetío were *not* a single homogeneous polity as anthropological literature portrays it (Steward and Faron 1959, Sanoja and Vargas 1979). Nevertheless, they were historically bound together by a common language and a common origin.

3.4.1 The Landscape of Coastal Falcón

Obviously, each one of these regions inhabited by Caquetío presented different ecological conditions, resources, and strategies of adaptation. The one thing all these areas have in common is that they are tropical lowland environments, and that the Caquetío's primary mode of subsistence was agriculture.

Coastal Falcón is primarily a semi-arid xerophytic province, where agriculture is difficult to sustain, although not impossible. The riverine systems along the western coast of Falcón are all characterized by an intermittent water flow (e.g. Capatárida, Zazárida, Mitare rivers). A successful harvest in this area requires crops with short growing seasons to coincide with the brief rainy seasons, or otherwise it needs human intervention in the form of irrigation by artificial ditches, or "hand" irrigation by extracting rainwater collected from artificial ponds (*jagüey*). But this quasi-equilibrium of carefully managed agriculture (that had to prevail in pre- and proto-historic times) in semi-arid conditions was subjected to pressures which caused a geometric increase in the acceleration of erosional processes that devastated the potential for the soils to retain moisture. As Juan de Castellanos himself noted (and he was an ocular witness), coastal Falcón was:

A land of fruitful catcti/ With which a large part of it is pregnant with;/ Of "grapes", granadine, and melons/ Great abundance it could have;/ There are hobos [*jobo*], çimirucos [*semiruco*], and mamones;/ With very abundant game: there are "partridges" [?], rabbit, and deer;/ And great fisheries of fish. Filled of cattle are the fields today;/ Its meat extremely profitable;/ Ultimately of great flavor;/ Of goats there is a huge population:/ They give birth to two or three, if more, not less;/ There are horses of noble caste;/ And the nearby sierra [*San Luis*] gives them grain [*maize*] / If it is needed because the summer is too long." (Castellanos [1589] 1962: 174-175, stanzas 86-87 [my translation and clarifications]).⁸⁷

Castellanos ([1589] 1962: 173) described the island of Curaçao much in the same way he described the coast of Falcón. Clearly, the vegetation and climatic conditions of the early XVIth century were nearly identical to the present, with the major difference of the heavy overgrazing brought about by the almost instantaneous population explosion of cattle and, particularly, goats and the ease which these were adopted by both the Caquetío and the Guajiro-Wayú. Because of the goats, precarious and fragile soils became suddenly exposed to extreme insulation, thereby dramatically increasing the evapotranspiration factor to nearly intolerable levels, therefore making agricultural practices a risky and unpredictable endeavor.⁸⁸

The relative ease of the adoption and dependency on goat herding was primarily the result of the first 20 years of Conquest (especially under the Welser tenure 1527-1546) causing a dramatic depopulation of able bodied, male Caquetío who were raided and

⁸⁷ "Es tierra de fructíferos cardones/ Con que gran parte de ella se embaraza;/ De uvas, granadas, y melones/ Podría tener abundante plaza;/ Hay hobos, çimirucos y mamones;/ Abundantísima de toda caza: / Hay perdices, conejos y venados;/ Y grande pesquería de pescados. De ganados hay hoy los campos llenos;/ Su carne por extremo provechosa;/ Sabores ultimadamente buenos;/ De cabras muchedumbre copiosa: / Paren a dos y tres, si más, no menos;/ Hay de caballos casta generosa;/ Y la sierra les da grano/ Si les falta por ser largo el verano." (Castellanos [1589] 1962: 174-175, stanzas 86-87).

⁸⁸ All the available governmental and institutional studies that I have consulted regarding the process of "dessertification" (particularly climate, soil, and vegetation), of the central-western coast of Falcón State point toward the mismanagement of goat herds as the major culprit for the prevailing conditions of heavy erosion, loss of agricultural land (e.g. COPLANARH studies). and the increased zones of "desert" (baldlands). As is the case in many other countries (e.g. Sub-Sahara) the government has failed to convince the local pastoral communities to shift to agricultural practices, for these seem to the inhabitants totally illogical given the prevailing climatic and soil conditions and given the dependability and predictability of goat resources. Climate *per se* is not the primary reason for the state of agriculture in Falcón today.

enslaved to fuel the expeditions in search of El Dorado, and those who were not enslaved developed a new tactic of near-nomadism to avoid being rounded-up by the conquistadores.⁸⁹ As the agricultural plots became unattended, and further overgrazed (loss of vegetative cover), the erosion pattern (loss of humidity, etc., etc.) was set, in what today still is as an irreversible process (Oliver Ms. 1987c).⁹⁰

3.4.2 The Barquisimeto and Llanos Landscape

The Valley of Barquisimeto is also a semi-arid region, however, in contrast to the west coast of Falcón and Paraguaná, the rivers (e.g. Turbio) provide nearly constant supplies of water for irrigation, especially those rivers emanating from the Portuguesa Highlands. The valley of Yaracuy, on the other hand, is always described as very fertile land for agriculture, since much of the soils abut the floodplain are fairly rich in nutrients, and an adequate amount of yearly precipitation makes it easier to schedule planting and harvesting. (Oliver Ms. 1987a).

The Llanos ecology has been treated in detail by Garson (1980) thus I will not enter into any details, except to mention that the agricultural cycle (unless raised fields are constructed) is determined by the rain season and flooding patterns of the region.⁹¹

3.5 A Historical Synthesis of the Conquest of the Caquetío

The Caquetío of Coastal Falcón formed the largest and the most complex of all Caquetío polities. It is of no surprise that the Spanish, early on, attempted to capitalize on the more hierarchical nature of centralized authority (in the paramount chief Manaure) to accomplish their tasks of population dominance with ease. Controlling Manaure, they thought, was to control all of his subjects. This pattern of Spanish conquest by controlling a "Head of State" and, therefore, in one stroke being able to wield power to all his/her subjects was a well tried tactic, already successfully applied in the process of the *Reconquista* against the Moors, as well as in the conquest of the Canary Islands. In the New World this tactic was only successful where societies had a more centralized power and political/economic administration, and where the concepts of "victory" and "defeat" in warfare were more similar to those held by the Spanish (e.g. The Inca and the Aztec Triple Alliance). The Coastal Caquetío appeared to the Spanish to be such a polity, and in some ways it nearly worked, but, as we shall see, not for too long.

The Caquetío were first contacted in 1499 by members of the expedition of Alonso de Ojeda, probably the first Spanish exploration of the coast of Western Venezuela ⁹²

⁸⁹As we shall see in a later section, this Caquetío tactic of avoidance by running and being constantly on the move is designated in the Spanish chronicles as *estar alzados*.

⁹⁰Eastern Falcón, while presenting a Sub-humid climate, has other problems for agriculture in selected areas. For example the swampy lowlands in the lower courses of the Hueque and Ricoa rivers are brackish and make it difficult to sustain crops which are not tolerant to higher saline concentrations (Oliver Ms. 1987c). However, since this area of Coastal Falcón is as yet archaeologically unknown, I will defer a detailed discussion for future works.

⁹¹ It also ought to be remembered that the Llanos already fall in the rain season inversion; that is, when summer hits the Yaracuy and Barquisimeto areas, it is the rainy season in the Llanos.

⁹²There is a plausible hypothesis that Christopher Columbus had been there in 1494 is presented by Manzano y Manzano (1972). This hypothesis is not well known among anthropologists, but in my opinion, the evidence presented by Manzano is powerful and must be seriously considered. At any rate, given Manzano's reconstruction of Columbus' route toward the west coast of Venezuela, it is unlikely that he had contacted

Caquetío Indians; but most importantly, even if he did contact them, the historical and cultural impact of such event is negligible. Thus, Ojeda's expedition is to be regarded as the first important and significant impact on the Caquetío peoples

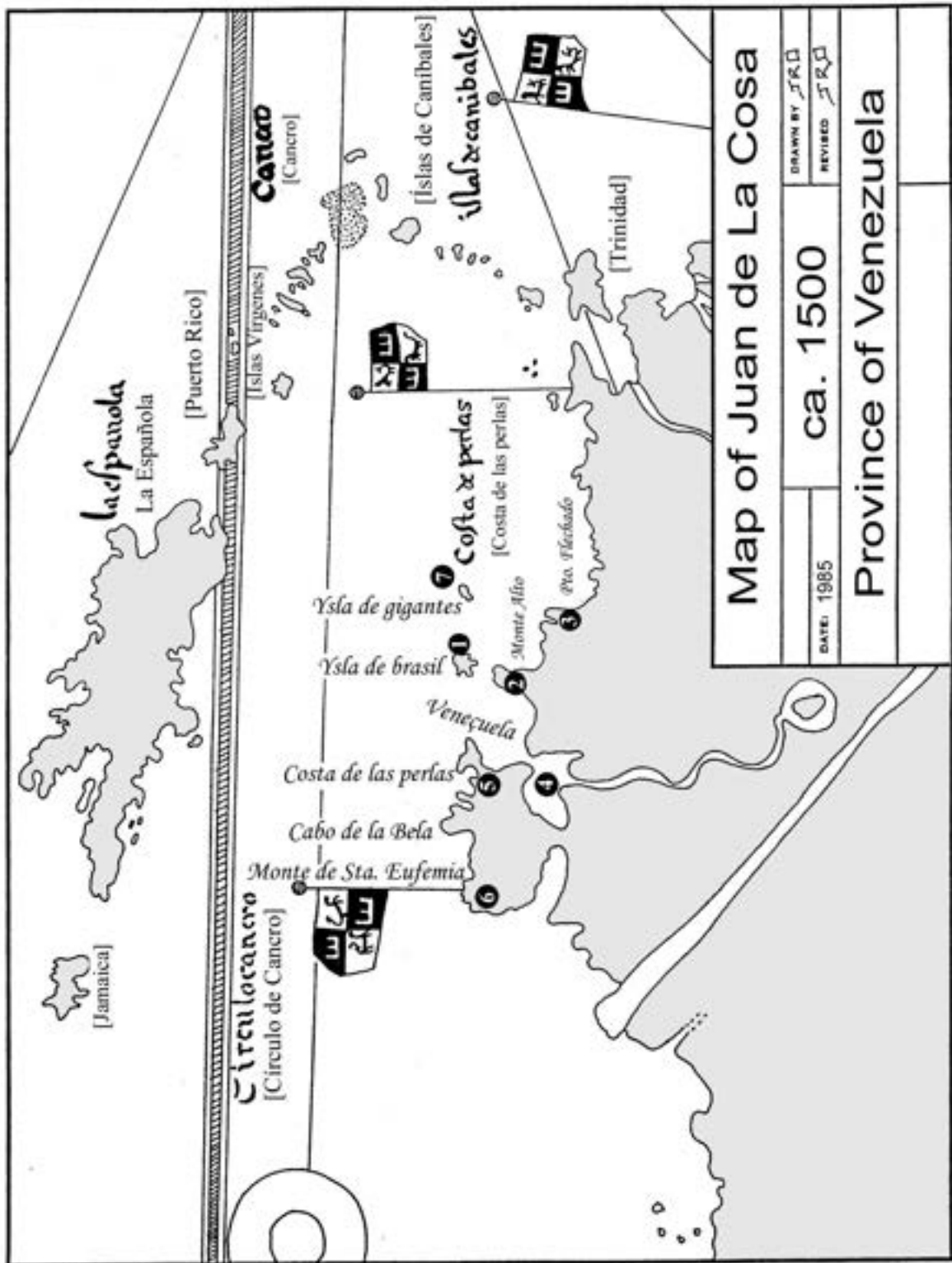


Figure 40: Segment of Juan de La Cosa Map (1500).

Certainly, by the time Ojeda reached the famous site of Puerto Flechado (today Chichiriviche), he was right on the eastern frontier of the Caquetío territory (Las Casas 1929 [2]: 41). There he had an encounter with Indians who wounded some of his men, including Juan de La Cosa (Ramos 1976: 85-87; Navarrete 1829 [3]: 6). The site of Puerto Flechado has been dully noted by the famous cosmographer Juan de La Cosa, also known as "El Vizcaíno", who provided the first map of the New World (1500; Fig. 40: 3). After this incident, Ojeda sailed further along the coast, floundering in a site named by them as *Valfermoso* (whose precise locality is still debated).

From *Valfermoso* Ojeda sailed to Curaçao where Amerigo Vespucci (Americo Vespucio) narrated his encounter with the local Indians in his famous *Quator Navigaciones* (1500-1509) as well as in his *Lettera* (1500) (Navarrete 1829 [3]:255-259; Arcaya 1977:84). In the former account Vespucci stated that the Spanish found a village of 5 houses, while in the *Lettera* 12 houses are mentioned. In either case, these houses had to be able to accommodate 36 men, 5 women, plus all the Spanish that came with Ojeda (including Vespucci). Because of the high stature and built of the Indians ("*as tall as Francisco de Albicio*" [Navarrete 1829 [3]:255]), the Island became known as *Ysla de Gigantes* (Fig.40: 7). In this first voyage, the neighboring island of Aruba was not visited, although in later expeditions it became known as *Ysla de Brasil*, or Brasilwood Island (Ramos 1981:58), and whose Indians were referred as *Arubanas* in the mid XVIIIth century (Altoaguirre [1768] 1908:192).

From Curaçao, Ojeda sailed southward into the peninsula of Paraguaná, and named it San Román after the Saint's day when it was discovered (August 29, 1499). This Spanish toponym persisted for some time, and the northernmost cape is still today named San Román (Fig. 40: 2). From there, as I have reconstructed this expedition (Oliver Ms. 1987a), Ojeda travelled along the western coast of the peninsula, until he reached the Puerto de San Bartolomé, which historian Ramos (1976:88) has correctly identified as being located in the Golfete de Coro and not in the Maracaibo Lake area. More importantly, upon reaching this port in the Gulf of Coro, a village set on pylons over the shallow waters (cf. Ramos 1981:58-59, Navarrete 1829 [3]:218-219).⁹³ Because of the pylon-dwelling villages, Vespucci baptized the area as Venezuela (little Venice).

Finally, Ojeda sailed along the gulf and turned north along the western coast of the Guajira, which was named *Ququivacoa*, *Qunquevacoa*, and more frequently *Coquivacoa*.⁹⁴ Ojeda, although seeing the entrance to Lake Maracaibo, never quite got inside the Lake area (cf. Ramos 1976, 1981). This he would leave for his second expedition (following the same route) in 1502, when he attempted, but failed, to establish the first settlement, Santa Cruz, in the continent.⁹⁵

⁹³ The houses are set on wood beams and planks over the shallow waters, very much like the Paraujano still do in the Sinamaica area and the Warrao do in the Orinoco Delta. This house type, of which there are various architectural models (cf. Wagner 1980, Suárez 1968: 24), is commonly known as *palafitos* in Spanish. I have translated them as pylon-dwellings in English.

⁹⁴ Today there is in the northern Guajira area a cape called Chichibacoa, a term that suspiciously sounds like Coquibacoa, except for a /k/:/ch/ sound shift.

⁹⁵ Historian Ramos Pérez has published an interesting and detailed historical analysis of the significance of the so-called *Viajes Menores* ("Minor Voyages") in the context of Castile's concerted plans for the organization of simultaneous conquest of various parts of the Mainland (Ramos Pérez 1981). The concerted *Capitulaciones* of 1501 between the Crown and Alonso de Ojeda, Cristóbal Guerra, Vicente Yáñez Pinzón, and Cristóbal Colón (Christopher Columbus), where promoted with the objective of 1) securing the discovered lands of the continent from foreign powers such as England, 2) establishing first settlements, one of which (Coquibacoa) was intended to become the seat of a Gobernación, and 3) to assess the magnitude of the New World territorial expanse, which the Crown had just begun to visualize, even though Colombus still chased after his misconception of the West for the East Indies, the "land of Cathay" (cf. Ramos Pérez 1976: 67-ff.). The settlement of Santa Cruz,

As it will be seen later, all the Indians (who were never mentioned by name) that Ojeda encountered west of "*Puerto Flechado*", including those living in Curaçao, were Caquetío. Castellanos, who visited this island flatly stated that "*their language is the Caquetío*" (Castellanos [1589] 1962: 173, stanza 56 [my translation]). In a previous section (3.2.1) I already presented a quote by Esteban Martín, dated to 1534, stating unambiguously that all the coast of Falcón from Barlovento to Coquibacoa was controlled by Caquetío.

The definition of the territorial extent of the Coastal Caquetío requires a certain degree of historical context, particularly when later I examine the differences in the nature of their politics.⁹⁶

This first stage, as we have seen, consisted of a period of discovery and coastal exploration, with Alonso de Ojeda (1499, 1502) being the main character. This stage also witnessed the first attempt to establish a permanent settlement in continental South America with the idea of establishing a *Gobernación* (of Coquibacoa). As Ramos Pérez (1976:29-ff.) has noted, this early attempt to establish the village of Santa Cruz failed. After 1502, there was a period of silence about the area, until the coast of the Province of Venezuela, especially Falcón, was subjected to Spanish raids, especially designed to supply Hispaniola and with Indian labor, since the local Taino population had dramatically decreased due to disease and other effects of the Conquest, endangering the viability of the early Antillean colonists.⁹⁷

The next stage of Spanish conquest (cf. Oliver Ms. 1987a), involved a curious experiment whereby the Crown's *factor* --an individual designated by the Crown as their official representative for business transactions-- attempted to establish a dual system of settlement based on the old and tried Portuguese model of *donatario* (Elliot 1984:155) and the Spanish feudal system of *señorío*. This factor was named Juan de Ampíes, and his deeds have been well documented in an excellent historical analysis by Demetrio Ramos Pérez (1978). Ampíes' interest was to engage in peaceful business transactions with the Caquetío and was clearly against the *encomienda* system (prevalent in Hispaniola).

This period probably began in 1515 after the Crown had, in practice, declared open season to all the Islands designated as "useless" (*islas inútiles*) who later became known as "of cannibals" or of "caribs". In 1515, Ampíes bought in Hispaniola a number of Caquetío Indians that had been raided by Martín Baso Zabala out of Aruba, Curaçao, and probably the Mainland.⁹⁸ Ampíes (cf. CoDoln 1864:431-436, 1868:27-32), rather than using them as *encomendados*, integrated them into his Hipaniolan household as *indios de servicio*

which was established in 1502 and almost immediately defunct, was the first attempt to establish a seat of government in Mainland South America. Its precise location has been the subject of debate. Ramos Pérez (1976) argues for Castilletes (Guajira's eastern shores) as the site of Santa Cruz, while José M. Cruxent, following an earlier lead by Arcaya, has suggested the La Macolla Cape (Paraguaná) as the site of Santa Cruz (Cruxent, Ramos Pérez, conference at the Universidad Nacional Experimental Francisco de Miranda, Summer 1982).

⁹⁶ For a more detailed historical analysis, see Oliver 1987a.

⁹⁷ It is probable that these raids began as soon as the Real Cédula of 1503 was signed by the Monarches. This Royal Decree allowed the legal enslavement of rebellious Indians --the so-called "Caribs" or "Cannibals". The decree was later to be modified by the Ordenanzas of 1513 which established rules as to the treatment of Indians, although it still allowed to capture rebellious Indians from certain Islands and sites declared to be "useless".

⁹⁸ Martín Baso Zabala violated, according to Juan de Ampíes' own arguments, the Crown's edict, since these islands did not fit the category of "useless" even by Spanish standards.

personal (personal servants), back then a far better deal for the displaced Caquetíos. As Ampíes found out more and more about the mainland (i.e. Coastal Falcón), its economic potential and its peoples --especially finding out that these Caquetíos had what looked like a centralized authority-- the stage was set for a series of dialogues through intermediaries between Ampíes and the main *díao* or great *cacique*, Manaure. Indeed, the first gesture by Ampíes was to return the Caquetío Indians to Curaçao. The deals struck between the two and the processes of negotiations are extremely interesting, but would divert us from the issues at hand (for details see: Ramos Pérez 1978, Arcaya 1977, Oliver Ms. 1987a). The main facts were that Manaure agreed to ally himself with Ampíes (which Ampíes understood as an act of fealty to the King) and to resettle near what is today Coro (a village called Todariquiba) if Ampíes could guarantee protection from the constant raiding "pirates" out of Hispaniola. This was accorded in 1527, when finally, Manaure and Ampíes the Elder met in a memorable occasion in Coro, an event described by many chroniclers (e.g. Aguado [1579] 1950 [1]: 26-29).⁹⁹

While Ampíes was struggling to obtain a *Capitulación* (contract) with the Crown that allowed him to become, in effect, the *Señor* of the (then called) Province of Coquibacoa (including Falcón and the Islands), Charles V (Charles I of Spain) had finally consolidated his power in Spain, and Ampíes --to put it tritely-- lost all his chances. In the process, Manaure and his Caquetío of "Coro" lost the guarantees that Ampíes had accorded to them.¹⁰⁰

Between 1528-29, through a series of *Capitulaciones*, Charles V left the *Gobernación* of Venezuela in the hands of a powerful banking and commercial concern headed by two brothers, Antonio and Bartolomé Welser (the *Bélzares* of the chroniclers), whom designated Enrique Ehinguer and Jerónimo Sayller as their representatives (Otte 1963:243-ff.) With the Welser envoys in charge of the colonization of Venezuela (Alfínger being the first Governor), a new era and style of conquest began, which would last until about 1546, when the Welser's *capitulaciones* were *de facto* terminated.

The Welser period (1528-1546) saw the most ambitious expeditions of true penetration into the continent. From Coro, Alfínger, Federmann, Hohermuth, and Hutten travelled south into the Llanos as far as the Upper Caquetá (Fig. 28). The German masters and their Spanish accomplices, were credited with the most brutal devastation of the native societies everywhere they set their foot (Oliver Ms. 1987a, Hemming 1978). Particularly vicious were the expeditions of Ambrosius Alfínger, whom we already have met, through the Maracaibo Basin and the Ranchería to the Magdalena areas between 1529 and 1533. Equally vicious were the expeditions of Nicholas Federmann, two of them taking him to the Llanos (starting

⁹⁹ Ampíes had a son by the same name as the father, Juan de Ampíes. This has caused some confusion among historians. It was Ampíes the Younger who first set foot in Coro, preparing the way for the big encounter between Manaure and his father (Ramos Pérez 1978).

¹⁰⁰ The reasons for Ampíes' loss of his chances to obtain the *Capitulación* that would have given him the rights to the *Gobernación* of Coquibacoa is quite a fascinating but complex story. Briefly stated, my opinion is as follows. The death of Isabel of Castile and León created a difficult situation for Ampíes, whose contacts were with the Trastámara dynasty. The interim, unstable period of Cardinal Cisnero's regency, although somewhat supportive of Ampíes' requests, basically stalled for time. The resulting ascendance of Charles I of Spain (Vth of Hapsburg [Austrian lineage]) and his subsequent negotiations with the German nobles to buy votes for his crowning as Holy Roman Emperor (inherited through his grandfather, Maximilian) put Charles in a position of indebtedness with the Függer and Welser powerful banking/mercantile concerns whom, at a very high interest rate, loaned him the capital necessary to obtain the votes. There is no doubt in my mind that this was the main reason why the Welser agents (Bartholomew and Anthony Welser, and Ambrosius Alfínger) were given the *Gobernación*, rather than to Ampíes. For more detailed studies consult Arcaya (1977), Friede 1961, Ramos Pérez (1978, 1976: 210-257), and Le Flem *et. al.* (1984). A good English synthesis can be found in Hemming (1978).

in 1530). The end of this period of penetration probably can be attributed to both, the failure to produce the results expected (i.e., riches for all) and the total breakdown of the native population (and in a very large measure the Caquetío). The consequence of the constant depletion of Caquetío Indians as slave-porters in these expeditions, was to thoroughly erode the economic (agriculture, labor) base of the Spanish *vecinos* (citizens, residents) of Coro.¹⁰¹ This caused the *Alcaldes* ("Mayors") of Coro to rebel against the Welser governors, for Coro and its *vecinos* were literally in abject poverty and famine was already threatening their very existence (Ramos Pérez 1976: 232-ff.).

As a consequence of the gross violations of the *Capitulaciones* by the Welser Governors, following the legal procedures established by the Metropolis, a series of *Juicios de Residencia* ("Judgement Trials in Residence") were implemented between 1538 and 1554 (Ponce and Vaccari 1977, 1980).¹⁰² The resulting documents and testimonies are among the best sources of historical inference and analysis of the Welser period of tenure. All the court transcripts and documents of the period between 1538 and 1546 abundantly demonstrate the extent of the Welser crimes and abuses against the Indians, as well as the *vecinos* (citizens) of the Spanish villages (Coro, Maracaibo, El Tocuyo, etc.), not to mention the violations of the accords established in the various *capitulaciones*.

As early as 1534 the *vecinos* (citizens) of Coro had begun to rebel against the "touch-and-go" conquest style of the Welser government; particularly since neither El Dorado nor the South Sea ever materialized. A schism developed between those who wanted to desist on these costly expeditions and who wanted to emphasize a viable colony based on a municipal government, and those who insisted on a continuation of the Welser policies of penetration. Eventually, the expeditions were banned by the Crown. Finally, the Crown revoked the *capitulaciones* conceded to the Welser on account of serious breach of contract.

Early on the *vecinos* of Coro and Bishop Rodrigo de Bastidas (son of the famous *Adelantado* of Santa Marta) and representatives of the Welsers (mainly Hohermuth [Espira]) entered into a great debate on whether or not the Indians --specifically the coastal Caquetío-- should be put in *repartimiento*, another variation of the *encomienda* institution (cf. Arcila Farias 1966). Many of the citizens were in favor of *repartimiento*, since in this way the Caquetío could no longer be raided by the pro-Welser faction to sustain their expeditionary forces.¹⁰³ Furthermore, these *vecinos* were seriously alarmed by the acute

¹⁰¹ The term *vecino* (literally "neighbor") generally had a specific meaning to the Spanish. It only involved a head of family (of European descent) and his male, adult offspring, but not the women, or non-adults of the family, or those who were not permanent residents in the village. Of course, the term had a wide range of definitions through time and circumstances.

¹⁰² These "judgements of residence" were actually a legal judgement on the performance of all governors of provinces upon the completion of their tenure (hence, "residence"). If sufficient cause was found in the secret inquiry (*pesquisa secreta*), of abuse of authority, criminal activity, or of breach of contract, then a full fledged open court litigation was initiated (Llavador 1969). It was called Judgement in Residence because the Judge, who frequently was the succeeding Governor, was usually housed in the residence (*residencia*) of the Governor, although this practice was not always consistent.

¹⁰³ The *encomienda* is an assignment of Indians (or Moors, non-Christians, etc. in Spain) to an individual with legal responsibilities (duties, obligations) for their "well being" as well as for imposing rewards and punishments. The individual is designated as the *encomendero* (overseer), while the Indians charged to him are designated as *encomendados*. The institution itself is known as the *encomienda*. The word *repartimiento* refers to the act of redistribution of Indians. In a strict sense, the latter implies relocation of Indians assigned to the *encomendero*, while the former *encomienda* system, relocation is not necessarily involved. However, for details of various *de jure* applications of the legalistic jargon and the various pragmatic meanings of these institutions, consult Zavala (1973).

depopulation already present in Paraguaná and central Falcón.

"In the times when the area of Coro was populated by fourteen or fifteen thousand Indians... [but now in 1550] I found in six villages of these Caquetío around Coro [left], of [only] up to four hundred Indians..."(Ballesteros [1550] *in* Bécker 1950 [1]: 666, 688 [my translation and clarifications in brackets]).¹⁰⁴

And even earlier Juan Pérez de Tolosa stated that all the coast between Borburata and Coro was found nearly depopulated with "no more than 100 souls", and following down the coast (west) toward Maracaibo Lake was also depopulated. Tolosa noted that the Peninsula of Paraguaná, counted with "no more than 300 Indians", while in the Valley of Barquisimeto there was a "medium-sized" population. Many of those that lived in the valley took refuge in the surrounding sierras (Pérez de Tolosa [1546] *in* Arellano 1964: 1-14).

The role of the Church in the issues of *repartimiento* and *encomienda* was ultimately pivotal. Beginning with Bishop Bastidas (1531-32) and continuing with Ballesteros (1543-1556) and even Argüeda (1558-1579), sternly opposed the *repartimiento* (cf. Armado Maldonado 1973). Bastidas fought particularly hard for a special status for the Caquetío, similar to that conceded by the Crown to the Tlaxcalans in Mexico for their role in the Spanish conquest (Armado Maldonado 1973: xv). In the ensuing struggle between the Church officials and the Welser supporters, the Crown ordered and then revoked several times a *repartimiento* of Indians (Oliver Ms. 1987a: 173-176; Arcila Farias 1966: 91, note 15). Bastidas was the first to petition --and obtain-- a pronouncement of the Crown protecting the Indians, which appeared in a document (*Cédula Real*) dated to February 29, 1540 (Otte 1959 [2]: 118-119) and which responded to a request of Bastidas written in October 1538 (Armado Maldonado 1973: xv). By 1579, Bishop Argüeda mentions that the Caquetío were already under the special status of *Indios de Real Corona*, literally, that they were placed directly under the protection of the King ("*...Caquetios, a quienes V.M. tiene puestos en su Real Corona*" [Agreda (1579) *in* Armado Maldonado 1973:344]).

Although *repartimientos* had taken place in Falcón, these clearly were not numerous nor did they seem to have had a major impact in Coastal Falcón. Elsewhere, in Barquisimeto and El Tocuyo, the first attempts to set *encomiendas* were successful and, hence, the transition between a period of unrest and unbridled conquest gave way to the relatively more settled and truly colonial period, focusing on municipal concerns affecting the *vecinos*. One such *encomienda* document that has survived to the present was included in the *fueros*¹⁰⁵ or local laws of Barquisimeto, a document which became known as *Las Doce Tablas de Barquisimeto*. In it the *encomendero/encomendado's* responsibilities and obligations were clearly defined (Juan de Villegas [1542] *in* Gabaldón 1977:31-ff.). While the Caquetío of Coastal Falcón were protected, first as *indios libres* ("free Indians") and later as *Indios de Real Corona* (Indians of the Royal Crown), all other ethnic groups in the Province of Venezuela were subject to *repartimiento* in *encomienda*. This included all of the Caquetío except those of Coastal Falcón. Those distributed by Juan de Villegas in 1542, included the Caquetío of Barquisimeto, Yaracuy (Valle de Las Damas) and the uppermost course of the Cojedes.

¹⁰⁴ "En tiempos que la cormarca de la cibdad de Coro estaba poblada en catorçe ó quinze mill indios... [pero ahora en 1550] hallé en seis pueblos de indios de esta nación caquetios comarcanos, hasta quatrocientos indios é indias..." (Ballesteros [1550] *in* Bécker 1950 [1]: 666, 668).

¹⁰⁵ *Fueros* are the laws and privileges governing the non-Castilian provinces in Spain, and later it was extended to the Castilian oversea provinces (of the New World).

There are only two census data collected by the Church (especially Bishop Martí) and the Gobernación. The earlier census reported for the Jurisdiction of Coro (and adjacent areas) was conducted and signed by Pedro Felipe de Llamas by order of Governor Solano in 1667-8 (Altoaguirre y Duvalé 1908: 181-216). The more detailed and, probably (relatively) more reliable census was conducted personally by Mariano Martí, Bishop of the Province of Venezuela, between 1773-1782 for the area that interest us (Martí 1969, Vols. 1, 2, 6, and 7).

The coast of Falcón and Paraguaná had a total of 4,785 Caquetío Indians living in Cumarebo (67 Caquetío Indians), Carrizal (455), Guaibacoa (215), Mitare (374), Zazárida (276), Capatárida (596), Borojó (133), and the villages of Santa Ana (1,886) and Moruy (783) in Paraguaná. Non-Caquetío inhabitants added up to 9,988 for a total population of 14,773, of which 32.3% were judged to be Caquetío Indians. The figures do not include the 5,823 inhabitants of Coro, among whom I suspect there were Caquetío Indians and *mestizos*, although this does not appear registered by Martí's census. The census also does not include the Indians that probably lived outside the mentioned villages, which would perhaps increase the Caquetío population to somewhere around 6,000 to 7,000 Indians. This suggests that the intervening couple of centuries after the Welser period genocide saw a modest but healthy increase of the Caquetío population in Coastal Falcón. However, it never reached the level of the late 1520's when the total population was estimated in the 10,000-15,000 range.

The modest demographic increment observed in Coastal Falcón, however, is not observed elsewhere. In the Valley of Yaracuy, two villages, Chivacoa and Urariche added, respectively, 956 and 451 Caquetío Indians (1,407), elevating the total Caquetío population censused in both areas to 6,192 Indians.¹⁰⁶ The remaining censused Indian populations of Yaracuy Valley from the villages of Duaca, Cocorote, Agua Culebras, Quara, Guama, and Yaritagua represent a mixture of ethnic groups that were resettled in this areas by the missionaries from regions as far as the Llanos (cf. below). For Barquisimeto, Bishop Martí comments that its inhabitants were mostly non-Indian, although I suspect that, as in Coro, a large number were *mestizos*. The census data from Barquisimeto is probably the most deficient.

There is also census data for other ethnic groups of Falcón and Lara States. Axagua Indians were said to be mostly "nomadic" and inhabiting the mountains around Pedregal and Pecaya areas. They, however, regularly came down to the settled villages of Pedregal, Pecaya, Siquisique and Aregue. Martí counted 3,347 Indians; however, in Siquisique there were also Jirajaran-descended Indians, whereas in Aregue there were mixtures of Axagua and Gayón. In the highlands of San Luis, in the villages of Acurigua and San Luis Cariagua 267 Indians were censused. Although there are no specifications, some where most probably the remnants of the Jirajara. All these figures, as imperfect as they are, suggest that except for the Caquetío Indians protected by the Crown (*Indios de Real Corona*) most Indians had been severely decimated. Even the protected Coastal Caquetío never were able to restore their earlier population level.

As early as 1671, the Indians considered to be more "rebellious" came under the system of *misiones* and *doctrinas* that is under the jurisdiction of the Archbishopric. The Llanos

¹⁰⁶ There is still a wealth of inferences that can be obtained from the census data collected by Martí. A future paper will deal with this data set in more detail.

came under the jurisdiction of the Jesuits out of Nueva Granada (Colombia), whereas the Franciscans and "independent" *curas doctrineros* (priests) were strongly felt in Barquisimeto and Yaracuy. Coastal Falcón, however, remained particularly "silent" with regard to missionary activities, mainly because the Caquetios were neither *encomendados* nor rebellious, but rather free Indians of the Real Corona.

Between 1671 and 1745, many missions were established (e.g. San Javier Agua Culebras in Yaracuy, San Antonio de Araure in Acarigua), and brought new consequences to the region. Most importantly, these misiones were set up for groups which were *alzados* (i.e. running away, wandering, nomadic), with an explicit strategy of resettling them in a sedentary life-style. This brought about the *reducción*, whereby groups of such Indians were resettled into missions, (known as *reducciones*) sometimes mixing various ethnic groups together --which caused much friction and the downfall of several of these missions in Barquisimeto and Yaracuy (cf. for specific details: Lodares 1929: 87-88, 158-159, 174-177, 192-194, 197-199). In this time period, many of the missions in the Barquisimeto and Yaracuy areas were settled with Masparros, Atatures, Guaricos, Chiripas (Chipas?), Atapaimas, and other Indians coming from the Llanos of Venezuela and Colombia.

As late as the mid XVIIIth century, the Caquetío of Coastal Falcón still maintained the tradition of a "paramount" chief, and kept alive the system of "office inheritance" (even if it had adopted some Spanish elements). The following quote from Bishop Mariano Martí exemplifies the debates on the issue of inheritance of the *cacicazgo*, as well as the title and role of paramount chief. Martí obtained the information from the Caquetío of Paraguaná.

"Here, in all the towns of this Peninsula [*of Paraguaná*] there was a cacique who was also [chief] of the villages of *Caçicure*. The father of the present cacique of all the villages of *Caçicure* left to Spain and married a Vizcaína (*woman from Vizcaya, Spain*). They came back as husband and wife, had many children. The husband died and the widow returned to Spain. The elder son took onto himself and is in possession of these villages of Paraguaná, but these [*local*] Indians resisted and obtained from the Audiencia of Santo Domingo [*Hispaniola*] a provision whereby they would be freed [from this cacique], until this cacique could prove the legitimacy of the *cazicazgo* [*chiefdom*] of these villages... They [*Paraguaná Caquetios*] claim that this cacique's legitimacy does not come from his ancestors, but from bastardy... The *reyezuelo* [*king*] or cacique, in the times of the gentile, was called the great Manaure." (Martí 1969 [1]: 94-95 [my emphasis, clarifications in brackets and translation from Spanish]).

After the original Manaure ¹⁰⁷ had retired (ca. 1534-7), the chiefdom was left to his son Don Alexandre. The inheritance of the chiefdom (and "office") is not picked-up by the documents again until the end of the XVIth century, when the Crown recognized Don Sancho Uriacoa as the Caquetío paramount chief. He was succeeded by his son Don Luis Caguallo, who in 1636 "abdicated" in favor of his brother Don Luis Martínez Manaure. Don Luis was succeeded by his eldest son, although the Alcaldes of Coro did not receive the confirmation until 1742. It was this eldest son, Don Domingo Martínez Manaure, who had

¹⁰⁷ Manaure was baptized with the name of Don Martín by Juan de Ampies the Elder.

married the Spanish lady, and who fathered the "bastard" Don Juan Basilio. It was Don Juan Basilio who was being challenged by the Caquetío of Paraguaná (cf. Arcaya 1978: 74; A.G.I. [1705-1777] 1976).

The Indians of Santa Ana and Moruy (Paraguaná) were dead set against Martínez Manaure's claims because of the question of bastardy. This cacique claimed for himself the inheritance of the villages in the territory of Caçicure (*/kasikure/*) which comprised the land between Coro and Borojó, perhaps as far west as Casigua. In addition, he also claimed the rights to become cacique of Santa Ana, Moruy (Paraguaná), Río del Tocuyo and Cumarebo (A.G.I. 1976: 81).

The villages claimed by Don Juan Basilio in the XVIIIth century are among those already in existence at the time of Contact. Moreover, these XVIIIth century villages covered the same territorial expanse that Manaure (Don Martín) had controlled at the time of Contact. And, while there are enough clues to suggest that in the 1700's the inheritance of cacique had been influenced by the monarchical models of Europe (i.e. purity of blood, primogeniture), other features suggest a survival of tradition; namely, the authority over the Caquetío Indians as a "paramount" chief. A clear-cut instance of the conflict between the Caquetío model of authority versus that of a monarchical Spanish model is the following: Although the Crown had stipulated that the Caquetío chief could exact a tribute of 1 peso from each of his subjects (between the ages of 19 and 60), it was never implemented because the Caquetío thought it to be ludicrous and "funny" (Martí [1774] 1969 [1]:107). In other words, the concept of monetary tributation to a Caquetío chief was as unconceivable in pre-Contact times as it was in the XVIIIth century. However, Colonial institutions were also imposed and adopted by the Caquetío. For example, the semi-autonomous villages (in which Spanish were forbidden to live) of Santa Ana and Moruy in Paraguaná were internally governed by two ancient Castilian institutions: the *Hernandades* and the *Alcaldes*, both of which were to be approved by Coro and, presumably, the Caquetío *diao* and the local chiefs.¹⁰⁸

I am convinced that the demise of the Caquetío, even if only the name remained as an ethnic marker (from the Caquetío perspective), is closely tied in with the War of Independence (cf. González Batista 1984). I have already mentioned that there were two "privileges" that the Crown bestowed on the Caquetío of Coastal Falcón. One was the status of *Indio de Real Corona*, whereby they were free from tribute and protected directly by the Crown. The other (as a result of the former) was the village semi-autonomy, whereby Spanish could not settle within a league of the village. Violations did occur, but the governors did attempt to curb them, as this quote suggests:

"...all the Spanish that either had a house or lived in the towns of Indians [*of Real Corona*] had to demolish it, since according

¹⁰⁸ The institution of *Hernandad(es)* is a Late Medieval institution which first became prominent in the wars of the 1460's in northern Spain. It was a system of brotherhoods that acted as a form of police force. In 1476, in Burgos, the Santa *Hernandad* was instituted and until 1496 was the most significant support of government in towns. By the 1480's it lost some of its importance and was restricted mostly to rural areas. The kingdom of Aragón (Catalunya) also had a comparable institution, the *sometent*. While the *hermandad* as it was conceived in the late XVth century was no longer applicable to XVIIIth century Spain, the institution had either survived or been revived in some parts of the New World (for details on the importance of *Hernandades* consult Kamen, 1983). Today the *Hernandades* have lost their "police" aspect and are mainly associated to religious brotherhoods. The term *alcalde*, of Arabic origin (*/al qadi/*: the judge), is an elected or nominated local (town) magistrate. In Colonial America, there may be more than one *alcalde* in office. Currently the office of *alcalde* is comparable to United States' office of mayor of a city.

to the Laws of Indies, the Spanish cannot live or have homes in the villages of Indians."(Martí [ca. 1774] 1969 [1]: 110 [my translation]).

The Spanish *vecinos* could enter the village only for Mass or for trade, and the Caquetío had the right to "*kick them out of town when they became disgusted*" (ibid.).

Because of these "privileges" granted by the Crown, many --though certainly not all-- Caquetíos sided with the Loyalist faction. Upon gaining Independence (1820's), the policies set up by Simón Bolívar and the new government, were geared toward an integration of all the inhabitants of the young Republic. The first thing to go was all the legislation that emanated from the previous colonial administrations, including the status of *Indios de la Real Corona* that the Caquetío "enjoyed", for it ran counter with the ideal of national integration. It would not be difficult to demonstrate that once the semi-autonomy of the Caquetío villages was eliminated, the last few barriers for national integration of the Caquetíos were gone.

In summary, despite the tremendous impact of the Spanish conquest, the Caquetío had survived at least until the 1820's. With the elimination of the legislation that kept the Caquetío separated from the mainstream, integration was rapidly achieved. Presently, the achievements of the Caquetío culture can only be seen in a few material items (some pottery vessel forms, *maure* textiles, hammock weaving) and in the rich Caquetío toponyms found throughout the State of Falcón. Last but not least, the legend of the great Manaure remains alive in the Falconian lore (e.g. Torres Molina's Manaure El Dia [1977]).



View of Cerro Santa Ana (center) and Tausabana range (to the right) in the Peninsula of Paraguaná, October 1980. **Illustration added for the PDF version only.**

3.6 The Caquetío of Coastal Falcón

The Coastal Falcón Caquetío polity extended throughout the entire coast of Falcón, including Aruba, Curaçao, and Bonaire. The geographical expanse of the Caquetío polity remained essentially the same up to the beginning of the XIXth century, although the polity as such existed in subordination to the Colonial political-administrative organization. In the XVIth century, toward the western periphery (Western Sphere) the Coastal Caquetío polity included frontier sites or outposts in the Guajira peninsula and in the southeastern Maracaibo lowlands, areas that were shared with other ethnic groups. However, the territorial expanse between what is today Golfo Triste and the Borojó-Maticora rivers (including Paraguaná and the Dutch Islands) was entirely inhabited by Caquetío.

I shall first provide some concrete documental evidence as to the territorial distribution in the XVIth century. From the onset of Spanish Contact in 1499 (Vespucci's quotes above), the Caquetío were present in Aruba, Curaçao and Bonaire. It is clear from Ampies' letter of 1525 that the *caciques* of Curaçao, had kinship ties with others in the Peninsula of Paraguaná, among them, a chief named Don Juan de Varacoyea, whom Ampies' said

"...having seen the good treatment, in the name of His Majesty, I conferred to the Indians of these islands, and of those of this coast [*mainland*], that many times ravelled there, to rest with them, and [*I*] looked after them well, they agreed to send to me [in Hispaniola] a cacique (named D. Joan Varacoyea) who resides in the islands and who is a relative and a *deudo* [*relative of*]... and this was conveyed to me mainly by a great cacique who resides 10 leagues inland in the Province of Coro, and this cacique is called Anaure [*Manaure*], who because of being such a great Señor [*Lord*] makes himself be worshiped as God, telling the Indians that he gives [controls, predicts] the storms..." (Ampies [1525] in CoDoIn 1868:30-31 [my translation from Spanish and clarifications in brackets]).¹⁰⁹

In other words, these Islands were under the control of Manaure, whom Ampies noted to have power over natural elements.

Bishop Rodrigo de Bastidas, in 1538, writing to Charles V, mentioned the Caquetío villages of Guaibacoa, Cumarebo, Tomodore, Caujarao, Zazárida, Capatárida, and Todariquiba:

"These Caquetios should not be redistributed [*among Spanish*] but ought to be free as those of the free villages of New Spain [*Mexico*], which are [*the villages*] of the province of Paraguaná... the villages of Cumarebo and Guaybacoa and

¹⁰⁹ "...visto el buen tratamiento que yo en nombre de vuestra magestad hacia á los indios de las dichas islas é á los de la dicha costa, que muchas veces se pasban allá á holgar con ellos, eran tan bien tratados y mirados, [que] acordaron de me enviar un cacique, (se dice D. Joan Varacoyea,) que está en las islas y es su pariente e debdo, con otro indio que entre ellos señalaron, para que me viniese á decir e rogar que yo los quisiese rescibir como á otros debajo de mi gobernacion y mamparo; y esto principalmente me enviaba á decir un gran cacique que está a diez leguas la tierra dentro en la provincia de Coro, y el dicho cacique se llama Anaure, el qual por ser gran señor se hace adorar como Dios, dando á entender á los indios que él dá los temporal_es..." (Ampies [ca. 1525] in CoDoIn 1868: 30-31).

Tamodari [*Tomodore*], and the villages west of the city [*Coro*], which are called Caujarao, Zazárida and Capatárida, and other neighboring ones. These are those [*villages*] that again have been resettled [*after fleeing in 1533-4*] in peace, and Todariquiva, the village of Don Alexandre [*son of Manaure*], principal of this city..." (Bastidas [1538] in Armado Maldonado 1973: xv [my translation from Spanish and clarifications in brackets]).

Of these, Cumarebo (Eastern Falcón), Guaybacoa (foothills of Coro), and Tomodore (extinct, but located archaeologically) are still extant. Zazárida and Capatárida are major villages along the rivers of the same name and currently inhabited, found just west of Coro. Todariquiba's location is still a point of debate (Ramos 1978), but it is said to be about 1 or so leagues from Coro. However, major settlements (historical archaeology) which would correspond to Todariquiba's size have not been found within the periphery of Coro. My suspicion is that it was located within the urban expansion of modern Coro, or that it was further beyond the 4.5 -6 Kilometers suggested by the chronicles. Castellanos ([1589] 1962: 175 stanza 88) mentioned in addition to the above, the villages of Hurraqui or Hurraque, Miraca (Myraca), and Hurehurebo (Hurihurebo) in the Peninsula of Paraguaná, and the village of Carona. Of these, neither Hurraqui's precise location is known nor do I know where Carona might be located (Fig. 41).



Figure 41: Location of Caquetío Settlements in the XVIth Century.

The extensive documentation accumulated by the *Juicios de Residencia* against the Welser and subsequent governors ([1538-1546] Ponce and Vaccari 1977) mentioned the villages of Cuzizibana (1977:235), whose location is dubious; Cayagua (1977:180), which is said to be near Todariquiba (Coro); Paraguacho or Paraguachoa (1977:197), recorded in an anonymous map on Eastern Falcón (Fig. 33); the village of Santa Ana (of Pipiacoa; 1977: 241) still inhabited today in Paraguaná; Todariquiba has been mentioned many times (1977:94, 179-80, 238-40, 451); Cumarebo (1977: 177-80, 510) still inhabited today on the eastern coast; Guaibacoa (1977:174, 238, 240) which refers to a site in Paraguaná (north of Santa Ana) and to another site in the low coastal hills southeast of Coro; Tomodore (1977:180, 233, 238-40) where an archaeological site with Dabajuran pottery and XVIth century glazed pottery (Mayólica) has been found. Naveros and Vázquez de Acuña ([1538] in Gabaldón 1962: 307-9, 324) mentioned Paraguachoa (Eastern Falcón), and another village near Coro which can no longer be located: Noruparu. The village of Care or Cati (Ponce and Vaccari 1977:240) is also mentioned as already abandoned by 1538 (not located, but almost certainly within coastal Falcón). The village of Cayerúa or "Coyarna", still extant in Paraguaná, is mentioned as well. In this village, late Dabajuran archaeological ceramics, as well as colonial and Falconian-Creole pottery, has been found (cf. Osgood and Howard 1943). Another extant village in Paraguaná, with a strong surviving tradition of Creole pottery production, is that of Miraca (ibid. 1977: 177, 240).

A the time of Contact, the villages in the region of central Falcón were said to be over 100, and about 14,000 to 15,000 Indians were calculated to live in the region (or about 140 to 150/village):

"...in all this province of Indians called Caquetios there are almost no Indians to redistribute [*repartir*]... when we began to colonize [*there were*] more than one hundred villages all populated with peoples, and [*now*] there are no more than ten villages, and these are almost abandoned, with few inhabitants..." (Naveros and Vázquez de Acuña [1538] in Gabaldón 1962 [2]: 324 [my translation, emphasis and clarifications in brackets]).

In contrast by 1546, Governor Pérez de Tolosa reported that:

"From the port of Borburata [*around Puerto Cabello*] to the city of Coro there may be some 50 leagues. All the coast is [*now*] uninhabited, and there are no more than 100 Indians... Down the coast toward Maracaibo, it is all underpopulated [*despoblado*], and there may be distant some 60 leagues [*from Coro*]. This coast, from leeward to windward [*west to east*] used to be settled by Indians of the nation of Caquetios, and they had medium-sized villages, with lots of game [*for hunting*] and excellent fishing, and hammock cloth." (Pérez de Tolosa [1546] in Arellano Moreno 1964: 5 [my translation, clarifications in brackets]).¹¹⁰

¹¹⁰ "Desde el puerto de Borburata a la ciudad de Coro, puede haber unas cincuenta leguas. Toda la costa está despoblada, y no hay en toda sino unos 100 indios... Por la costa abajo, hasta la laguna de Maracaibo, todo está despoblado, y serán de camino unas 60 leguas. Esta costa, sotavento y barlovento, solía estar poblada de indios de nación Caquetios, y tenían pueblos medianos y much caza, pesca y ropa de hamacas." (Pérez de Tolosa [1546] in Arellano Moreno 1964: 5).

These and many other redundant statements leave absolutely no doubt as to the extent of the Caquetío territorial distribution in Coastal Falcón. It extended from the site of Paraguachoa, in eastern Falcón, to Coro and Paraguaná (Central Falcón), and continued to the west as far as Borojó and Casigua.

The western semi-arid coast area of the coastal plains of Falcón was collectively designated as Cacicure (Casicure or Cazicure), although this term was not in use early in the XVIth century. The etymology of *kasikure*, in all probability, is related to the Lokono (Arawak proper) term *kassikoan* and, in turn, to the Taíno term *kasike* (cacique). The Taíno term *kasike* best glosses as 'head of hous(es)'; that is, head of a lineage or group of lineages. The Spanish translated it as 'chief' or principal. The Lokono verb /*kasikoan*/ [infinitive] translates as 'to inhabit', 'to have house' and relates to the Lokono noun /*uesika*::house/; hence, the term *kasikure* includes in it the meaning of 'place of habitation' or 'homeland'. The larger Caquetío villages of Mitare, Zazárida, Capatárida, and Borojó (each next to a major river of the same name) are found within this broadly defined homeland. Having defined the broad boundaries of the Coastal Caquetío polity, we can now turn to examine the nature of the villages, intra-polity territorial sub-divisions, and the nature of leadership of the Caquetío.

The quotes cited above indicate that Caquetío villages were "medium-sized", with about 150-200 inhabitants (i.e. Hurihurebo). Villages do not seem to be clustered together, but rather dispersed over a fairly wide territory. By one estimate more than 100 villages and some 15,000 inhabitants occupied the region surrounding Coro (probably: Paraguaná, and from Cumarebo to Capatárida), which would correspond quite well with the 150-200 inhabitants per village.

In all probability, not all the Caquetío villages were of "medium size" (150-200 inhabitants). Those XVIth century villages that I have located archaeologically show evidence of a broad area of refuse. Some of the largest ones are, not surprisingly, those most often mentioned by the chroniclers: Mitare, Zazárida, Capatárida, and Borojó along the western coast (Casicure), and Moruy and Santa Ana in the peninsula. The location of these larger villages is strategically equidistant between the beach-line and the piedmont of the coastal sierras, and always within a short distance (or next to) large rivers. The exception to this pattern is Paraguaná, where there are no rivers to speak of. There the settlements are concentrated around the Santa Ana (extinct) volcano, which provides the water necessary for agriculture, and where the soils are most suited for farming.

The Coastal Caquetío in some localities had also developed water resource management technology in the form of irrigation canals. Bishop Ballesteros, in his letter of 1550 to Charles V, described one such irrigation network in Coro:

"Half a league from the city of Coro there is a river called Coro, which took the same name of this city, and because it [*the valley*] is very useful for irrigation and it is settled by Indians, the Spanish made their settlement in its vicinity. In the olden days, a league upriver, the Indians had constructed across the river a dam which the Indians call *buco*. And facing the dam there is a canal that has a length of two leagues, and in some parts it had a depth of two stadia. The canal carries water to the city of Coro, and it is used for irrigate a large part of the

land. Every rainy season the canal clogs with sediments, and it breaks two and three times in such way that it required four or five thousand Indians to repair it. In the days when Coro and its surrounding area had fourteen or fifteen thousand Indians, in three or four days the canal was fixed..." (Ballesteros [1550] in Bécker 1950 [1]: 688 [my clarifications, emphasis and translation from Spanish]).¹¹¹

This quote clearly shows that there was a higher level of inter-village cooperation and organization when it came to public works. Four to five thousand Indians required for labor suggest that more than 30 villages were involved in the maintenance of the irrigation canal, assuming that villages were comprised of about 150-200 individuals of all ages.

Villages also consisted of more than a single dwelling. Complaining about the "nomadic" nature of the Caquetío after the Wesler raided their villages, the *Alcaldes* of Coro stated that now the Indians had "*a hut here and another there, all [Indians] with their cloth on their shoulders*" ready to leave at a moment's notice (Naveros, San Martín and Vázquez de Acuña [1535] in Bécker 1950 [1]:657-658 [my translation]). This statement is meant as a sharp contrast to the very early days of European Contact, when there were group of inter-related houses, and where sedentary settlements were the norm.

An exception to the village descriptions above discussed are the pylon-dwelling structures described by Vespucci as located in the Puerto de San Bartolomé. These structures, characteristic of the contemporary Paraujano, probably belonged to specialized fishermen communities whose relationship to the Caquetío inland settlements is as yet undetermined. As a working hypothesis, one can propose that: 1) the pylon-dwelling inhabitants were specialized Caquetío fishermen who traded their products with the inland agricultural communities; 2) they were a different ethnic group, survivors of the archaic residents of Mesoindian lifestyle and living in symbiosis with the Caquetío; and 3) these fishermen could have been a group subordinated to the Caquetío agricultural communities, composed of already mixed Caquetío-Archaic Indians. That such pylon-dwellings existed has been confirmed archaeologically further north in Paraguaná, near La Macolla by Cruxent and associates (Oliver Ms. 1987b). Indeed, a ceramic site had been located in shallow waters at a short distance from the coast by Cruxent in 1982.¹¹²

The type domestic dwellings constructed by the Coastal Caquetío were never mentioned, except with the sometimes derogatory term *rancho* (ranch). Only Vespucci, as

¹¹¹ "Media legua de la cibdad de Coro pasa un río que se llama Coro, de quien tomó nombre esta cibdad, y por ser muy provechoso de riegos y poblado de indios, los españoles les hicieron su asiento en comarca dél. Los indios antiguamente, una legua del río arriba tenían una presa, aquellos llaman *buco*, que atraviesa el río, y frontero de la presa sacada una cequia de largor de dos leguas, que en partes llevaba de hondo dos *estados*, por donde el agua del río se lleva á Coro y se riegan gran cantidad de tierras. Todos los años en tiempos de aguas esta acequia se enarena, y la presa se quiebra en dos y tres vezes en tanta manera, que vezes ha sido menester para lo aderezar quatro ó cinco mill indios. En tiempos que la comarca de la cibdad de Coro estaba poblada de catorze ó quinze mill indios, en tres o quatro días la aderezaban..." (Ballesteros [1550] in Bécker 1950 [1]: 688). An *estado* is a measure based on the average estimate of the height of a person. The ESPASA-CALPE Encyclopedia states that the measure of one *estado* is approximately seven feet. Hence the canal's depth must be between 12 and 14 feet. I have translated this term as *stadia*.

¹¹² The small sample of pottery collected by Cruxent, which I was able to examine, suggests that the ceramic style is entirely within the Dabajuran sub-tradition, possibly belonging to the Late Urumaco Complex period. It was also noted that the vessel form range was limited to three basic shapes; that is, a far more restricted vessel range than one normally finds in the larger inland settlements. This, however, may be a factor of sampling techniques and must be confirmed with further work.

we saw, made a reference to a fairly large *maloca* capable of housing between 40 and 50 individuals (Curaçao). If Vespucci's account is correct, then it is logical to assume that the mainland Caquetío also had maloca dwellings. And if its size is correct (40-50 peoples), the "medium-sized" village could have up to four such dwellings. It is interesting to note that the Spanish chroniclers do not mention any kind of specialized structure (e.g. men's house or menstrual huts) among the Caquetío. Presumably, the Caquetío managed to be quite secretive about their most ritual/sacred spaces.

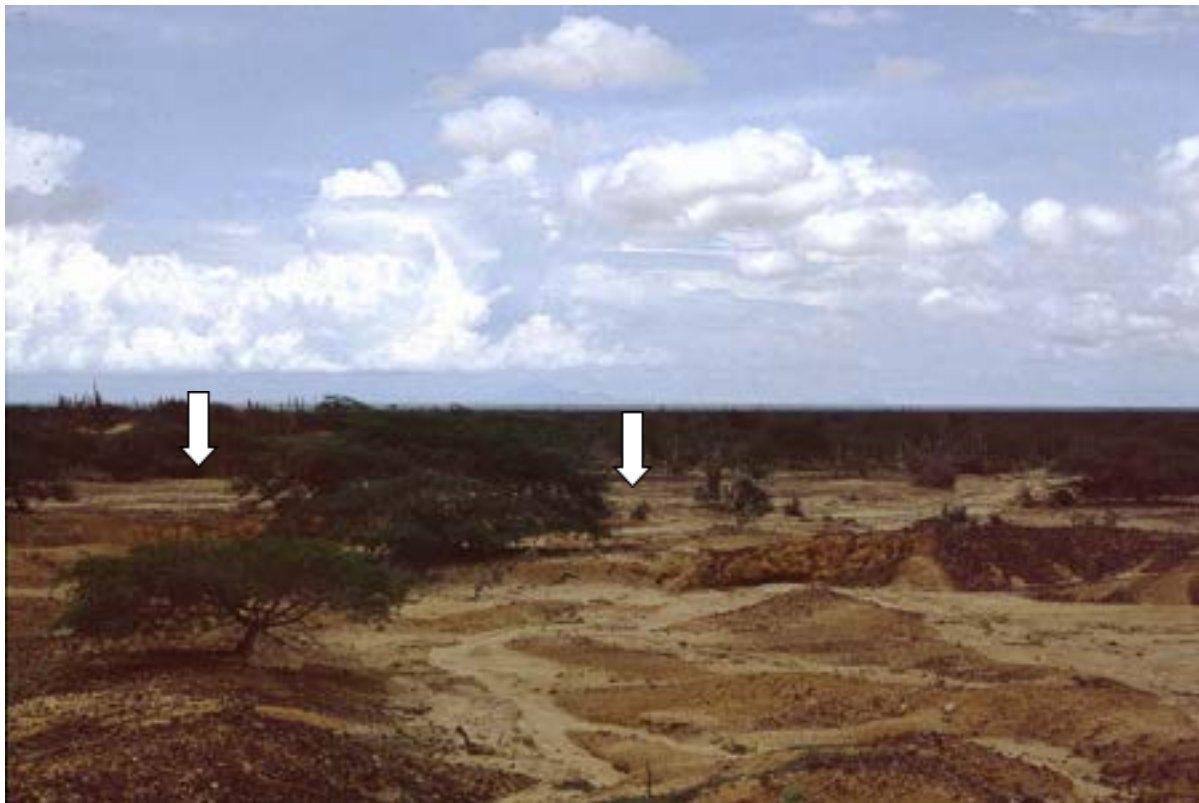
Villages were probably organized into something like the Antillean (Taíno) *cacicazgos*; that is, into a set of related villages within determined spatial boundaries (cf. Vega 1980, Cassa 1974). Intervillage alliances along with the territorial boundaries were probably determined by a combination of marriage alliances and kinship ties. But the exact nature of the structure governing the territorial sub-divisions of the Coastal Caquetío polity can not be precisely defined.

Thanks to historian González Batista (1984) we know that Paraguaná, in the XVIth century, was divided into two territories, each occupied by a different Caquetío sub-group: the *Amuayes* which controlled the southern part and the *Guaranaos* who controlled the northern part of the peninsula. Each sub-group had its own beach heads, entitling them to specific fishing grounds, and one could further assume that the inland agricultural plots were as equally well defined. However, more specific details (i.e. how were these catchment zones distributed, managed, or controlled within each sub-group) can not be inferred from the available data. As González Batista explained:

"There is an important document [dating to] 1883 authored by Modesto Delmonte, who appears to have handled documents that are presently lost or possibly collected from the oral traditions in the peninsula. In this document he mentions the existence of two tribal groups in the XVIth century: the *Amuayes* and the *Guaranaos*. According to the same document, the Amuayes were found first established in the village of Cayerúa and later in Moruy, while the others [*Guaranaos*] settled in Santa Ana. On our part we have been able to confirm that the resettlement of the Amuayes really had taken place; this and other statements of Sr. Delmonte that are confirmed, have allowed us to establish the credibility of his chronicle. Don Ventura de Bustillos, protector of the Paraguaná Indians in 1760, indicated that '...all of Moruy and with all its territory of small savannas...to the present these Indians have enjoyed, because of the [territorial] possession of San Juan de Cayarba...(Cayerúa)." (González Batista 1984:31-32 [my translation and clarifications in brackets]).¹¹³

¹¹³ "Existe una importante crónica suscrita por Modesto Delmonte, quien parece haber manejado estos documentos hoy desaparecidos, o cuando menos recogido sus datos de labios conocedores de las tradiciones peninsulares. En ellas se menciona la existencia de dos grupos tribales en el siglo XVI: los *amuayes* y los *guaranaos*, de acuerdo a la misma relación, los amuayes se encontraban primero establecidos en el poblado de Cayerúa y luego en el de Moruy, en tanto que los segundos se afincaron en Santa Ana. Por nuestra parte, hemos podido comprobar que el traslado de los amuayes fue algo que sucedió realmente; esto y otras afirmaciones del Sr. Delmonte nos ha permitido establecer la credibilidad de su crónica. D. Ventura de Bustillos, protector de los indios paraguaneros en 1760, señala que a los indios les correspondía 'todo el morui Con todo su Continenti de savanetas q[ue] hasta el p[resente] han gozado dhos Yndios, p[or] la posesión de [San Juan] de Cayarba [Cayerúa]." (González Batista 1984: 31-32).

The implications are clear. There was a higher-order level of organization in which villages were bound together as is manifested by the mutually exclusive territorial rights between the Amuay and Guaranao. Presumably within each supra-village group there were close ties of kinship and/or alliance, and single higher-order chief represented the political authority for the set of villages and territory that comprised the Amuay or the Guaranao. At the same time, both sub-groups were integrated at a higher level of organization, that of the Coastal Caquetío polity, under the control of an even higher ranking chief. At the time of Contact, this higher ranking, overall chief, was Manaure.



The eroded surfaces of Pueblo Viejo site (FAL-77). The arrows point to discrete chipi-chipe (*Donax* spp.) middens. View to the SW. Illustration added for the PDF version only.

Thus, a single village was headed by a local cacique or headman, whose leadership and authority was, in all likelihood, limited to his village and, perhaps a couple of others with whom he had established bonds of alliance (inter-marriage alliances, strong kinship ties, etc.). Probably, through a combination of charisma and kinship ties, a higher-order chief accumulated enough status and reputation to become a *diao* or a chief who had local village headmen under his leadership. I would venture to speculate that the type of intra-polity boundaries that were described for Paraguaná also existed throughout the coast of Falcón. I often wondered if the term Caçicure, referring to a vaguely defined sector or area of the west coast of Falcón and with its epicenter around Capatárída, was not another such a sub-division. In fact, I would venture to suggest that Manaure's immediate and most direct authority as a great diao was the territory (*cacicazgo*?) of Caçicure, with its seat of power

being in the so-called (by the Spanish) *Pueblo Viejo*.¹¹⁴

The distinctions between the local *cacique* (village headman), the *diao* or chief of several local *caciques*, and the overall "paramount" chief (also a *diao*), who was at the top of the hierarchy, is further supported by the differential treatment of the dead (discussed below).

Since Manaure is the best window to a better understanding of the nature of Caquetío "paramount" leadership, I shall examine the ethnohistorical evidence focusing upon the subject of power and authority; how it is maintained, administered and passed along to other successors.

We have seen that Ampíes attributed Manaure unique qualities of leadership that separated him from the rest of the population including other *caciques*. It should be recalled that around 1520-1525 Ampíes and Manaure were engaged, so-to-speak, in negotiations toward an alliance. Throughout the entire process Ampíes --who was in Santo Domingo-- had sent envoys, such as Sevilla, to do the actual "bargaining". Likewise, Manaure had sent his envoys, like *cacique* Baltasar of Hurihurebo, to meet those of Ampíes. For this Manaure sent *caciques* to Curaçao and Aruba, and even Hispaniola. If anything, we can see that there was a ranked access to Manaure, and that the *cacique* envoys were clearly playing a subordinated role throughout the entire process.

Furthermore, Manaure's authority and power were not limited to secular socio-political matters only, but also involved what could be termed as sacred leadership. I suspect that, in a large measure, Manaure's overall power and reputation as a great leader rested upon his extraordinary capabilities as a great *shaman*, who could control and predict natural phenomena. As a great *shaman*, Manaure mediated between the supernatural and the natural spheres. Manaure was also accorded an elaborate behavioral etiquette. Manaure was always carried in hammocks by a retinue of Indians --possibly as his *naborias* or personal servants. His bodily adornments (gold, shellbead necklaces, etc.) were commensurate with his standing in society. The special treatment and his bodily adornments distinguished Manaure from the lesser chiefs and from his subjects (Oliver Ms. 1987a).

The following quote from Fray Pedro de Aguado (confirmed by Ampíes' own observations), as Nectario María (1977:66) stated, can be considered as quite accurate:

"...in this province there was a señor or principal of the nation of Caquetios [*who*]... subjected and commanded all of that province and was very powerful, and for this, feared and respected and tributed by all his subjects, for which easily he [*Manaure*] made them believe that he was the author and creator of many things on Earth and its elements [*nature*] naturally produced by [*his*] divine order, such as the rain, hale, thunders and lightnings, coldness, and drought; and the fruitfulness of the land, and the subsistence of his people depended on these things occurring in time --a good season--; these natives were fearful, with very frightened souls, of the powers of this principal [*Manaure*], whom they regarded almost

¹¹⁴ Indeed, there is a Pueblo Viejo inscribed in the anonymous map of 1534-5 which I have a strong hunch that it could be the archaeological site of Pueblo Viejo (FAL-77) just N.E. of the village of Mitare. [\[see photo added in PDF version\]](#)

as a God, revering and respecting him to an extreme degree, and making sure they obeyed his will, to the degree that when he had to leave town for recreation or pastimes or to the war, he was carried by his most principal men, on their shoulders in a kind of bed commonly called *hamaca*, without allowing, no matter how far or short a distance, that he walked on the ground with his feet... (Aguado [1579] 1950 [1]: 27 [my translation, emphasis and clarifications in brackets]).¹¹⁵

But just how powerful was Manaure? Can we say that he had a totalitarian authority? There is some evidence that his authority and power had limits. But for this I need to provide some background information. In the period between ca.1515 and 1523 the coast of Falcón and the offshore islands had been subjected to repeated raidings by Spanish armadas. These raids clearly posed great danger to the Caquetío, and were the cause of unrest among all, particularly the chiefs. What is more, these raids even took place while Ampies' envoys were in Paraguaná (when one of Manaure's daughter was captured). This implies that while Manaure was negotiating with Ampies, the very same people (Spanish) to whom Ampies belonged were plundering the Caquetío. Clearly this situation of "good" and "bad" Spanish must have created divisions and ambivalence among those Caquetío in the position to make decisions and, so-to-speak, dictate policy.

The following quote was taken from Ampies himself, when the Audiencia of Santo Domingo was conducting a *Probanza* (preliminary inquest) in 1526 at Ampies' request (because the Ordinances of Zaragoza of 1519 forbade such raids).¹¹⁶

"...since the [*Caquetío*] Indians have confidence in me and know me better, now all the caciques of that territory have once again joined with a cacique that is said [*to be*] of Coro and they have sent, through the Spanish that had disembarked there, as well as throughout her *principales* that from there [*Coro*] to this island [*Hispaniola*] have come, to tell and 'beg' [*rogar*] that I ask Your Majesty to protect them [*mamparar*] and preserve them, since he [*the cacique of Coro*] that nothing that from these Islands [*Hispaniola*] is promised to them, is fulfilled." (A.G.I. , Santo Domingo, August 29, 1526; in Ramos Pérez 1978: 234 [my translation and clarifications in brackets]).¹¹⁷

¹¹⁵ "Este principal sujetaba y mandaba a toda aquella provincia y era muy poderoso, y por ese respecto muy temido avn tributado de todos su çircumbezinosl, con lo qual façilmente los abia hecho creer que el era el avtor y hazedor de muchas cosas que la tierra y elementos que naturalmente producen por la ordenaçion divina, como son las llubias, granizos, treunos y relampagos y eladas secas; y como del caer de estas cosas a sus tiempos dependen los buenos temporales y fructificacion de la tierra, y el tener sustento las gentes, aquellos naturales tenian con muy amedrentados animos el poder deste principal, y ansi quasi lo tenian por Dios, acatandolo y rreberençiandolo con extremo grado, y procurando todos estar sujetos a su voluntad en tanto grado que quando abia de yr fuera de su pueblo [a] algunas rrecreaciones o pasatiemposo a guerras, era llevado por los mas principales sujetos, cargado en los hombros por vn genero de lecho que comunmente llaman hamaca, sin que ninguna distançia del camino poca ni en mucha cantidad la caminase a pie..." (Aguado [1579] in Bécker 1950 [1]: 27).

¹¹⁶ A *probanza* is a preliminary but formal inquiry. It literally translates in English as a "probing" (probe).

¹¹⁷ "...como [*los indios*] tienen más noticias y confiança de mi, agora nuevamente se [h]an juntado todos los caciques de aquellas tierras con un cacique que se dize de Coro y me [h]an enbiado ansi con espanoles que allá [h]an aportado, como por otros principales que de allá a esta ysla [h]an benido, a dezir e rogar a Vuestra Magestad los mande a mamparar e guardar, porque ya vee [*el cacique de Coro*] que nada que destas yslas se

From this and other statements in this *Probanza*, it is quite clear that the negotiations of Manaure with Ampíes had been undermined (by the raids) and the *caciques* and *principales* had dissented or, at least, argued about the effectiveness of carrying on with the negotiations toward an alliance. But even more important is that the quote clearly states that "all the *caciques* have *joined together once again* with a *cacique* said [to be] of Coro", that is, Manaure. In other words, there seems to be a form of council of chiefs who deliberated on issues and advised the "paramount" chief of matters affecting the entire polity. The key words above emphasized suggest that: a) either the council of chiefs had dissented repeatedly from Manaure's decisions, b) they had met many times to deliberate with Manaure, or c) even more plausible, a combination of the above: dissent and consensus depending on the context and specific circumstances. In short, the Caquetío "paramount" chiefdom was not without some checks and balances on authority and power.

Now let us turn to another aspect of the "paramount" chiefdom. Of all the named *caciques* by the chroniclers, only Manaure is unambiguously cited to be polygamous. Not only that, but Ampíes and his men understood quite well the advantages of such practice. Polygamy involves a much broader and extensive kinship network, which in turn implies an extensive set of reciprocal obligations among affines. It is probable that local *caciques* were polygamous as well. I suspect a major requirement for a polygamous marriage involved the ability of the *diao* and the "paramount" chiefs to maintain more wives. Although polygamy alone is not the only criteria for achieving the status of *diao*, it certainly appears to be a positive advantage for increasing the extent of power and authority or, at the very least, of maintaining such power. Nevertheless, polygamy is a feature of value for Juan de Ampíes' plans of *rescate* (trade) with Manaure's people, since it became obvious to him that this chief had valuable alliances through marriage that extended spatially well beyond the immediate area of Coro. As we shall see, Manaure was said to have married *caribes*.

Manaure, whom Ampíes baptized as Don Martín, was polygamous. He was married to Doña Sancha, and had several children of which two have been recorded for posterity: Don Alexandre, who inherited his father's chiefdom upon retiring, and Don Juan who, upon his father's (Martín Manaure) death married his father's wife; that is, his mother (carnal or classificatory?). Manaure also had a daughter who married a *cacique* or, at least, a principal man from Hurihurebo (Ponce and Vaccari [1538-1546] 1977: 238, 416, 430, 443; Naveros and Vázquez de Acuña [1538] and Naveros, San Martín and Vázquez de Acuña [1535] in Gabaldón 1962 [2]: 294, 310, and in Bécker 1950 [1]:657-659).

As far as I can tell from the available documents, Manaure's wives married into his village. Manaure's daughter, who married a *cacique* in Hurihurebo, also set postmarital residence in her husband's village. And when Manaure died, his wife "married" her son and was to set up residence in the *cacique's* (her son, Don Juan) village. In other words, the *diaos* increased their kinship network through marriage alliances, and at the same time increased their own household locally. It is also noted that both Manaure and his son Alexandre, when they left Todariquiba --because of the abuses of Alfínger's lieutenant Santillana-- they left *together*, which makes me believe that the sons of Manaure had a post-marital *virilocal* residence. Again this type of set-up permitted the expansion of the household, and a concentration of resources (more agricultural plots, a larger village and

le promete, se les guarda." (Archivo General de Indias, Santo Domingo, August 29, 1526; in Ramos Pérez 1978: 234 [my clarifications in brackets]).

larger population), with widening kinship networks.

In the same *Probanza* of 1526, Ampíes declared that Manaure was also married to "*daughters of the caribs*", therefore, widening his influence beyond his own ethnic and political boundaries. *Caribs* are used by the Spanish in opposition to *guaitiao* (Taíno word for *allies* [friends]). Any ethnic group which, for whatever reasons, was deemed by the Spanish to be either an exploitable resource (labor force, slaves) or a threat to the colony or, simply as being a stumbling block for their activities of conquest, were labeled as *caribes* or *caníbales*. In doing so (until the *Leyes Nuevas* of 1542), the Spanish were not subject to sanctions from the Crown's laws that protected the Indians (the *caribes* were the exclusionary clause). Ampíes formulation of the question goes as follows:

"If it is known that the cacique of Coro [*Manaure*]... sent [*envoys*] to tell and to 'beg' to me that I with Your Majesty make them be well treated and that I leave them in liberty... that [*Manaure*] with the others want to serve Your Majesty and be Christians and pay him tribute and he [*Manaure*] has a way [*to make*] the Indians and *caribes* who are inland do the same by his [*Manaure's*] will, or by other methods, because he is powerful for everything and is confederated and *married with daughters of the caribes*" (Archivo General de Indias, Santo Domingo, August 29, 1526; in Ramos Pérez 1978: 236-237 [my translation from Spanish]).¹¹⁸

Acero's answer to Ampíes question (above) stated that he had heard about Manaure's marriage to the so-called *caribe* women from a Caquetío *cacique* baptized as Pero Sánchez, as well as other chiefs:

"...[Acero] heard that the *cacique* of Coro is *married to a daughter of a cacique of the caribes*, [*information which*] was said to this witness by the alluded *cacique* and others as well; the *cacique* of Coro is very powerful to subjugate the *caribes* mentioned, and for this reason some of these *caribes* are his [*Pero Alonso's or Acero's?*] friends." (ibid.; in Ramos Pérez 1978:237 [my translation, emphasis and clarifications]).¹¹⁹

The fact that Manaure married two (or one) Indians, who were clearly outsiders or non-Caquetío, forms an integral part of Manaure's widening alliance networks. I strongly suspect that these *caribes* refer to the Jirajara for two reasons. First, the Jirajara had been occasionally labeled as being *caribes*, because of their bellicose and rebel nature.

¹¹⁸The exact question posed by Ampíes in the *Probanza* was: Sy saben quel dicho caçique de Coro, auida noticia de mi el dicho factor [Ampíes] he vista mucha verdad que yo le he guardado, con los otros caçiques e yndios de la dicha costa e yslas, con quien yo he tratado a hacordado de me enbiar a dezir e rogar que haga con su magestad que sean bien tratados e los dexe en su libertad e no los cabtiben, quel [*Manaure*] con otros quiere servir a Su Magestad e ser cristianos e pagarle tributo a dar forma e maña que los caribes e yndios que están en la tierra adentro hagan lo mismo por su voluntad o de otra manera, porquel [*Manaure*] es poderoso para todo y está *confederado y casado con hijas de caribes*." (A.G.I. Santo Domingo, 29 de agosto de 1526, in Ramos Pérez 1978: 236-237 [my emphasis])

¹¹⁹Acero testified to Ampíes' question that he: "oyó decir quel dicho caçique de Coro [*Manaure*] es casado con una hija de un caçique de los caribes, lo qual dixo a este testigo [Acero] el dicho caçique [rf. to Pero Alonso] e otros, e quel dicho caçique de Coro es muy poderoso para sojuzgar [subyugar] a los dichos caribes e desta cabsa [causa] algunos de los dichos caribes son sus amigos."

Secondly, the Jirajara supplied Coro during the 1530's with abundant maize at a time when the coastal area harvests had failed due to drought and/or an acute depletion of Indian agricultural labor. Another reason is the relative ease with which Federmann (and others) crossed the Sierra de San Luis in 1530 without experiencing any bellicose activities on the part of the Jirajara villagers that he encountered in the Sierra closest to Coro. The guerilla attacks against Federmann by Jirajara did not take place until he had reached the Churuguara highlands. In other words, it is likely that the alliance of Manaure with the Jirajaran "carib" women was with those inhabiting the adjoining Sierra of San Luis. However, one can not disavow the possibility that true Carib-speaking women may have been involved since it has already been mentioned that there were Caquetío *avant garde* villages amidst the Carib-speaking Bubures of the Juruara area in southeastern Maracaibo (i.e. Parepi village).

Oviedo y Valdés obtained direct information from the Spanish of Coro (including Bishop Bastidas) about the rituals concerning the treatment of the dead. Indeed, such type of information always gives insights as to the nature of social differentiation within a society and provides clear indications as to how a leadership class might be distinguished from other classes. The data for the Caquetío clearly suggests that leadership is marked by a differential treatment of the dead. In addition, the documents show that among chiefs there were at least two different rites of burial, suggesting a hierarchy of authority.

Although Oviedo y Valdés does not specify which Caquetío polity he is describing, it is reasonable to assume that he is referring to those of Coastal Falcón. Oviedo y Valdés ([1526-57] 1944 [6]: 34-47) wrote that when a cacique dies all the town's people gather to lament and cry all night long. They also invite all neighboring villages, and recite (sing) all the great deeds of the dead cacique. The next morning, dry wood is gathered and placed next to the body, and a fire is started. The body then begins to burn. Within the burning hearth they place a small wooden figurine that is said to portray the dead man's semblance. Before the bones turn into ashes, they are gathered, and ground into a powder between two stones. These ashes are mixed with *maçato* (corn beer) and "all" drink it. But this, according to Oviedo y Valdés, is reserved for "lesser" *caciques*.

The funeral rites for the *diao* are more elaborate. A *diao* (second-order and "paramount" chiefs), according to Oviedo y Valdés is defined as follows:

"In some parts of this Gobernación of Venezuela, the principal lord, who has many Indians and who other caciques are his subjects, is called *diao*, and when he dies they perform a different kind of burial rite..." (Oviedo y Valdés [1526-1557] 1944 [6]: 41 [my translation]).¹²⁰

The rites for the *diao* are as follows. When the *diao* died, they put his body in a hammock and hung it between two posts, so that his body is about "six or seven palms" from the ground. Under the hammock they put firewood and start a fire "without flames". Continuously, day and night, the fire emanates heat and slowly desiccates the *diao*'s body. When the body is very dry "his son and inheritor of the Estate" orders the other Indians to place the deceased in a new hammock, and leave him in the house, as if he were sleeping.

¹²⁰ "Volviendo á mi historia, en algunas partes desta gobernación de Veneçuela el señor principal que tiene muchos indios y le son sujetos otros caciques, llámanle *diao*; y quando muere tienen con él otra manera de obsequias..."(Oviedo y Valdés [1526-1557] 1944 [6]: 41).

From that day on, no one could live in the house any longer. After a long time, up to several years, when the body is desiccated and disjointed, a call is made throughout the *cacique's señorío* (the chief's polity), announcing "*how they are going to drink the bones of the diao*". The people gather in the *cacique's* village, with their best gold adornos, necklaces, and with their bodies painted with *busera* designs ¹²¹. They drink for two and three days a lot of corn beer, which is also mixed with the *diao's* bones (Oviedo y Valdés [1526-1557] 1944 [6]:41-42).

The differential disposal of the dead correlates with each of the two-plus level hierarchy of leadership. One mode is reserved for the *local village chief*, whereas the more elaborate mode is reserved for a higher-order chief designated as a *diao*. The spatial (territorial) extent of a *cacique* versus a *diao* is clearly manifested in the custom of inviting the dead leader's subjects to participate in the funeral rites. In the first example the *cacique's* guests are from "neighboring" villages, whereas in the case of the *diao* the guests come from the *señorío* with the implication of an even wider network of individuals who are obligated to participate, or better reciprocate, in the funeral rites (the guests will receive three days worth of meals, corn beer and imbibe the *diao's* power through endocannibalistic drinking).

Archaeological data could be invoked in further support of the hierarchical nature of the Coastal Caquetío leadership and society. I will mention only that at any one time period or phase, there are more than one type of (secondary) burial (Oliver Ms. 1987c). And for those sites I have excavated (ca. A.D. 1200-1450), secondary burials certainly can not account for a population of 200 or 500 inhabitants per village/site, which means that only certain individuals received a second burial ritual. Clearly, the first type of burial described by Oviedo y Valdés would not leave any records, for the body is burned (although at Túcua site I did find a cluster of chopped and charred human bones associated with tetrapod biomorphic drinking bowls). The second (*diao*) type of burial can be correlated with secondary burial urns with semi-disarticulated nearly complete bodies with only a few selected bones missing, or those either showing long-bone bundles or skull (Oliver Ms. 1987c).

The last subject I would like to discuss is that of trade. The Coastal Caquetío participated in long distance trade. As noted above, the Caquetío had to obtain gold (which among them are indicators of status [cf. Neukomm [1535] in Friede 1980]) from trade with either the Jirajara of the Nirgüa-Buria Highlands, or from the Coanao in the Valledúpar-Ranchería area. One item or commodity which the Caquetío had abundant supplies was the salt, which was traded inland. But the most ubiquitous items which had a "fixed", artificially determined value were the necklace beads.

There were three types of necklace beads: the *boroyda*, the *mamas*, and the *querequetero* or *quitero*. These were made of stone and shells. Archaeologically, I have found quartz and a low grade serpentinite to be quite frequent among the stone beads. Shell beads are even more frequently found and among the most minute of all beads. The most important of these were necklaces consisting of very tiny beads made of shells "*as small as a pinhead*" (Naveros and Vázquez de Acuña [1538] in Gabaldón 1962 [2]: 295). These were almost like a monetary system. Their value was measured by "ropes" or length of the necklace and by the size of the bead (the smaller the higher the exchange rate). Indeed, the Spanish adopted very quickly the shell-bead exchange system to trade in

¹²¹The word *busera* is probably a Caquetío term for a red vegetable pigment obtained from the *Bixa orellana*. In the Circum-Caribbean it is known by its Taíno designation: *bija*

agricultural products with the Caquetío, as well as in re-exchanging the beads for gold adornos.¹²²

It ought to be remembered that the Jirajara of the Falcón-Lara Highlands, as well as the Xagua also valued these marine shell beads as an item of exchange. A similar system existed among the Achagua, as well as Carib, Otomac, Sáliva, and other Llanos groups, who bartered and exchanged all sorts of commodities and goods by means of shell-beads [cf. Morey 1975: 257-260]. The Caquetío appear to be excellent traders. For example they had frontier settlements which supplied Falcón with exotic goods (e.g. Guajira). Beyond Venezuela, shell-beads used as an exchange base is known archaeologically in many other areas such as Ecuador (cf. Mester Ms.1988).

Finally, there is one last feature characteristic of the Coastal Caquetío polity, which contrasts sharply with all other Caquetío polities to the south. That is, the lack of emphasis on militarism, warfare, or raiding. It is the norm that the Coastal Caquetío would rather avoid confrontation and flee to another village or locality (*alzados*). This characteristic is most interesting since it could well mean that when the Caquetío's (ancestors) colonized coastal Falcón, they must have done so by means of non-bellicose strategies: by "demographic" persuasion (by sheer numbers), complementary reciprocity with the local residents (symbiosis), etc. They did fight, as it happened against some of the Spanish raiders, but these instances were rare and unusual. After all, what could be more provoking than having Nicholaus Federmann raid and enslave more than 200 Caquetío for one his expeditions, not to mention all the enslavements done by the Welser's officials?

¹²²One must not forget that because of the trade monopoly imposed by Spain, the fledging village of Coro lacked nearly all Spanish luxuries including gold items. Furthermore, this trade restriction forced the Coro residents to look elsewhere for basic commodities. This is why there is a noticeable paucity of XVIth century Mayólica glazed pottery and an astonishing increment of Dutch wares (e.g. Delft Ware) from ca. 1620's onward illegally imported from Curaçao to Coastal Falcón (cf. Arauz Montafane 1984; Felice Cardot 1973).

Yaracuy-barquisimeto

ADD A PICTURE

3.7 The Caquetío of Barquisimeto and Yaracuy

There is abundant evidence of the presence of Caquetío settlements in the Valley of Barquisimeto, perhaps extending slightly westward to Quíbor, and in the Valley of Yaracuy. From Federmann ([1557] in Friede 1958) to Hutten ([1785] in Ritter 1962) and from Pérez de Tolosa ([1547] in Arellano 1964), Villegas ([1542] in Gabaldón 1977), and the Mayors of Barquisimeto ([1579] in Arellano 1964) in the XVIth century, to the census data ordered by Solano ([1768] in Altoaguirre 1908) and that of Bishop Mariano Martí in the XVIIIth century (Martí [1773-1782] 1962). The territorial/political boundaries between the Barquisimeto and Yaracuy Caquetío is clearly defined by Federmann, and characterized by an intervening no-man's-land.

Federmann was the first European to contact the Caquetío of Barquisimeto on November 1, 1530. He had already known from the Caquetío of Coro that the Caquetío of Barquisimeto were as "insolent" as they were a "capable" nation (Federmann [1557] 1958:64), which means that the Coastal Caquetío were quite aware of their "kindred" on the other side of the Highlands. As stated earlier, before the Barquisimeto Caquetío controlled the valley, other ethnic groups occupied it, until they were finally driven to the hills (ibid.). Federmann used as interpreters Caquetío Indians from Coro, so that there is every reason to believe that both Caquetío groups shared the same language with only minor dialectical variations.

Federmann (ibid.: p. 66-7) made references about the high population density in the Barquisimeto valley, and in a single *aldea* (village) he calculated about 4,000 inhabitants. A total twentythree such villages were found clustered at the edge of the river (Barquisimeto [Turbio]). He remained there for 14 days in which he commented the large amounts of unsolicited (which really dumbfounded him) gifts he received:

"In all these villages of this province of Variquecimeto... gave us many unsolicited presents, of their own accord, and for a *[total]* value of 3,000 Rihne florins of gold, because they are rich peoples that *tratan [trade]*, work, elaborate, and sell gold." (Federmann [1557] 1958:67 [my translation]).

The 23 villages, according to Federmann (ibid.) could easily muster in half a day a force of 30,000 Indian warriors that "*se ejercitan*" [dedicate to? or exercise, specialize] in warfare. They also had "*well fortified villages*" because they were enemies of all the ethnic groups

that surrounded them (Federmann [1557]1958:67). The enemies include the Xaguas to the northwest and west, the Chipas to the northeast, and the Cuibas in the Highlands of Portuguesa, and that included the Caquetío of Yaracuy, an area which he called *Valle Poblado* or *Valle de las Damas.*, and which the Caquetío called *Varárida*. Federmann, correctly, infers that this clustering of villages was probably the result of defensive practices, but I would also add that effective agriculture and more than adequate food production promoted a population increase that created even higher demands on a limited prime agricultural land. From there, Federmann departed to the northern Llanos, by way of Yaritagua and the Río Turbio (Barquisimeto) and into the Cojedes (Fig. 38). By March of 1531 he had returned to Barquisimeto from the Llanos and prepared to continue through the Yaracuy Valley.

He described that the Caquetío of Barquisimeto, despite being of the "*same nation*" as those of Yaracuy "*were not friends, thus for one and a half days there were no villages*", that is, it was a no man's land (Federmann [1557] 1958:107 [my translation]). However, Federmann mentions that he did find some abandoned (old) houses, from which one can infer that the no man's land boundary was fairly recent, perhaps the last 40 to 50 years or so (at most). Upon entering the first Yaracuy settlements, Federmann offered an interesting comparison between the two polities:

"Up until now I could not find out the magnitude [*size*] of these [*Barquisimeto*] villages or find out the number of inhabitants, or judge the war-like and proud characteristics of this nation... [*Eventually*] we found out that it could muster in a single day 20,000 warriors. Their [*Barquisimeto*] villages, *even though belong to a single nation, are not subject to a single lord*; nonetheless, as I mentioned, they live a short distance from each other... It is not the same among the villages of this valley [*of Yaracuy*], although their numbers [*population*] is as large. They are not *confederados* or allied among themselves, for which cause they are less powerful [*in warfare*] than those of Barquisimeto. But I have no doubt that if they were attacked, and their numbers insufficient, they would join forces and unite with others. These Indians [*Yaracuy*] have very large villages, that some times have an extension of one mile, but with one or two *calles* [*streets*] at most, inhabiting in a single house five, six, and up to eight different families with their men and children. The women are especially beautiful, so we called this valley and province *Valle de las Damas* which means in German the valley of the ladies, and which the Indians call *Varárida*..." (Federmann [1557] 1958: 109-110 [my translation and clarifications in brackets]).¹²³

Federmann also mentioned in one instance that three villages were "confederated". He

¹²³Note that Federmann clearly stated that none of these "confederated" villages was ruled by what would appear to be a single authority or power, as it was in Coastal Falcón. However, in times of warfare a total force exceeding --according to Federmann-- the 30,000 Indians could be enjoined under a military leadership. Also note that each dwelling was inhabited by an extended family numbering up to eight "different families", an allusion to the individual lineages represented. In turn this implies a maloca-type of domestic dwelling among the Caquetío of Barquisimeto and Yaracuy. All of this sharply contrasts what I have deduced earlier regarding the Coastal Caquetío.

further described the inside of one of these extended family dwellings as containing a *barbacoa* (wooden "grill") or platform over which all the corn was stored (ibid: p. 113). In a *realción geográfica* dated to 1579, a description of the local authority is described as:

"...the Indians of the jurisdiction of this city [*Barquisimeto*] said that they have never known of a lord that governed them, and they have no respect but for those who are good workers and can harvest most corn and manioc and other legumes. To such individual they have more respect because he had more corn beer to offer, and this is the greatest pleasure they receive, and such concoction they call *maçato*... To such individual, because of what has been said, they resort to and respect most." ([1579] Arellano Moreno 1964: 189 [my translation]).¹²⁴

Note that in the previous quote, from 1530, Federmann noted precisely the same kind of description of the nature of authority and power, in his statement; "...*even though belong to a single nation, are not subject to a single lord*"; thus, one can not impute a Spanish impact upon the Barquisimeto Caquetío office of chief.

The 1579 document also makes reference to the presence of shaman specialists who, contrary to the Coastal Caquetío *boratio*, did not live within the village, but in a separate dwelling outside the village (ibid.: p. 189). Finally, there is a reference to religious beliefs, but the Spanish sentence structure makes the ethnic attribution ambivalent. One can not be certain if it refers to the Axaguas or Caquetío:

"This generation [*or nation*] adores the Sun and the Moon, and when water [*rain*] is lacking... they make a sacrificial offering in this way: they search for a young girl, ten years or older, and the most beautiful and gracious that they can find. They gather the few meager possessions that they have and pay the mother of the girl. They used to take her to the edge of the river that runs near this town [*of Barquisimeto*], and there, with a stone they have and which has no sharp edge, but a kind of cut [*flaked stone*], and cut her throat causing a horrible agony, and then offered her blood as a sacrifice, and they say that they are giving her as a wife for the Sun... and they say this ceremony is done so that it rains, because the Sun is upset [*furious*] and for this reason it does not rain." ([1579] Arellano Moreno 1964:189-190 [my translation from Spanish and clarifications in brackets.]).¹²⁵

¹²⁴"Y encunto al capítulo catorce de la instrucción, dijeron que los indios que en la jurisdicción de esta ciudad hay, no se ha conocido haber tenido ningun señor que los mande, y ellos no tienen respeto sino solamente al que es mejor trabajador y coge más maíz y yuca y demás legumbres. Y a este tal tienen más respeto porque hace más brebaje para darles a beber, que es el mayor gusto que ellos reciben; el cual brebaje ellos llaman *maçato*, según ya está dicho, como entre nosotros podríamos decir, vino. A ese tal, por lo dicho, acuden y a ese tienen más respeto." ([1579] Arellano Moreno 1964: 189).

¹²⁵The entire quote reads in Spanish as follows: "[El shaman] tiene hecha una casita pequeña de paja, y esta casa de paja sólo sirve para meterse allí estos tales que nosotros llamamos hechiceros, y allí dentro llaman al demonio, que en su lengua llaman *capú* (y ésto es en la lengua caquetía), y este nombre que ellos tienen puesto al demonio (también) nos tienen puesto a nosotros. Y esto es en la lengua *caquetía* que es la más común, que en las demás [lenguas] tienen muchas variedades, especialmente en la población de *axaguas*... y esta generación [*which one: Axagua or Caquetío?*] adora al sol y a la luna, y cuando hay falta de agua, que en la

However, reference to the Barquisimeto River (Turbio) along with a mention that "*it used to be done*" suggests that this is probably a Barquisimeto Caquetío ritual of appeasement, propitiation, and fertility. This is an unusual blood-letting sacrifice, unheard of for any other Caquetío or ethnic group thus far discussed in this chapter. The geographically closest ethnic group which involved blood-letting sacrifices are the Otomacs, who pierced their arms and legs in a ritual involving a mock combat/wrestling described by Father Gumilla ([1745] 1882b: 109).

In contrast to the Coastal Falcón Caquetío, these two polities, particularly that of Barquisimeto, were extremely bellicose. The descriptions that Oviedo y Valdés provided for the province of Venezuela --and which he clearly separates from those of Maracaibo and the Ranchería Valley-- are, in all probability, of the Barquisimeto Caquetío. Before entering into warfare, the warriors and all the villagers have to go through a period of abstinence of food, after which they are ready to go and fight. Warriors are ranked according to their achievements in warfare, and they are distinguished from others by specific dress codes and bodily adornos. They tattooed their bodies, starting from their fingers, to their elbows, arms, and shoulders, and then from the waist to their belly, chest, neck and all the face, each step representing a higher rank. The highest rank obtained was to carry a headband of tiger fur, and a necklace of human bones. Such an Indian, says Oviedo, is like "*a brave Captain*" (Oviedo y Valdés [1526-1557] 1944 [6]: 94-95).

3.8 A Comparison Between Coastal and Barquisimeto-Yaracuy Caquetío

The Caquetío of Barquisimeto clearly had no paramount chief as the Coastal Caquetío did. I will suggest that there were two kinds of leaders among the Barquisimeto Caquetío: A Peace Chief and a War Chief. The Peace Chief (as described in the 1579 document quoted above) was one who could redistribute the most wealth, in the form of maize, *maçato*, manioc and legumes, back to the community in exchange for labor services in the fields. The most esteemed peace leader was one who could be most gracious and lavish in dispensing corn beer, but also one who could lead by example: a good worker. This individual also had to have the means to accumulate larger stocks of corn and manioc, enough to be able to later distribute back into the community. Although it is not conclusively supported by documental evidence, I suspect that each office was held by different individuals. My suspicion is based on a logical reasoning that the attributes needed to become a Peace Chief are somewhat antagonistic to those of the War Chief. The War Chief office is hierarchical and ranking achieved through militaristic deeds. If deeds are to be regarded as a form of wealth (leading to authority and respect), then wealth is accumulated and not redistributed back into the society at large. In contrast, the Peace Chief, who also obtains authority and respect through achievement, can not retain economic wealth, but must redistribute it back into the community, otherwise he is almost certain to lose his influence and authority. Wealth can not be accumulated by Peace Chiefs.

comarca de este pueblo falta muchas veces, como dicho es, hacen un sacrificio de esta manera: buscan a una muchacha de diez años para arriba, la más hermosa y mejor agestada que hallan, hacen una demanda entre todos de los haberes que poseen, que valen harto poco, y pagan a la madre de la muchacha, y le dan todos los haberes que juntan. Solíanla llevar [a la] ribera del río que corre junto a éste pueblo, y allí, con una piedra que ellos tienen y que no tiene filo sino una manera de corte, la degüellan con harto tormento, y ofrecen la sangre por sacrificio, y dicen que aquella quieren dar al sol por mujer. Después que poblamos lo hacen, mas hácenlo a escondidas, que nunca se sabe que lo tienen [ya] hecho; y esta ceremonia dicen que la hacen para que llueva porque dicen que está enojado el sol y que por eso no llueve." ([1579] Arellano Moreno 1964:189-190).

It is tempting to suggest some vague resemblances with the Melanesian "*Big Man*", but with all the cautions against stereotyping noted by Harold Ross (1978). It must be remembered that the Melanesian "Big Man" includes various types of leadership, that is, various types of Big Men, including a "war" specialist (*wane ramo*), the "glorious-renowned" leader (*wane initoo*) and the "man who offers prayers" (*wane nifoa*), all of which are Big Man (Ross 1978:11-22). These are homologous roles to the Peace Chief, War Chief, and the Shaman (*boratio*) of the Caquetío, although the details of attributions and qualities between the Melanesian and the Caquetío models can not be matched on a one to one basis.

The presence of "Big Man" types in South America has already been suggested by Dreyfus (1983-4). Unfortunately for me, the available data for the Barquisimeto Caquetío is too scanty and insufficient to warrant a detailed comparison. I will advance, however, that Dreyfus' Big Man (of the Kalina, Kalinago [Carib-speaking]) is far closer to what I call the War Chief, with the the main difference being in the constant emphasis of the Kalina on planning raids for the capture of prisoners, which results in increased prestige.¹²⁶ Also, the Kalina theater of action is enormous and very extensive, whereas the Barquisimeto Caquetío warfare is constrained and most probably due to the attrition of agricultural space. I would argue that, in contrast to the Kalina, the Peace Chief had no overarching authority beyond the local village level, for the villagers claimed that "*they do not have a lord that governs them*" (a statement said in peace-time). This is quite different from the War Chief qualities in "peace-time" among the Kalina. The Caquetío leadership during warfare took an entirely different characteristic. Authority became more centralized, and more hierarchical. If the quote from Oviedo y Valdés applies to the Caquetío (of which there is no absolute certainty), it also provided for a certain degree of military status mobility. The fact that Caquetíos in Barquisimeto denied (in Federmann's [in 1530] as well as in the 1579 document) submission to a "paramount" chief, lends support to the sharp differentiation of leadership in peace times as opposed to war times. I must, then, conclude that the two modes of leadership existed, and were operational in their respective contexts only. This style of leadership, to my knowledge, has not been noted among ethnologists working in Venezuela, although it was very widespread among North American Indians (e.g. Great Plains).

The settlement patterns between Yaracuy and Barquisimeto also differed radically. In Barquisimeto, the villages were tightly clustered (up to 23), and with an estimated 4,000 individuals per village. Villages were well defended ("*fortificadas*"), perhaps pallisaded

"When I reached the first [Caquetío] village of the Province of Barquisimeto, I was well received by a great number of Indians, approximately numbering 4,000; the Indians were well proportioned and [physically] strong. To make a long story short, I will only say that I rested for 14 days in their villages , which numbered a total of 23, and which were located next to

¹²⁶ However, the Caquetío of the Cojedes-Llanos area appear to have institutionalized the slave raiding type of warfare, and appear to have traded captured Indian slaves between different groups in the area. This comes from an observation by Federmann regarding a Caquetío village designated as Itabana. Federmann ([1557] 1958:94) asked the *cacique*: "...le pedí que me vendiese una der sus naborias o esclavos... pero la [naboria] me fué negada, aunque acostumbraban a comprarlas y venderlas entre sí." This statement however only applies to the Caquetío living toward the lower Cojedes in the Llanos. No such statements have been found associated with Caquetío in other areas. Slave-capturing warfare was quite common and widespread in the Llanos, including the Achagua (Morey 1975).

the river..." (Federmann [1557] 1958: 66-67 [my translation]).

The villages in Yaracuy were of variable density. Some were clusters of three "villages", others were comprised of single dwellings. Still, some others stretched lineally ("*with only two streets*") for one and a half miles. According to Federmann, Yaracuy was about as densely (in numbers) populated as Barquisimeto. Of the Yaracuy Valley Caquetío Federmann noted:

"It is not the same in the villages of this [*Yaracuy*] valley [*as with the Barquisimeto Caquetío*]. Even though their numbers are as great, they are not united or *conformes* amongst themselves, but rather every two or three or four villages are confederated or allied between themselves, for which reason they are less powerful than those of *Variquecimeto*. But there is no doubt that if they were to be attacked and did not have enough numbers [*of warriors*], they would join forces, confederate, and unite together.

These Indians have large villages, which at times extend for a half a mile, but with only one or to *calles* [*streets*] at most. A single dwelling was generally inhabited by up to five, six and even eight different families with their women and children." (Federmann [1557] 1958: 108 [my translation from Spanish]).

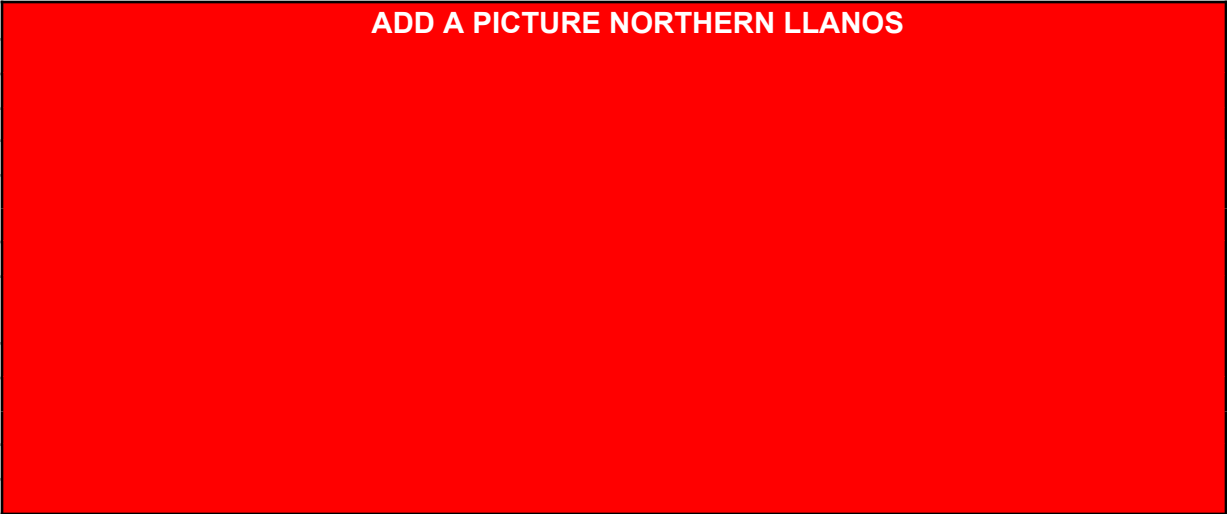
In either case, both polities were in harsh competition for land, space, and, most probably (in the case of Barquisimeto), access to the Caribbean Sea. There is little doubt that the boundary between Barquisimeto and Yaracuy polities is of extreme strategic importance in the communications between the Llanos and the Caribbean Coast. Control over this passage, was to control trade and communications. Both Yaracuy and Barquisimeto Valleys are of limited size, thus any population pressures generated by growth (based on effective agriculture production) would normally result in expansions to already populated territories and, thus, resulting in warfare. At the same time, warfare is one of the two main conduits to achieve status and power within each polity; the achievement of leadership in peace time was intimately related to excess agricultural production, so that redistribution and reciprocal activities could take place --and a necessary precondition for dispensing generosity, thereby achieving power. This could not be maintained if enough population pressures developed and further tax the agricultural resources. Thus, a cycle of peace and warfare is fueled by these two opposite and, yet, complementary forces. Ultimately, only a complete victory or defeat (i.e. colonization of the needed lands) would break the cycle.

A quick comparison between the Barquisimeto/Yaracuy and Coastal Caquetío polities clearly shows that significant differences exist in: 1) settlement patterns, 2) population/village density, 3) social stratification, 4) authority/power and leadership, 5) land/population pressures, and 6) attitudes toward warfare. It is these sharp, clear differences in the nature of this polities that has made me abandon the so-called Theocratic Chiefdoms espoused by Steward and Faron (1959) and the pseudo-Marxist variant promoted by Sanoja and Vargas (1979). These "type" of chiefdom can not be applied to all the Caquetío, much less to a host of different chiefdom's in the Circum-Caribbean area. To say that the Caquetío are a Theocratic Chiefdom or a Theocratic Mode of Production explains absolutely nothing, and blurs *the differences that make a difference*.

To summarize, ethnohistorical documents suggest that the Coastal Caquetío Polity is based on hierarchical authority and leadership invested in a single paramount chief, who also acts as a great shaman. Villages of the Coastal Caquetío polity are of "medium" size (ca. 200 to 500 individuals), and village settlements are more dispersed along the coastal plains. The Barquisimeto polity is based on a dual system leadership: one is hierarchical achieved through militaristic deeds (in times of war) which accumulates in an individual in the form of rank and expressed in bodily adornos; the other, in peace time, is achieved through a system of generous redistribution of wealth --vaguely reminiscent of the Melanesian "Big Man". In the former authority is achieved by concentration, in the latter by dispersion. The Barquisimeto and Yaracuy settlements are densely populated (ca. 2000 to 4000) but village distributions seem to be different: tightly clustered in the former, variable and linearly distributed in the latter. Individual dwellings in both Barquisimeto and Yaracuy are capable of holding up to eight "families" (distinct lineages?), hence suggesting a *maloca* type domestic dwelling. Deducing from the available documents, it is also noted that the Caquetío of Barquisimeto (peace) chiefs did not, concurrently, held the role of great shaman as is the case in Coastal Falcón. Indeed, the *boratio* described by the chronicle of 1579 (Arellano 1964) indicates that they lived apart from the main village, in separate huts.

I would further speculate that the Yaracuy and Barquisimeto polities (and the former is by no means a single "political" unit) had seceded in rather recent times, and that both had diverged from the Coastal Caquetío at a much earlier time period (even considering ecological and geographical constraints). The outstanding unifying element is that all three areas spoke the same language (or dialects of), which testifies to a common origin.

ADD A PICTURE NORTHERN LLANOS



3.9 The Caquetío of the Northern Llanos

All the major expeditions commanded by Welser officers, beginning with Federmann (1530-1531) and Hohermuth (Espira, 1535-38), had entered the Llanos through the gap between the Portuguesa and Nirgüa highlands. All of the primary sources (documents) of these expeditions are in agreement with an extensive Caquetío distribution through the Western Llanos during the first half of the XVIth century. This widespread distribution in the early XVIIIth century had been substituted by other Arawakan-speaking groups, mainly the Achagua, leading me to believe that the Caquetío by then had migrated elsewhere (Oliver Ms. 1987a:160-ff.).

Federmann, whose expedition extended a bit beyond the Sarare-Cojedes confluence, is the best source for the Caquetío politics of the Llanos de Cojedes.

Upon leaving Barquisimeto, Federmann travelled down (alongside) the Barquisimeto River and joined the Cojedes Rivers. The Cuibas (Coiba, Cuyba, Cuiva) inhabited some parts of this buffer zone. Federmann called this river *Coaheri* which Arcaya (1916:71) had correctly identified as Cojedes. From Barquisimeto up to "*a valley between two mountains*" (Portuguesa, Nirgüa) it was still a no man's land (Federmann [1557] 1958: 71 [cf. Fig. 40:11]). Later on they camped on a hilly area (Fig. 38:12) where they spotted a Cuiba village. The houses were described as being of a *maloca* type, and at least one of them was probably a men's ceremonial dwelling. The region was described as being densely populated (Federmann [1557] 1958:80).

Finally, further south following the Cojedes River, Federmann reached the village of Hacarigua (located next to the river and not where modern Acarigua is today). He described it as follows:

"...we arrived the fifteenth of December of [15]30 to a village of the same nation called Hacarigua, located next to a large river, with a width of almost the distance of to shots of *arcabuz* [*type of firearm*]. This village was inhabited in an extension, of at least, a quarter of a mile upriver, although it [*really*] was *several inhabited sites, similar to villages*, located near to each other in a plain, and they had a single *Señor* by the name of Hacarygua, and there inhabited nearly 16,000 *Indians of war*, without [*counting*] the women, children, and elders who were not useful in war. As I was able to observe, *the inhabitants were part Caquetío and part Cuyba, and they lived together.*" (Federmann [1557] 1958: 81 [my translation, underlining and clarifications in brackets]).

While in Hacarigua, whose *cacique* was a Caquetío Indian, Federmann aided the Caquetío-Cuiba in a punitive expedition against the Cuyón who were settled further west of the Cojedes about the Portuguesa Highlands (Figs.28, 38). These Cuyón or Coyón were quite probably historically related to or the same as the Gayón that Federmann encountered earlier in the mountains of Bobare, north of Barquisimeto. Because of the Coyón, the Portuguesa Highlands were commonly known in the XVIth century as Sierra de Coyones.

The above descriptions give a clear scenario of ethnic boundaries at the time of first European Contact. But more importantly two features distinguish the Caquetío of Hacarigua

from the polities of Barquisimeto-Yaracuy and of Coastal Falcón. The first feature is that of multiethnic and multilingual settlements, whereby Caquetío and Cuiba shared the same settlements. This clearly implies a system of social organization which allowed for the integration of different ethnic groups into a single sociopolitical system. The second feature is that of village settlement pattern, whereby Federmann (in the above quote) is clearly ambiguous as to whether to call it a village or not. In other words, up to this point, Federmann had no problems in interpreting "villages". One must assume that the patterns he observed were familiar to him and that houses were arranged (*"in streets"*) in such a way (circular or a set of or cluster of houses or malocas). But in this instance he was at a loss in explaining what exactly he saw.¹²⁷ Let me comment on these briefly.

The best studied examples of multilingual and multiethnic settlements come from two sources: the Island Carib¹²⁸ with the Guayana Carib (Kalina, Kariña), and the Tukanoan groups, who incorporated Arawakan and Makú-speaking groups into the phratic organization (cf. Hugh-Jones 1979, Goldman [1963] 1979, Dreyfus 1983-4:39-55). It is more than probable that the Caquetío-Cuiba social organization was very much like the Tukanoan-Arawakan (and Makú) of the Northwest Amazon area. The Tukanoans have a social organization structure where a phratic organization (sibs) are at the apex of the system, and where (simple or compound) exogamic groups occupy a continuous territory. In the case of the Piraparaná, the sibs are arranged hierarchically along the rivers so that the seniority order from first to last born reflects a "journey" from the mouth of a river (viewed as an Anaconda) to its headwaters (Hugh-Jones 1979:20). The exogamic rules of marriage (alliances) are such that in a single *maloca* dwelling two and up to three different languages are required for discourse. Although it can not be confirmed by the available documents, I would venture to speculate that the Caquetío-Cuiba settlement, which Federmann had trouble conceptualizing, and which extended for 0.25 German miles "at least" (ca. 3.7 Km.), was one such exogamous (perhaps compound) group. Note that Federmann stated that Hacarigua was in reality not a village but "*several inhabited localities similar to villages, situated near to each other*" ([1557] 1958:81 [my emphasis and translation]).

The above discussion suggests yet another different kind of Caquetío polity, far more related to Northwestern Amazonian models than to either the Barquisimeto or the Coastal Caquetío polities. Further south of Hacarigua Federmann reached the terminus of the Caquetío-Cuiba territory, and headed into another culturally distinct region (Oliver Ms. 1987a:136-ff.).

Federmann finally reached a large river, which I suggest must be the Sarare-Cojedes juncture (Oliver Ms. 1987a:138), where they found nomadic, specialized fishermen designated as *Guaicari* who are probable the same Guayquerí (cf. Mc Corkle 1952, Alexander n.d. :551) and who probably were related to the Carib-speaking Guayquerí of Margarita Island. After crossing the *Cohahe* (the Cojedes' tributary: Sarare) he found a Guayquerí fishing camp and trade outpost next to the river:

¹²⁷ Note that Federmann was at a loss in explaining what kind of settlement the Hacarigua Caquetío had, but once he returned from the Llanos to Yaracuy Valley, he had no trouble in clearly stating that the latter had extended family malocas distributed lineally and "with no more than one or two streets". I deduce that by then Federmann had revised his European thinking with regards to what a village ought to look like.

¹²⁸ The Island Carib were comprised of Carib and Arawakan-speaking people. A large part of the female Island Carib were Arawakan-speaking due to the fact that they had been captured by the men and integrated into the Island Carib society. Island Caribs are also known in the literature as Eyerí or Igneri (Iñeri).

"All their fishing houses are at the edge of the water and there they have their markets, because the nation of Caquetios that inhabit both sides of the river buy [*trade*] their fish in exchange for fruits [*crops*] and other foodstuffs, because the Guaycarí peoples only fish and are the lords of the water. *Both nations live peacefully between them because one needs the other, although each occupies different villages.*" (Federmann [1557] 1958: 91 [my translation and italics]).

Once again, we find yet a different kind of polity, whereby Caquetío villages are monoethnic, but with a reciprocal economic relationship --in symbiosis with specialized fishermen, the Guaycarí.¹²⁹ According to Federmann's ([1557] 1958: 90-ff.) accounts the next leg of the expedition encountered even more Caquetío villages. The entire region was densely populated. As Federmann's quotes suggest:

"I left with thirty five foot soldiers, five men on horse and nearly two hundred Indian porters, and I travelled through many *pueblos* or villages belonging to the nations of the Caquetios and the Guaycaries, which were densely populated, and inhabited by many individuals." (Federmann [1557] 1958: 92-93 [my translation]).

In the village of Curahamara and its vicinity, on occasion of a bellicose confrontation with the Caquetío and their Guaycarí allies, Federmann noted:

"And when we reinitiated our travel without suspecting [*the presence*] of the [*Indians*] that had crossed the river and were on our side, and us being preoccupied with only those Indians of the opposite shore [*of the river*], they began to attack us from behind and the front, and the *cacique* or lord, which was at the other side with nearly seven thousand Indians, according to our calculations, also began to shoot against us." (Federmann [1557] 1958: 98 my translation, emphasis, and clarifications in brackets)).

In his last stop, perhaps slightly over half way to the Cojedes-Portuguesa river juncture, Federmann was able to realize, much to his chagrin, that the news of a Southern Sea, was nothing other than the (seasonally) flooded Llanos of Venezuela. In the last village, named *Itabana*,¹³⁰ Federmann stated that the cacique of the village was a very powerful man that controlled many villages in the region.

"...he was a *cacique* or lord of many villages that we had traversed, and that he had many of his nation, the Caquetios,

¹²⁹The question might be raised of just how frequent was the case of multi-ethnic/linguistic villages under a single leader in the Llanos. Was it rare or widespread? From Federmann's account along with those of the major expeditions up to the 1540's suggest that more often than not, villages tended to be monolingual and monoethnic. On the other hand, an instance such as that of Hacarigua, where there are large numbers of two distinct ethnic groups are rare. I suspect that as one approaches the Guaviare and Inírida there were more instances of multiethnic and multilingual polities, as exemplified by the Tukanoans, Wakuenai (Arawakan), and Makú.

¹³⁰*Itabana* is an Arawakan designation with the ubiquitous /-bana/ morpheme.

as his subjects." (Federmann [1557] 1958: 93 [my translation]).

There is also some indication that during summer time (dry season), the Caquetío --and other groups as well-- became more mobile, possibly related to the hunting season and ease of travel across rivers, as for example the modern Bororo in Brasil. Federmann noted that when he first met the chief of Itabana "*I found him sitting in a spacious summer hut [cabaña]...*" ([1557] 1958: 93).

Data regarding social stratification and the nature of the politics among the various Caquetío of the Northern Llanos is scanty. The Caquetío villages between Hacarigua and the village of Itabana (Cojedes-Sarare) appear to have been "confederated" into various politics, although the extent of the individual politics can not be precisely defined. As Morey noted, the one thing that does stand out is that no matter which groups enter in alliance, symbiosis, etc. the leadership was always in the hands of a Caquetío Indian (Morey 1975: 109). In addition to the chief office, which remains ill-defined, the chroniclers speak of "slaves" which usually were war captives or children and women abducted from their villages. The presence of such "slaves" among Caquetío is only confirmed for those inhabiting the Northern Llanos. As Morey noted:

"Slavery, in a modified form, existed among some Llanos groups; perhaps influenced by the Carib. This will be discussed in more detail under warfare, since most slaving was done in order to sell the slaves to groups in the east. However, some war captives were kept as slaves in the Llanos. Usually these were only the young children of a defeated group. These slaves were required to do only the normal work of any group member, and eventually became incorporated into the families of their captors, often by marriage. More unusual was the occurrence of voluntary servitude, whereby a group member would willingly become the servant of another in exchange for food and other necessities.[...] Such a practice indicates that there must have been, in the groups involved, some radical differences in access to material goods which produced, in turn, differences in social stratification." (Morey 1975: 105-106).

According to Morey (1975: 109), "*slavery was known among the Caquetío. They bought and sold war captives, whom they called naborias*" and "*like the Caquetío, the Cuyba also had slaves*".¹³¹ Certainly, Federmann had asked the *cacique* of Itabana

"...that he sell me one [*una: female*] of his *naborias* or slaves (that is how are named the peoples destined to be sold) and I

¹³¹The term *naboria* is of Taíno origin and was probably applied by Federmann and not the Caquetío. Federmann probably learned this term (as he did other terms such as *cacique*) in his various stays in Hispaniola. There is a remote, however unlikely, possibility that both Caquetío and Taíno languages used the same term for this institution. *Naboria* (Taíno) according to Las Casas is a servant (*criado, sirviente*), while Oviedo y Valdés and Federmann translated it as slave (Perea 1941: 56). According to Perea (1941: 55-57), the etymology of *naboria* can be reconstructed from Lokono as follows: it comes from the noun *bor* and its *statu constructo* *ubórun*, which gloss as 'excavator, instrument of excavation, the action and effect of excavating'. The third person would be formed as *na-bor-un*. In short the word is best translated as a *field-worker* who probably was of a lower social strata but not necessarily a slave.

offered to give twice her value... but the *naboria* was denied to me, even though it is their custom to sell them [*female gender*] and buy them [*female gender*]." (Federmann [1557] 1958: 94 [my translation and clarifications in brackets]).

The presence of this kind of *naborias* in Itabana, combined with the larger network of allied villages under a Caquetío chief, does suggest that there is a certain degree of social stratification. However, the nature of the Caquetío chiefdom's in the Llanos remains elusive. It may have been of the same kind as that described for Barquisimeto (Peace/War). The fact that villages were "confederated", at a time when there was a clear threat from Federmann's people, does not automatically imply a hierarchical, centralized power of the style described for the Coastal Caquetío.

3.10 Caquetío Distribution in the Llanos

Several expeditions, especially that of Jorge Espira or Georg Hohermuth (1535-1538), Federmann's third expedition (1537-1539), and Philip von Hutten or Felipe Utre (1541-1546), confirmed the presence of Caquetío groups extending even further beyond the Cojedes watershed.¹³² Hutten's expedition was perhaps the most ambitious, reaching as far south as the upper tributaries of the Caquetá river (then known as Papamene). After this last expedition there was a long period of silence about the Llanos, and not until the 1680's it became a focal point of conquest and expansion, this time by the efforts of the Jesuit missionaries.

Juan de Castellanos mentions that Espira (Hohermuth) found Caquetío groups "*between the rivers of Apuri [Apure] and Sarari [Sarare]*" (Castellanos [1589] 1962: 216 stanza 49). Fray Pedro Simón is even more explicit:

"[Hohermuth] crossed the Apure. And upon arriving to a village between it [Apure] and the one further ahead, Zarare, of the nation of Caquetios..." (Simón 1963 [2]:57 [my translation]).

"Continuing southward, he reached the Aure river where again he found another Caquetío village" (Simón 1962 [2]: 57, 59).¹³³

Oviedo y Valdés ([1526-1557] 1944 [6]) tells us that Espira travelled south of the *darari* (Sarare) and ten days after they reached the *cazavari* (Casanare?), which was a very large river with many boulders, and "*still walked among the land of the Caquetios*" (ibid p. 49). These bits of information suggest that the southern boundaries of the Caquetío of the Llanos were somewhere south of the Apure and north of this *cazavari*. The so-called *darari* river is none other than the Sarare (not to be confused with the tributary of the Cojedes of the same

¹³²Hutten's diary of Espira's expedition is found in Gabaldón 1962 [2]: 349-370; cf. also Oviedo y Valdés [1526-1557] 1944 [6]: 45-84, Aguado [1579] 1963 [1]: 197-ff.

¹³³"Y llegando a un pueblo que estaba entre él y el de más adelante, Zarare, de nación *caquetios*, que al pasar habían dejado de amistad Jorge de Espira se rancheó en él...(p.57). Llegando, algunas leguas más delante [al sur], a un río llamado Aure, a cuyas riberas se alojó, despachando luego desde allí algunas soldados a buscar comidas... una tropa de éstos, llegando a una población de indios *caquetios*, que no estaba lejos del alojamiento..." (Simón 1962 [2]: 57-59).

name). A map dated to 1730, by D'Anville, Paris, locates a group of *Chaquetíos* in the juncture of the Apure and Auro rivers (Fig. 42). The expedition continued travelling a south-southwest direction following the eastern slopes of the Andes, and avoiding the flooded, swampy lowlands. Although it is logical to assume that other ethnic and linguistic groups also inhabited these regions (e.g. Guaycarí), it would seem that the predominant groups belonged to the Caquetío. It is clear that there were Caquetío villages extending along the "higher" Western Llanos between Hacarigua, at the gate toward Barquisimeto, and the Sarare River to the south, perhaps as far south as this *cazavari* river (Casanare?).

From about 1680 onward most of the Caquetío of the Llanos had vanished. At least they were not mentioned any longer by the chroniclers. In his excellent study, Father José del Rey Fajardo (1979) has surveyed in detail the Jesuit literature and compiled a detailed list of the ethnic groups and sub-groups. I have checked all of the original sources cited by del Rey Fajardo and have found no additional information on the Caquetío. From this time period onward, the dominant Arawakan-speaking group, replacing the earlier Caquetío, was the Achagua (including the various phratric nomenclatures by which they were known).

In the area of the Pauto River (Fig. 28) a group was mentioned by Father Rivero ([1728-9] 1956:56, 155), which may have been Caquetío. These were transcribed as *Cacatío*. Nothing is said about their language except that it was *not* like the Girara (Rey Fajardo 1979:92). Rivero spoke of them as "*a numerous people*", but Gumilla puts it at about 1,000 people (including Girara). Again, the term *Cacatío* is reported by Rivero ([1728-9] 1956:47, 401), this time located in the Isla de Adoles, in the Orinoco river, and another in the Guaviare river. Along with these, Rivero mentions the Sálivas, Adoles, and Yaruros. These *Cacatío* are said to be numerous but not as much as the Sáliva.

Father Gilij, who had been in the Orinoco and Meta between 1749 and 1768, noted another group designated as *Tiaos* as a numerous group that once inhabited the territory of the Tamanaco in the Northern Llanos. (Gilij [1780-4] 1965 [2]: 279; Rey Fajardo 1979:116).¹³⁴ Alfredo Jahn 1927:213) also discovered a quote by Father Rivero ([1728-9] 1956: 30) where the kinship term *mude* (roughly translated as: "cousin") of the Achagua was incorporated in *tamude* as an Achaguan designation for the Caquetío. Jahn has argued correctly that such term suggests a common origin for the Achagua and the Caquetío within the "*great Arawak family*", which was then still much in debate. These Caquetío-Tamudes inhabited the llanos within a region known as Barraguá in the Gran Airico area; that is, the upper tributaries of the Vichada-Meta (Barraguá is not to be confused with the "other" Barraguán or Barraguá in the Lower Meta/Vichada, along the Orinoco).¹³⁵

Throughout the period between 1680 and the 1770's, the most numerous Arawakan-speaking group belonged to the Achaguan phratries, spread over a vast territory. The ethnohistory of this remarkable macro-ethnic group has been well documented and analyzed by Nancy Morey's (1975) doctoral dissertation. Contrary to her perception (favored hypothesis) of the Caquetío of the Llanos being the result of fleeing from Barquisimeto and Falcón due to the Spanish, I feel that the evidence presented here supports the hypothesis that the Caquetío of the Llanos (Casanare-Apure) were the remnants of a very widespread series of polities who had spread well before the arrival of either Achagua or Spanish. More important, the earliest mention of true Achagua dates to 1583 and puts them between the

¹³⁴ The term *tiao* may be etymologically related to the Caquetío term *diao* (t::d).

¹³⁵ "Hicieron [los españoles e indios caribes] no obstante presas de Caquetíos e Achaguas. Amenazados y flajelados éstos para que dijese la verdad, confesaron llanamente que en la otra banda del río Uva era muchísimo el gentío que había..." (Rivero [1728-29]: 1956: 28).

Then the Spanish party moved into the Meta, upriver from the Orinoco, crossing into Moco River and toward Vichada by land and soon encountered Achagua villages and after surrendering to the Spanish the latter settled in that village near the Vichada. At which point, Rivero tells us:

"Allí plantaron sus reales y se detuvieron por algún tiempo; mientras tanto algunos de los soldados más esforzados y deseosos de examinar á Barragua y llevar adelante la conquista, penetraron parte de la montaña [bush], no muy espesa sino clara y a trechos con algunas sabanas, ó prados que es lo mismo, y dieron con *otra nación que los Achaguas llaman Tamudes y los españoles Caquetíos*, de los cuales aprisionaron veinte, y por ellos supieron que eran sin número los indios de Barragua o Airico....Supieron también de los prisioneros Caquetíos que de la otra banda de la sierra [Barragua], corre un río muy grande, á cuyas orillas había infinidad de indios, y muchos de ellos vestidos." (ibid.: p.30).

headwaters of the Aripopo and the mouth of Caño del Pico of the Meta River (Useche 1987:201). An earlier, but dubious mention, from 1535, talks about "Jaguas carniceros" located near the mouth of the Meta (Useche 1987:23). This contrasts with the rather consistent and frequent mention of Caquetío villages in the XVIth century.¹³⁶

By the onset of the XVIIth century and onward, the Achagua were observed all over the Llanos, and were without a doubt the most predominant of all Arawakan-speaking groups. The Caquetío had been reduced to a few villages. This pattern of distribution of ethnolinguistic groups fits quite well with the hypothesis of a very late expansion by Achaguan groups into the Llanos from the south.

¹³⁶After the completion of this chapter, I have received a new publication of the FIAN series of the Banco de la República of Colombia, where Mariano Useche Losada (1987) offers an extremely detailed account of the Colonial process in the Upper Orinoco to Río Negro basins, including large segments of the Llanos. His own research supports del Rey's and my own observations regarding the distribution of the Achagua and the Caquetío, and their earliest mentions. Useche (1987: 201), however has located a 1535 reference about a group designated by the chroniclers as "*xaguas carniceros*" located along the shores of the Lower Meta. However, it is unclear whether this *cannibal Xaguas* are, indeed, Achagua or Xaguas., that is, Arawakan-speaking groups, or whether these are Caribs (reference to cannibalism).

3.11 Concluding Remarks

Several aspects of the above study ought to be kept in mind for future reference. The Guajiro-Wayú, Kusi'na-Wayú and the Onoto-Paraujano ethnic groups, which are linguistically close, were pushed from the Maracaibo Basin into the Guajira Peninsula possibly by expanding Carib-speaking groups. Upon reaching the peninsula, the Guajiro apparently displaced a Macro-Chibchan-speaking group, the Arhuaco (or its ancestors) out of the region. These Arawakan-speaking groups were all surrounded by ethnic groups which clearly, at least on linguistic grounds, had arrived to the Maracaibo Basin much after the Guajiros, with the noted exception of the Arhuaco and related groups. The sporadic presence of Caquetío in the Western Sphere is in all probability the result of a late expansion out of the Coast of Falcón.

Arawakan-speaking groups in the Llanos, during the first 40 years of Spanish penetration, were dominated by various polities of Caquetío; however, by mid XVIIth century the predominant Arawakan-speaking groups were of Achagua affiliation. I suggest that the Caquetío were the earlier inhabitants, who later were overwhelmed by the expanding Achagua out of the Vichada and Guaviare river and interfluvial areas (Gran Airico).

The nature of the Caquetío polities, thus far portrayed and typed as a Theocratic Chiefdom, are far more diverse than such label warrants (Faron and Steward 1959; Sanoja and Vargas 1979 [Theocratic Mode of Production]). After examining the varied nature of the Caquetío polities it is best to differentiate them into:

1. **The Coastal Caquetío Polity:** Is characterized by a hierarchical, centralized leadership, with a paramount chief that embodied both shamanistic as well as worldly power, but whose power still had to operate through a council of second-order chiefs. The office of chief or *diao* was in the XVIth century inherited by the son of the *diao*. First and second order *diaos* had the prerogative of polygamy, including marriage alliances with foreign ethnic groups. The settlements were not nucleated or tightly clustered over a limited space, and the territory seems to have been further sub-divided into smaller sociopolitical units, possibly controlled directly by second-order chiefs. The village itself also had a lesser principal "chief", who probably was the head of a lineage group. The villages did not have defensive constructions. Domestic dwellings were capable of housing an extended family of 40 to 50 individuals (*maloca*), and several of these dwellings constituted (in the eyes of the chroniclers) a *poblado* (village). There were also two other types of settlements. the outposts and frontier settlements, in locations such as Upper Guajira, which I suggest to be used for trading exotic goods back to Coastal Falcón. A major feature of this polity is their lack of an effective military organization and in confrontational situations, the norm is to *alzarse* (flee, run away). The Coastal Caquetío polity extended all through the coast of modern Falcón State, the islands of Curaçao, Aruba, and Bonaire, and included frontier settlements in the Guajira's Cabo de La Vela to Punta Espada coastal zone and lowland alluvial plains of the Juruara region in eastern Maracaibo.
2. **The Barquisimeto Caquetío Polity:** The most distinguishing features (in contrast to the above) of this polity are the extremely dense population and the nucleation or clustering of villages and the contrasting peace-time leadership with a

wartime leadership. The former is based on reciprocity and redistribution of wealth, by which the "chief" achieves prestige. The latter, as any militaristic institution, presents a tendency toward hierarchical and ranked organization, with a centralized military leadership. The upward mobility of the warriors into the leadership elite is achieved through war exploits. In war-time, alliances beyond the local level (intra-village) are firmly established, and War Chiefs that have reached the peak of their prestige are able to muster very large forces (even allowing for Federmann's exaggerated head counts). As the Coastal Caquetío, they were lowland farmers. The clustered villages included defensive constructions. The Barquisimeto Caquetío had a territorial limitation defined by the local geographical constraints (one cause for warfare) and, despite being surrounded by enemies, they actively traded salt and other goods with them. No mention is made as to how far their trade network extended, but gold could be obtained from the Nirgüa-Buria highlands, while the salt was probably obtained via Yaracuy Valley. The Barquisimeto Caquetío clustered around the watersheds of the Turbio and Claro rivers within the Barquisimeto plateau. Evidence of recent warfare between them and the Yaracuy Caquetío suggest that either both polities were once "confederated", with the latter recently having seceded. As a result, a no-man's-land buffer zone was created between the two polities. Finally, although the Barquisimeto Caquetío hegemony over the advantageous floodplains was obviously challenged by surrounding groups, they were successful in maintaining control over the lowlands. The Caquetío were the newcomers in contrast to the Gayón, Xagua, Chipa, etc., who were driven out by the more numerous and powerful Caquetío.

3. The Yaracuy Caquetío: This polity is more difficult to define. It would seem that, as with Barquisimeto Caquetío, they may have had a similar peace vs. war time leadership. However, peacetime leadership in general did not galvanize beyond a few neighboring villages. In wartime, however, Federmann speculated that large forces --as large as those of Barquisimeto-- could be mustered in their defense. Their settlements were lineal, sometimes extending quite some distance along the valley, possibly along the Yaracuy river. Even though I maintain the Yaracuy and the Barquisimeto apart, I suspect that both were once a single polity and that only recent historical circumstance (limited land/space, trade route access, demographic pressures) had resulted in schismogenesis. The Yaracuy Caquetío polity controlled the territory of the Yaracuy Valley from about the (modern) Sabana de Parra village to near the mouth of the Yaracuy river, but not including the coastal villages. The latter were part of the Coastal Caquetío polity.

4. The Hacarigua Caquetío Polity: Undoubtedly this polity's most distinctive features are the integration into the social fabric of two different ethnic and linguistic groups. It is known that the Hacarigua chief was a Caquetío, and that he embodied both peace and wartime chief responsibilities. In addition, the Hacarigua settlement pattern is clearly a series of *malocas* along the Cojedes river, all of which were probably organized into either a series of simple and/or compound exogamic groups. Their social structure is hypothesized to conform to the Northwestern Amazonian type, as exemplified by the contemporary Tukanoans. The population density is probably comparable to that of Barquisimeto or Yaracuy.

5. Other Llanos Caquetío Politics: Because of the lack of more detailed information, the Caquetío politics south of the Hacarigua territory is more difficult to precisely characterize. Perhaps another different type of intra and intervillage organization existed further south in the Llanos, such as the the Caquetío of Cohaheri who lived in symbiosis with the Guaycarí. In contrast to Hacarigua, the Northern Llanos Caquetío lived in monoethnic and monolingual villages, yet had developed a strong symbiotic relationship with other ethnic groups (i.e., Guaycarí). Although the Caquetío and Guaycarí lived within the same territory, each unit maintained separate settlements. The Caquetío chiefs were of limited authority over their subjects, but were able to maintain alliances extending beyond the local village. In wartime the Caquetío chiefs were able to call upon their alliances and these included the Guaycarí, who also had their own war leaders. From the accounts of Federmann, it would seem that military leadership between Caquetío and Guaycarí was a matter of collaboration, and appears to be less centralized than, for example, the Barquisimeto Caquetío. Military and secular leadership was embodied in the same Caquetío leader, as it is clear from the behavior of the diao of Curahamara and Itabana. None of the chiefs were characterized as having also shamanistic powers. The Northern Llanos Caquetío extended from the upper Cojedes-Portuguesa basin as far south as the upper reaches of the Casanare. Clearly they occupied the upper Llanos ecological zone, about the Andean piedmont.

The various Caquetío politics above outlined could be further synthesized and regrouped into two basic "types": 1) The Coastal Caquetío (hierarchical) and 2) The Northern Llanos Caquetío. The former is typified by a comparatively low density population, a hierarchical authority and further territorial political sub-divisions under a ranked local to second to first order chiefs. The paramount chief embodied both secular and sacred powers. Military organizations were deemphasized. The Llanos Caquetío, on the contrary, lacked a centralized, ranked authority, *except in warfare contexts* --precisely the institution which the Coastal Caquetío deemphasized.

The Northern Llanos Caquetío were far more densely populated than their Coastal "cousins", and the degree of settlement clustering was also more variable within the Llanos. Possibly the most important and distinctive feature that distinguishes the Coastal from the Northern Llanos/Barquisimeto Caquetío is the degree of inter-ethnic relationship, which undoubtedly aided in the shaping of Caquetío cultural variability. While the Coastal Caquetío, for all practical effects, unchallenged by other ethnic competition in their territory, the Northern Llanos Caquetío characteristic is one of either positive (i.e. symbiosis, alliance) or negative (warfare) relationships with a wide range of non-Caquetío ethnic groups. In other words, the very functioning and cultural operability of the Northern Llanos Caquetío groups was in great measure dependent on successful adaptations (positive or negative) to their neighboring but "foreign" ethnic groups. The relationships that developed through exposure and mutual influences probably lead to the development of a variety of "cultural types" and of Caquetío politics in the Northern Llanos. It is, in my view, the lack of competing non-Caquetío groups in the coast of Falcón and the Islands that became the historical force that shaped the XVIth century Coastal Caquetío polity. By contrast, the very fact that the Northern Llanos was a densely populated region, with multiple ethnic and linguistic groups, with a wide range of adaptations (Guaycarí fishermen-nomads, Caquetío agriculturalists), which shaped and promoted the cultural and political variability exhibited by

the Caquetío of this area. This also may be part of the explanation as to why the Coastal Caquetío deemphasized warfare in contrast to the Llanos, where it was a major force in the shaping of leadership types.

In the following chapter I will be developing the argument (model) that the distribution of the archaeological Tierroid Tradition closely correlates (in time and space) with the distribution of the Barquisimeto and Yaracuy Polities; furthermore, the Tierra de Los Indios complex correlates best with the Barquisimeto polity, while the San Pablo complex correlates with the Yaracuy polity. There are also some recent archaeological surveys in the Portuguesa river valley suggesting closer ceramic-stylistic affinities to San Pablo complex, thus tying-in all of these complexes into what I call the Tierran Sub-Tradition. Likewise, the Coastal Caquetío distribution in time and space is precisely congruent with the distribution of the Dabajuran Sub-Tradition of Falcón. Furthermore, there is a good correspondence between the Caquetío of the Guajira trading with groups in the Ranchería Valley, and the sudden, late appearance of archaeological (pottery) traits (vessel forms) in the area of Coro which can only have been derived from the Ranchería area (Los Médanos [Coro] and Portacelli [Ranchería] complexes).

I will also present the argument that the Guajiro and Paraujano spatial distribution are the end result of the expansion of a very early and broad polychrome tradition that I designate as Macro-Tocuyanoid. I will show that the Loman Sub-Tradition is the most likely and, for now, the only archaeological Sub-Tradition that has all the qualifications of style and distribution to accept as the archaeological counterpart of the ethnohistoric Arawakan-speaking Guajiro-Paraujano of the Guajira.

NEW ILLUSTRATIONS ADDED FOR THE PDF VERSION ONLY



Juana de Dios López making a ceramic bowl, El Llano de Bolivia, Dabajuro, Falcón 1982.



A typical vessel for set, produced by Juana de Dios López (1980-1982).



Doña Urbina building a globular vessel using the coling method, El Pizarral, Paraguaná, 1981. All the technological and formal details of this vessel are indistinguishable from the Dabajuran ceramic tradition.



Typical kitchen hearth with elevated platform. Note the *budare* (1), metate (2) and the *tinaja* for water (3) and the *olla* cooking vessel, temporarily used for storage. El Tecal, Falcón State, 1982.



Figure 43: Pola Urbina, of the *caserío* of Sarinao in Paraguaná, showing the author how she adds a clay layer of reinforcement to the bottom of her globular olla and pressing the reinforcement with a *tuza* (corn cob), leaving negative cupule

impressions (1982).. [B & W replaced with color only in the PDF version.]